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Medieval History Notes

*Advent of Islam and Turkish Invasions in India***Core Overview**

- The emergence of Islam is associated with the life of **Prophet Muhammad from 570 AD to 632 AD** at **Mecca**, after which Arab expansion extended into West and Central Asia. The victory at the **Battle of Qadisiya** led to the defeat of the **Sassanian Empire** and brought Arab forces to the frontier of **al-Hind**, initiating prolonged interaction with the north-western regions of the Indian subcontinent.
- The first successful Muslim invasion of India was led by **Muhammad bin Qasim in 712 AD**, resulting in the conquest of **Sindh and Multan**. This Arab phase remained regionally confined. The subsequent Turkish phase, marked by the raids of **Mahmud of Ghazni between 1000 AD and 1027 AD** and the expansionist campaigns of **Muhammad Ghori between 1175 AD and 1205–06 AD**, led to deeper penetration into North India and culminated in the establishment of the **Delhi Sultanate in 1206 AD** by **Qutbuddin Aibak**.

Chronological Framework

- The life of **Prophet Muhammad (570–632 AD)** marks the foundation of Islam, followed by rapid expansion. The **Battle of Qadisiya** enabled Arab forces to reach the Indian frontier, initiating nearly **four centuries** of interaction in the north-west.
- In **712 AD**, **Muhammad bin Qasim**, acting under **Al-Hajjaj**, advanced through **Makran**, captured **Dewal (Debal)**, and defeated **Raja Dahir** in a decisive battle dated **20 June 712 AD**, establishing control over **Sindh and Multan**. Arab authority continued for over a century but remained regionally confined.
- In **998–999 AD**, **Mahmud of Ghazni** ascended the throne and conducted **17 invasions between 1000 AD and 1027 AD**, defeating **Jayapala in 1001 AD** and **Anandapala in 1008–1009 AD**, attacking major centres, raiding the **Somnath Temple in 1025–26 AD**, and dying in **1030 AD**.
- In **1173 AD**, **Muhammad Ghori** rose to power, invaded **Multan in 1175 AD**, was defeated in **1178–79 AD at Gujarat**, defeated **Khusrau Malik in 1186 AD**, fought the **First Battle of Tarain in 1191 AD**, won the **Second Battle of Tarain in 1192 AD**, defeated **Jaichand in the Battle of Chandawar in 1194 AD**, expanded eastward, left India after **1203 AD**, fought his last campaign in **1205 AD**, and his conquests culminated in the establishment of the **Delhi Sultanate in 1206 AD**.

Arab Expansion: Campaign, Administration, and Limits

- Muhammad bin Qasim's campaign** followed a structured advance through **Makran**, capture of **Dewal**, and defeat of **Raja Dahir in 712 AD**, bringing **Sindh and Multan** under Arab control. This marked the first stable Islamic political foothold in India.
- Arab administration introduced Islamic governance practices, under which the local population was treated as **zimmis**, ensuring protected status under Islamic law. The historical text **Chachnama** provides insight into the political structure of Sindh and identifies **Aroda** as its capital.

- Despite this success, Arab expansion remained limited. After the death of **Muhammad bin Qasim**, expansion slowed, and resistance from powers such as the **Pratiharas** confined Arab authority largely to Sindh. Arab rule continued for over a century but did not extend into the Gangetic plains.
- Arab interaction with India also included trade and settlement through the **Persian Gulf, Malabar Coast, and Coromandel Coast**, and intermarriage led to the formation of the **Mappillais** community.

Ghaznavid Expansion: Campaigns, Features, and Impact

- The Ghaznavid state emerged after the decline of the **Abbasid Caliphate**, with **Alptigin** establishing control at **Ghazni**, followed by **Subuktigin**, who defeated **Jayapala** and captured **Peshawar**, marking the beginning of Turkish expansion towards India.
- Mahmud of Ghazni**, ascending in **998–999 AD**, conducted **17 invasions**, primarily aimed at acquiring wealth. He defeated **Jayapala in 1001 AD** and **Anandapala in 1008–1009 AD**, attacked **Nagarkot, Thanesar, Mathura, and Kanauj**, and campaigned against the **Chandelas in 1019 AD** during the reign of **Vidyadhar**. His most notable raid was the destruction of the **Somnath Temple in 1025–26 AD**, after which he returned through the **desert of Sindh**. His final campaign was against the **Jats in 1027 AD**, and he died in **1030 AD**.
- Mahmud received the title **Yamin al-Dawla**, leading to the term **Yamini dynasty**, and was also known as **Butshikan**. His court included **Utbi, Firdausi, and Al-Biruni**, who wrote *Tahqiq-e-Hind* and possessed knowledge of **Sanskrit, mathematics, and geography**. His coinage bore inscriptions in **Arabic and Sanskrit**.
- His invasions led to the destruction of the **Hindu Shahi kingdom**, economic depletion, and weakening of the north-western frontier. After his death, the Ghaznavid state declined and was eventually replaced by the **Ghurids**.

Ghurid Expansion: Consolidation and Political Transformation

- The **Ghurids**, initially vassals of the Ghaznavids, rose to prominence after their decline. **Muhammad Ghori** aimed to establish a territorial empire and began with the conquest of **Multan in 1175 AD**, followed by consolidation in **Punjab and Sindh**.
- He was defeated in **1178–79 AD** by **Bhimdev II of Gujarat**, but later defeated **Khusrau Malik in 1186 AD**, establishing control over Punjab. During the **1180s and 1190s**, he established military **garrisons**, strengthening Turkish presence.
- In the **First Battle of Tarain in 1191 AD**, **Prithviraj Chauhan** defeated Ghori, but failed to consolidate his position. In the **Second Battle of Tarain in 1192 AD**, Ghori returned and defeated Prithviraj, marking a decisive shift in power. After this, Prithviraj was captured, with differing traditions regarding his execution.
- In the **Battle of Chandawar in 1194 AD**, Ghori defeated **Jaichand**, leading to the collapse of the **Gahadavala dynasty** and expansion of Turkish authority up to **Banaras**. These victories also resulted in the decline of the **Chauhan dynasty**.
- Ghori appointed **Qutbuddin Aibak**, and **Ajmer** became an administrative centre. After **1203 AD**, he withdrew from India, conducted his final campaign in **1205 AD**, and his conquests

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culminated in the establishment of the **Delhi Sultanate in 1206 AD**. His coinage bore the **Kalma** and the image of **Goddess Lakshmi**.

Bakhtiyar Khilji and Associated Developments

- **Muhammad bin Bakhtiyar Khilji** extended Turkish power into eastern India by conquering **Bihar** and destroying **Nalanda and Vikramshila**, and advancing into **Bengal between 1198 AD and 1203 AD** during the reign of **Lakshman Sen**.
- The period also witnessed the arrival of **Sheikh Moinuddin Chishti**, associated with the spread of Sufi traditions in India.

Supplementary Notes

- A **hundi** functioned as a financial instrument for credit and transfer of money in medieval India.
- A **Darshani hundi** was payable on sight, while a **Miyadi hundi** was payable after a fixed period.
- The Turks originated in **Central Asia near the north-western borders of China** and later adopted Islam, emerging as a major military force.

Comparative Perspective

- The **Arab phase** was confined to **Sindh and Multan**, whereas the **Turkish phase** expanded deep into North India.
- **Mahmud of Ghazni's invasions** were primarily **plunder-oriented**, whereas **Muhammad Ghori's campaigns** were aimed at **territorial consolidation**.
- The **Ghaznavid phase** was characterised by **repeated raids without administrative control**, whereas the **Ghurid phase** involved **garrisons and structured governance**.
- The Arab phase produced a **temporary foothold**, whereas the Turkish phase resulted in the **establishment of the Delhi Sultanate in 1206 AD**.

Battles

- The **First Battle of Tarain (1191 AD)** resulted in the victory of **Prithviraj Chauhan**, temporarily halting Ghurid expansion.
- The **Second Battle of Tarain (1192 AD)** resulted in the victory of **Muhammad Ghori**, marking the establishment of Turkish dominance.
- The **Battle of Chandawar (1194 AD)** resulted in the defeat of **Jaichand**, enabling expansion into the Gangetic plains.

Revision Points

- **570–632 AD** marks the life of **Prophet Muhammad** and the emergence of Islam.
- The **Battle of Qadisiya** enabled Arab forces to reach the Indian frontier.
- **712 AD** marks the conquest of **Sindh by Muhammad bin Qasim** after defeating **Raja Dahir**.
- Arab rule in India lasted for **over one century** and remained confined to **Sindh and Multan**.
- **Mahmud of Ghazni** conducted **17 invasions between 1000 AD and 1027 AD** with the objective of plunder.
- The **Somnath Temple raid (1025–26 AD)** was the most notable expedition of Mahmud.

- **Muhammad Ghori** initiated expansion from **1175 AD** and focused on territorial consolidation.
- The **Second Battle of Tarain (1192 AD)** marked a decisive turning point in Indian history.
- The **Delhi Sultanate was established in 1206 AD by Qutbuddin Aibak**.

Examination - Points

- The first successful Muslim invasion of India was carried out by **Muhammad bin Qasim in 712 AD**, not by Mahmud or Ghori.
- **Mahmud of Ghazni** did not establish a permanent empire in India, as his campaigns were aimed at **plunder**.
- **Muhammad Ghori's campaigns** led to **territorial consolidation**, unlike Mahmud's raids.
- The outcomes of the **First and Second Battles of Tarain (1191 AD and 1192 AD)** must not be confused.
- The defeat of **Muhammad Ghori in 1178–79 AD in Gujarat** must not be confused with Tarain.
- **Al-Biruni** was a scholar and scientist, whereas **Firdausi** was a poet.
- The **Yamini dynasty** derives its name from the title **Yamin al-Dawla**.
- Variations exist regarding **Mahmud's accession (998/999 AD)** and the fate of **Prithviraj Chauhan**, which require careful attention.

*Delhi Sultanate: Foundation, Dynasties,
Administration and Culture*

Core Overview

- The **Delhi Sultanate** emerged after the Turkish invasions and was politically rooted in the conquests of **Muhammad Ghori**. After Ghori's death, **Qutb-ud-din Aibak** founded the **Slave or Mamluk Dynasty in 1206 AD**, with **Lahore** as an early capital. The Sultanate continued through five dynasties: **Mamluk (1206–1290 AD)**, **Khalji (1290–1320 AD)**, **Tughlaq (1320–1413 AD – 1414 AD)**, **Sayyid (1414–1451 AD)** and **Lodi (1451–1526 AD)**.
- This period witnessed military expansion, Mongol pressure, administrative experiments, revenue reforms, urban growth, Indo-Islamic architecture, Persian literary culture, regional fragmentation and the eventual end of the Sultanate after the **First Battle of Panipat in 1526 AD**, where **Ibrahim Lodi** was defeated by **Babur**.

A. Dynastic Timeline and Ruler Sequence

- The **Mamluk Dynasty (1206–1290 AD)** began with **Qutb-ud-din Aibak (1206–1210 AD)** and included **Shams-ud-din Iltutmish (1210–1236 AD)**, **Razia Sultan (1236–1240 AD)**, **Nasir-ud-din Mahmud (1246–1266 AD)** and **Balban (1266–1287 AD)**.
- The **Khalji Dynasty (1290–1320 AD)** began with **Jalal-ud-din Khalji (1290–1296 AD)** and reached its peak under **Alauddin**

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Khalji (1296–1316 AD), followed by **Mubarak Shah Khalji (1316–1320 AD)**.

- The **Tughlaq Dynasty (1320–1413 AD – 1414 AD)** began with **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq (1320–1324 AD – 1325 AD)**, followed by **Muhammad bin Tughlaq (1324–1351 AD – 1325–1351 AD)** and **Firoz Shah Tughlaq (1351–1388 AD)**.
- The **Sayyid Dynasty (1414–1451 AD)** began with **Khizr Khan (1414–1421 AD)** and included **Mubarak Shah (1421–1433 AD – 1434 AD)**, **Muhammad Shah (1434–1443 AD – 1445 AD)** and **Alauddin Alam Shah (1445–1451 AD)**.
- The **Lodi Dynasty (1451–1526 AD)** began with **Bahlul Lodi (1451–1489 AD)**, followed by **Sikandar Lodi (1489–1517 AD)** and **Ibrahim Lodi (1517–1526 AD)**.

B. Mamluk Dynasty: Foundation and Consolidation
QUTB-UD-DIN AIBAK

- **Qutb-ud-din Aibak** was the trusted slave of **Muhammad Ghori**, who handed over Indian affairs to him after the **Battles of Tarain (1191 AD and 1192 AD)**. After Ghori's death, Aibak severed relations with **Ghazni**, declared himself Sultan and founded the **Slave or Mamluk Dynasty in 1206 AD**. His capital was **Lahore**, and this separation from Ghazni helped keep India away from direct **Central Asian politics**.
- Aibak strengthened his position through matrimonial alliances. He married the daughter of **Tajuddin Yaloz**, a trusted officer of Muhammad Ghori, and married his sister to **Nasiruddin Qubacha**, an influential officer of **Sindh**. **Muhammad bin Bakhtiyar Khalji**, a Turkish general from Afghanistan, assisted the early Sultanate expansion in **Bihar and Bengal** and is associated with the destruction of **Nalanda University**.
- Aibak died in **1210 AD** after falling from his horse while playing **chaugan or polo**. He was known as **Lakh Baksh** because of his extreme generosity and the distribution of large amounts of wealth to soldiers and dependents.
- His architectural and literary associations are important for prelims. He constructed **Quwwat-ul-Islam Mosque** at **Mehrauli, Delhi**, and **Adhai Din ka Jhopra** at **Ajmer**. He commissioned the **Qutub Minar** in memory of **Khwaja Qutbuddin Bakhtiyar Kaki**, but died before its completion. It was later completed by **Iltutmish**. **Tajul-Ma'asir**, the first history book of the Delhi Sultanate, was written by **Hasan Nizami** under Aibak's patronage.

Iltutmish

- **Shams-ud-din Iltutmish (1210–1236 AD)** was the slave and son-in-law of Aibak, so he is called the **slave of a slave**. He belonged to the **Ilbari or Ilwari Turk** group and was the governor of **Badaun** at the time of Aibak's death. He defeated Aibak's incompetent successor and emerged as the real consolidator of the Turkish conquests in northern India.

- Iltutmish shifted the capital from **Lahore to Delhi**, making Delhi the central seat of the Sultanate. He obtained a **Letter of Investiture in 1229 AD** from the **Abbasid Caliph of Baghdad**, becoming the first Sultan of Delhi to receive formal recognition from the Caliph.
- His major challenges included **Ghazni under Khwarizmi Shah, Qubacha's independence in Multan**, Rajput assertion in **Gwalior and Ajmer**, and **Ali Mardan Khan's assertion in Bihar and Bengal**. He eliminated **Tajuddin Yaloz** and **Nasiruddin Qubacha**, recovered **Multan**, and secured the Sultanate boundary up to the **Indus**.
- His Rajput policy included efforts to reclaim **Gwalior and Bayana**. He conducted expeditions against **Ranthambore, Jalore and Nagda**, while attempts against the **Chalukyas of Gujarat** had limited success.
- The first Mongol pressure reached India during his reign when **Genghis Khan** pursued **Khwarizm Jalaluddin** up to the **Indus**. Iltutmish avoided supporting Jalaluddin against the Mongols, thereby protecting the Sultanate from direct Mongol attack.
- Administratively, Iltutmish appointed elite military slaves called **Bandagan**, imported from centres like **Bukhara, Samarqand and Baghdad**, as governors and generals. He organised **Chahalgani or Chalisa**, a council of **forty Turkish nobles**, for administration. He introduced the **silver Tanka** and **copper Jital**, the two basic coins of the Sultanate period, and is also described as the first Sultan to issue **pure Arabic coins**.
- He started the **Iqta system** in India and mainly distributed iqta in the **Doab region**. He completed the **Qutub Minar**, which had been started by Aibak. He nominated his daughter **Razia Sultan** as his successor, which was an unconventional decision.

IQTA SYSTEM

- **Iqta** is an Arabic term and the institution began in **Persia or Iran**. It was used in Caliphate administration to finance state operations and pay civil and military officers.
- Under this system, rulers assigned revenue-bearing territories called **iqtas** to nobles or **umara** in place of cash salary. The assignees were known as **muqti** or **wali**. The muqti collected revenue, maintained troops from it, used part of it for personal and administrative expenses, and sent the surplus known as **fawazil** to the centre.
- Iqta was originally **non-hereditary**, did not give ownership rights over land, and was transferable every **three or four years**. The Iqta system later became hereditary under **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**.

Razia Sultan

- **Razia Sultan (1236–1240 AD)** was the only female Muslim ruler of the Sultanate and the first female ruler of medieval India. She defied prevailing norms by riding horses, bearing arms, discarding the veil, wearing male attire, appearing publicly in coat and hat like men, and leading the army.

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- She sent an expedition against **Ranthambore** against the Rajputs. Her effort to promote a non-Turk to high office created opposition among Turkish nobles. The struggle between monarchy and the Turkish chiefs or **Chahalgani** began during her reign.
- She appointed the Abyssinian slave **Jalaluddin Yaqut** as **Amir-i-Akhur**, the head of the royal stables. This angered Turkish nobles, and **Malik Altunia**, governor of **Bhatinda**, revolted against her. When Razia left the capital, Turkish nobles killed **Jalaluddin Yaqut** and placed **Muizzuddin Bahram Shah** on the throne. Razia was murdered in **1240 AD** while suppressing rebellion in southern Punjab.

Balban

- **Balban (1266–1287 AD)**, also known as **Ulugh Khan**, was a Turkish chief and a member of Ilutmish's **Chalisa**. His accession ended the struggle between monarchy and Turkish chiefs. He was highly authoritarian, intolerant of criticism and adopted a policy of consolidation rather than expansion.
- Balban assumed the title **Zil-e-Ilahi**, meaning shadow of God. His theory of kingship had two features: the Sultan's position was given by God, and the Sultan had to be autocratic. He considered the Sultan as God's representative on earth, placed after the Prophet.
- He abolished **Chahalgani** or **Chalisa** because of its growing influence. He enforced **Sijda**, or prostration, and **Paibos**, or kissing the monarch's feet. These ceremonies were of Iranian origin and were considered un-Islamic by some.
- Balban maintained an extensive spy network in government departments. He ensured impartial justice and made even high officials accountable. He preferred Turkish nobles for high offices and excluded Indian Muslims from positions of authority.
- His law and order policy was based on the **policy of blood and iron**. He used it to suppress robbers, dacoits, Meos of Mewat and disorder in **Awadh** and the **Ganga-Yamuna Doab**. Military outposts or **thanas** were established around Delhi. Afghan soldiers were settled in the **Doab and Katehar**, modern Rohilkhand, to secure roads and control Rajput zamindars.
- He reorganised **Diwan-i-Arz**, the military department, and provided pensions to soldiers no longer fit for service. He maintained a strong centralised military to face internal disturbances and Mongol threats. **Balban's Tomb** is associated with the first true arch, and it is also described as India's first tomb in pure Islamic style. **Lal Mahal** in Delhi is also associated with Balban.

C. MONGOLS AND THE NORTH-WEST FRONTIER

- India's natural boundaries gave protection on many sides, but the **north-western mountain passes** allowed entry to invaders such as **Turks, Huns and Scythians**. Control over **Kabul, Ghazni and Qandahar** was vital for protecting **Punjab and Sindh**.
- The Delhi Sultanate faced difficulty in securing these frontiers because of instability in West Asia. The rising **Khwarizmi Empire**

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had seized areas from the Ghurids and increased pressure on the Sultanate. In **1218 AD**, **Genghis Khan** launched devastating attacks on the Khwarizmi Empire and caused massive economic and cultural damage.

- During the Mongol onslaught, the Delhi Sultanate became a refuge for princes and scholars and emerged as an important centre of Islam.

*D. Khalji Dynasty: Social Transition, Military Expansion and Economic Control***Background of the Khaljis**

- The **Khaljis** were of mixed **Turkish-Afghan origin**. They came to India at the time of the **Ghurid invasion** and moved to **Bengal and Bihar** in search of opportunity. Some Khaljis were posted as soldiers in the north-west to meet the Mongol challenge.
- The establishment of the Khalji dynasty marked an important phase because it brought changes in the social, economic and political structure. The **Khalji Revolution** broadly meant the end of a caste and race-based monopoly over governance.

Jalaluddin Khalji

- **Jalaluddin Khalji (1290–1296 AD)** founded the Khalji Dynasty. He rose to power amid the incompetence of Balban's heirs and the plotting of nobles. He began his rise under **Kaiqubad (1280–1290 AD)**. Under Kaiqubad, he served as **Subedar of Samana** and **Sar-e-Jahandar**, or royal bodyguard. Kaiqubad gave him the title **Shaista Khan**.
- In **1290 AD**, he got himself crowned at the **Kilokhari palace** built by Kaiqubad and became ruler of Delhi. He did not exclude Turks from high offices but ended their monopoly. He moderated Balban's harsh policies and followed a tolerant approach towards Hindus, arguing that a Hindu-majority state could not be solely Islamic. He abandoned Balban's **blood and iron** approach and adopted a policy of non-interference.
- He defeated the Mongol attack led by **Hulagu's grandson** in **1292 AD**. **Alauddin Khalji**, then governor of **Kara-Manikpur near Allahabad**, successfully invaded **Malwa and Devagiri**, capital of the Yadava kingdom. Jalaluddin was killed by his nephew and son-in-law **Alauddin Khalji**, who then ascended the throne.

Alauddin Khalji

- **Alauddin Khalji (1296–1316 AD)** was the nephew and son-in-law of **Jalaluddin Khalji**. He murdered Jalaluddin at **Kara-Manikpur** and declared himself Sultan. He was intolerant compared to Jalaluddin.
- He took the title **Sikander-i-Azam** and also assumed **Sikander-e-Sani**, which he inscribed on his coins. He ignored the **Ulema** and established state control over religion. He called himself **Yamin-ul-Khilafat Nasiri Amir-ul-Muminin**. He proclaimed **Kingship knows no kinship**, punished rebellious relatives and executed or

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dismissed nobles tempted by wealth. He banned wine, intoxicants and gambling.

- His revenue policy centralised collection directly from farmers and sidelined traditional village headmen. **Khots** and **muqaddams** lost customary privileges, were taxed like peasants, and were subjected to **Charai** and **Ghari** taxes. He increased the land tax to **50 percent** of produce. One source also records land tax on Hindus at **50 percent** and on Muslims at **one-fourth**.
- He measured land and created **Diwan-i-Mustakhraj** for land revenue collection and checking arrears. He used **Biswa**, equal to **1/20 of a bigha**, for measurement of cultivable land and calculation of productivity. Land tax was generally paid in cash, pushing peasants into the money market, but in the Doab region it could be collected in grain for future scarcity. He abolished **Kismati-Khuti**, the cess of village headmen.
- His military-administrative control included a postal system, a spy network, **Barid** officers and **munhiyans**. He created a standing army stationed in the capital and appointed **Ariz-e-Mumalik** for recruitment. He introduced **Dagh**, branding of horses, and **Chehra**, descriptive roll of soldiers. He was the first Sultan to pay soldiers in cash instead of shares of booty and maintained the largest standing army among the Delhi Sultans.
- His market reforms were designed to reduce military expenditure while sustaining a large army. He implemented price control, fixed prices of goods, stored grain in royal granaries and fixed maximum prices for grains, cloth, fruits, livestock, slaves and horses. Strict penalties were imposed for hoarding and black-marketing. **Shahna-i-Mandi** collected daily reports on market prices, while **Diwan-i-Riyasat** was created for market and price control. **Sadar-e-Riyasat** is also mentioned as an officer appointed for market control.
- Separate bazaars were established, including **Sarai-i-Adl** for cloth, sugar, herbs, dry fruits, butter and lamp oil, and another market for horses, slaves and cattle. Traders were registered and had to give written commitments to sell fixed quantities in the **Sarai-i-Adl**. Alauddin is also described as the father of the **Public Distribution System**.

Alauddin Khalji's Campaigns

- Alauddin defended Delhi against the Mongol invasion led by **Targhi**, who marched up to Delhi and besieged the city. His north Indian campaigns included **Ranthambore (1301 AD)**, **Chittor (1303 AD)** and **Malwa (1305 AD)**.
- In Gujarat, the ruler was **Rai Karan** or **Raja Karna Baghela**, and Alauddin sent **Ulugh Khan** through Sindh and **Nusrat Khan** through Rajputana. After conquering Gujarat, the Sultan's army plundered **Surat** and the **Somnath Temple**. At the port of **Khambhat**, **Nusrat Khan** purchased the Hindu eunuch **Malik Kafur**, known as **Hazar Dinari**.
- In the Ranthambore campaign, the ruler was **Hammirdev**, and Alauddin sent **Ulugh Khan** and **Nusrat Khan**. Nusrat Khan was killed, and Hammirdev died heroically.
- Alauddin attacked **Chittor** in the context of the story of Rani Padmini's beauty, later mentioned by **Malik Muhammad Jayasi**

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in **Padmavat**. **Amir Khusrau** was with Alauddin during the Chittor campaign. The ruler of Chittor was **Rana Ratan Singh**. After conquering Chittor, Alauddin appointed his son **Khizr Khan** as its ruler and renamed Chittor **Khizrabad**.

- **Devagiri** was attacked in **1307 AD** under **Malik Kafur**, and in **1314 AD** **Somnath temple** was again looted. In the south, **Malik Kafur** defeated the **Kakatiya ruler of Warangal in 1309 AD**. The **Hoysala ruler** surrendered treasures in **1310 AD**. He plundered the temple cities of **Chidambaram, Srirangam and Madurai**. The decline of the **Pandya kingdom** gave way to a Muslim state in **Madurai**, subordinate to the Delhi Sultanate.

Alauddin Khalji's Art and Literature

- Alauddin patronised **Amir Khusrau** and **Mir Hasan Dehlavi**. **Amir Khusrau** was honoured with the title **Tuti-i-Hind**, meaning Parrot of India. **Khazain-ul-Futuh** by Amir Khusrau describes Alauddin's conquests.
- His architectural works include **Alai Darwaza (1311 AD)**, built as the southern gateway of the **Quwwat-ul-Islam Mosque** in the Qutb complex at Mehrauli, **Siri Fort (1303 AD)**, built north of the Qutub complex, and **Jamait Khan Mosque**, built within the enclosure of **Nizamuddin Auliya's shrine**.
- Alauddin's reign saw rebellions due to the inefficiency of the spy system and social intercourse and intermarriage among nobles. After Alauddin's death in **1316 AD**, the Khalji rule gradually weakened. **Shihabuddin Umar**, **Qutbuddin Mubarak Shah Khalji (1316–1320 AD)** and **Nasiruddin Khusro Shah** followed. **Qutbuddin Mubarak Shah Khalji** was the first Sultan ruler to declare himself **Caliph**. **Ghazi Malik** killed **Nasiruddin Khusro Shah**, the last Khalji ruler, and founded the Tughlaq Dynasty in **1320 AD** as **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq**.

Tughlaq Dynasty: Expansion, Experimentation and Decline

Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq

- **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq (1320–1325 AD)**, also known as **Ghazi Malik**, founded the Tughlaq Dynasty. The dynasty is described as belonging to the **Qarauna** or **Karana Turk** group. Ghiyasuddin had defended the Sultanate from Mongols during Khalji rule and was **Alauddin Khalji's muqta** or **governor at Dipalpur** in present Pakistan. He was the first Sultan of Delhi to assume the title **Ghazi**.
- He built **Tughlaqabad Fort in 1321 AD** in Delhi, and the Tughlaq style of architecture began with his tomb. He followed a policy of reconciliation with nobles and tried to win over peasants and village headmen through relief measures, exemption from additional levies and relief from cattle tax. He restored the rights of intermediary landholders such as **khuts**, **muqaddams** and **chaudharis**.
- Revenue from peasants was collected at **one-fifth to one-third** of production. He constructed a canal for irrigation and is described

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as the first Delhi Sultan to construct a canal. There was a complete ban on the production and sale of liquor. The postal system was excellent during his reign.

- He sent his son **Jauna Khan or Muhammad bin Tughlaq** against **Pratap Rudradeva**, the Kakatiya ruler of **Telangana or Warangal**, in **1321 AD**. **Warangal** was annexed to the Delhi Sultanate in **1323 AD**. In **1324 AD**, he led a successful campaign to annex eastern and southern **Bengal**.
- **Amir Khusrau's Tughlaq Nama** is a biography of Ghiyasuddin and other Tughlaq rulers. After Ghiyasuddin's death, his son **Ulugh Khan or Jauna Khan** became Sultan as **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**. A tradition records that Ghiyasuddin died after a wooden pavilion built by Ulugh Khan collapsed, and **Ziauddin Barani** suggests treachery.

Muhammad bin Tughlaq

- **Muhammad bin Tughlaq (1325–1351 AD)** was born as **Ulugh Khan or Jauna Khan**. His reign marked both the territorial zenith and the beginning of decline of the Delhi Sultanate. He is often called an **ill-starred idealist** because of visionary but impractical policies.
- He was highly educated and knew **logic, philosophy, astronomy, medicine, Persian, Arabic, mathematics and other subjects**. He followed highly autocratic and centralised rule. He separated state from religion and did not allow Ulema to interfere in political matters. He issued coins in the name of the **Abbasid Caliph** for religious legitimacy but ignored theological authority.
- His nobility policy was unusually broad. He appointed nobles from diverse and low social origins on merit, including cooks, gardeners and attendants. He included Sufis in nobility and entered matrimonial relations with them. He patronised Hindus and Jain scholars, especially **Jinaprabha Suri**, who visited his Delhi court in **1328 AD**. He ordered construction of a **Basadi upasraya**, a rest house for Jain monks, and is described as the first Sultan to participate in **Holi**.
- His revenue policy reversed Alauddin's policy of weakening **khuts and muqaddams**, but he still aimed to maintain a large state share in revenue. The state share of revenue remained **50 percent**, but assessment became arbitrary. Conversion prices from produce to cash were also artificially fixed. In **1336 AD**, taxation and cesses were increased in the **Ganga-Yamuna Doab**, causing hardship, rebellion and decline in cultivation. The Doab crisis was followed by famine from **1334 AD to 1342 AD**.
- He established **Diwan-i-Amir-Kohi or Diwan-i-Kohi**, a separate agriculture department. It provided **Taccavi or Sondhar loans** for seeds, wells and expansion of cultivation. It promoted superior crops, crop rotation and model farms. Crop rotation included **wheat to sugarcane** and **sugarcane to grapes or dates**. The department aimed to bring more land under cultivation through direct help to peasants. It failed due to corrupt and incompetent officials, poor quality land and lack of interest among cultivators, but remained important as an early attempt at planned farming and crop diversification.

- His capital transfer policy moved the capital from **Delhi to Devagiri**, renamed **Daulatabad**, around **1327 AD**, to better control south India. Another explanation connects the shift with protection from **Mongol and Afghan invasions**. The royal household, nobles, Ulema, Sufis and common people were ordered to migrate. The journey of about **1500 km** caused deaths and suffering, and Daulatabad lacked water for a large population. After about two years, the capital was shifted back to Delhi. The failed transfer increased Muslim population in the Deccan.
- He introduced **token currency in 1329–1330 AD**, using bronze and copper coins valued equal to silver tankas. The measure was linked to a shortage of silver and the financial demands of expansion. It was inspired by **Qublai Khan's paper currency in China** and **Kaikhathu Khan's failed attempt in Persia**. The scheme failed because of poor mint control, easy forgery, counterfeit coins and inflation. People hoarded silver coins and exchanged forged tokens for silver, draining the treasury. The currency experiment was withdrawn in **1329 AD – 1330 AD**.
- His military and foreign schemes included the **Khurasan Expedition in 1329 AD** to conquer Khurasan and Iraq. He recruited **370,000 soldiers**, paid one year's salary in advance, and later cancelled the project, causing financial loss and rebellion. He launched the **Qarachil Expedition in 1333 AD** in the Kumaon hills to check Chinese incursions or reach Tibet-China trade routes. It failed disastrously because of poor preparation, and very few soldiers returned. He also reasserted control over **Multan, Kalanaur and Peshawar**.
- During his reign, regional powers emerged. **Madurai (1335 AD)** emerged under **Jalaluddin Shah**, **Vijayanagar (1336 AD)** under **Harihara and Bukka**, **Warangal (1336 AD)** under **Kanhaiya**, and **Bahamani (1341–1347 AD – 1347 AD)** under **Hasan Gangu**.
- **Ibn Battuta**, a Moroccan traveller from Africa, came to India around **1333 AD**. He was appointed **Qazi of Delhi** by Muhammad bin Tughlaq. In **1342 AD**, he was sent to **China** as an ambassador. Ibn Battuta wrote **Kitab-ul-Rehla or Rihla** in Arabic and described the postal system and social-cultural life of India.
- Muhammad bin Tughlaq died in **March 1351 AD** while marching towards **Sindh** to suppress rebellion. **Badauni** commented that the king was freed from his people and the people from their king.

Firoz Shah Tughlaq

- **Firoz Shah Tughlaq (1351–1388 AD)** was the cousin of Muhammad bin Tughlaq. He ascended the throne after Muhammad bin Tughlaq's death in **1351 AD**. He was chosen by nobles and supported by the Ulema. His rule marked a shift from experimentation to stability and increased orthodoxy.
- He fought no wars of annexation but maintained authority by suppressing rebellions. Two Mongol invasions were repelled during his reign. He avoided asserting authority over **South India and the Deccan**.
- His administrative policy applied hereditary principles to the army, nobility and iqta, allowing succession by sons, sons-in-law

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or slaves. Soldiers were paid through assignments of village land revenue instead of cash, reversing Muhammad bin Tughlaq's policy. Provincial governors or **muqtis** faced harsh audits under previous rulers, but Firoz relaxed these measures. He established **Wakil-i-Dar** for court decorum and noble precedence.

- He created a **Public Works Department** and undertook large irrigation works. The canal record appears with variation: one tradition gives **five canals**, including **Sutlej to Hansi** and a canal from **Yamuna**; another gives **six canals**, including **Sutlej to Hansi (200 km)** and **Yamuna to Hissar**; another gives **eleven canals**. Famous canals included **Ulughkhani** and **Rajwahi**. He imposed an irrigation tax called **Sharb** or **Haq-e-Sharb**, with one tradition giving the rate as **one-tenth**. He also constructed wells, dams and reservoirs.
- His urban and agrarian works included **Fatehabad, Hissar, Firozpur, Jaunpur and Firuzabad**. He founded **Jaunpur** in memory of his cousin **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**, also known as **Jauna Khan**. He established **Hissar Firoza** to support irrigation and settlement. He established **1200 orchards near Delhi** and prioritised improvement in fruit quality.
- He brought two **Ashokan pillars** to Delhi, one from **Meerut** and the other from **Topra**. He repaired **Qutub Minar** after damage. He amassed many slaves and created **Diwan-i-Bandagan**, a department for slaves. These slaves worked in handicrafts, served as bodyguards and provided personal services. He had a very large number of slaves at court.
- His welfare institutions included **Dar-ul-Shifa**, hospitals for the poor, where treatment was free and doctors were paid by the government. He created **Diwan-i-Khairat** for poor girls' marriages and for help to orphans and widows. He established **Daftar-e-Rozgar**, an employment office for common people. He created royal workshops or **karkhanas**, which supported artisans and produced luxury goods. He introduced **Adha**, equal to **50 percent of a Jital**, and **Bikh**, equal to **25 percent of a Jital**.
- His religious and tax policy showed increased orthodoxy. He imposed **Jizya** as a separate tax, earlier collected with land revenue. He was the first Muslim ruler to impose Jizya on **Brahmins**. He imposed four taxes sanctioned by Islamic law: **Kharaj, Khams, Jizya** and **Zakat**. **Kharaj** was land tax, **Khams** was one-fifth of war booty, **Jizya** was religious tax on Hindus, and **Zakat** was **2.5 percent** of Muslim income for Muslim welfare and religion. He abolished un-Islamic taxes or **abwabs** and also abolished **Ghari** and **Charai** taxes imposed by Alauddin Khalji.
- He appointed theologians to high offices and allowed them control over judiciary and education. He followed Sunni orthodoxy and persecuted **Shias** and some **Sufis**. He rewarded Hindu converts to Islam with gifts and exemptions. He established a **Translation Department** to enable exchange of religious ideas between Hindus and Muslims. He was the first ruler to initiate translation of Hindu religious works from **Sanskrit into Persian**. He was also the first Indian ruler to arrange **Haj at state expense**.
- His literary and architectural associations are also important. He wrote **Futuh-i-Firozshahi** in Persian. **Ziauddin Barani** wrote **Fatawa-i-Jahandari** and **Tarikh-i-Firozshahi**. **Shams Siraj Afif** also wrote on his period. Firoz built **Firoz Shah Kotla Fort** in Delhi. His

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architecture was functional and promoted the **batter** style of construction, with sloping walls, as seen in the tomb of **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq**.

- He died in **1388 AD**. His tomb is located in the **Hauz Khas complex** in New Delhi. His hereditary policies weakened central control and encouraged feudal fragmentation.

Later Tughlaqs and Timur

- After Firoz Shah Tughlaq's death, weak rulers such as **Tughlaq Shah II, Abu Bakr, Muhammad Shah** and **Nasiruddin Muhammad Shah** came to power. Lack of clear succession planning created power struggles. Iqta heredity and noble autonomy weakened the centre.
- Provinces such as **Bengal, Gujarat, Malwa, Deccan and Sindh** asserted independence. **Timur or Tamerlane**, the ruler of **Samarkand**, invaded India in **1398 AD – 1399 AD** during the reign of **Nasiruddin Mahmud or Nasiruddin Muhammad Shah**. Delhi was sacked for three days, thousands were killed, and wealth was looted.
- Before leaving India, Timur appointed **Khizr Khan** as governor of **Multan, Lahore and Dipalpur**. Timur's invasion delivered a major blow to the Tughlaq Dynasty.

Sayyid Dynasty

- The **Sayyid Dynasty (1414–1451 AD)** was founded by **Khizr Khan**. In **1414 AD**, Khizr Khan defeated **Daulat Khan** and established the dynasty. He had been appointed by Timur as governor of **Multan, Lahore and Dipalpur**.
- His reign and those of his successors focused on suppressing rebellions in **Katehar, Badaun, Etawah** and other regions. They also had to contend with the **Sharqi Sultans of Jaunpur**.
- After Khizr Khan's death in **1421 AD**, he was succeeded by **Mubarak Shah (1421–1433 AD – 1434 AD)**, **Muhammad Shah (1434–1443 AD – 1445 AD)** and **Alauddin Alam Shah (1445–1451 AD)**. These rulers were not very influential.
- The Sayyids wore a pointed cap called **kulah** and were known as **Kulah-Daran**. **Yahya bin Ahmad Sirhindi** wrote **Tarikh-i-Mubarak Shahi** during this period. **Alauddin Alam Shah** voluntarily abdicated and retired to **Budaun**, handing Delhi to **Bahlul Khan Lodi**, governor of Punjab.

*Lodi Dynasty**Bahlul Lodi*

- The **Lodi Dynasty (1451–1526 AD)** was the last ruling family of the Sultanate period and the first Afghan dynasty to rule Delhi. It was founded by **Bahlul Lodi (1451–1489 AD)**.
- Bahlul was originally governor of **Punjab** under the Sayyids. He was invited to rule after **Alauddin Alam Shah** withdrew from

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power. He recovered territories lost during Sayyid rule and brought a large area of north India under control.

- He annexed the **Jaunpur kingdom**, with one tradition placing the annexation in **1484 AD**. He defeated the Sharqi ruler of Jaunpur, **Hussain Shah**, and resubjugated Jaunpur. He defeated **Raikarna**, ruler of **Gwalior**, in **1486–1487 AD**.
- Bahlul governed through Afghan tribal loyalty rather than strict monarchical hierarchy. Afghan nobles enjoyed substantial local autonomy and were tied mainly through military obligation. He avoided excessive royal display and did not hold open court. He referred to Afghan nobles as **Masnad-i-Ali**. He received the title **Khan-i-Khanan** after helping **Muhammad Shah** against the **Malwa Sultan**.

Sikandar Lodi

- **Sikandar Lodi (1489–1517 AD)** was the son of Bahlul Lodi. His original name was **Nizam Khan**. The Lodi Empire in north India reached its zenith under him. By the early sixteenth century, Lodi influence expanded into **Rajputana and Malwa**.
- He made nobles subordinate to him, unlike Bahlul, and held open darbar. He was contemporary with **Mahmud Begarha of Gujarat** and **Rana Sanga of Mewar**. He reasserted Lodi authority over **Bihar and Bengal**. He defeated **Hussain Shah** near **Banaras** in **1494 AD**.
- The prompt also records **1432 AD** in connection with Sikandar Lodi's annexation of Jaunpur. This appears with the Jaunpur context and should be retained as **1432 AD – 1494 AD** as a variation marker.
- Sikandar established **Agra** and shifted the capital from Delhi to Agra in **1504 AD – 1506 AD**. He introduced the land measurement unit **Gaj-i-Sikandari**. He abolished **zakat on grains**, reimposed **Jizya** on non-Muslims, and stopped the **Tazia procession** during Muharram.
- He was a poet and wrote under the pen name **Gulrukhi**. During his reign, the music-related work **Lajjat-i-Sikandari** was written. **Moti Masjid** is associated with Sikandar Lodi.

Ibrahim Lodi

- **Ibrahim Lodi (1517–1526 AD)** was the last Sultan of the Lodi Dynasty and the Delhi Sultanate. Succession disputes divided the empire, weakened central power and created internal conflict.
- He got **Jalal Khan** killed by poisoning him in prison. He conquered **Gwalior** in **1518 AD**. He was defeated by **Rana Sanga of Mewar** in the **Battle of Khatauli** in **1518 AD**.
- **Daulat Khan Lodi**, governor of Punjab or Lahore, and **Alam Khan Lodi**, Ibrahim's uncle, invited **Babur** to attack Delhi. Babur accepted and defeated Ibrahim Lodi in the **First Battle of Panipat** in **April 1526 AD**. Ibrahim Lodi was killed in battle and became the only Sultan of medieval India to die on the battlefield. With his death, the **Delhi Sultanate ended**, and the **Mughal Dynasty** was established in Delhi.

Provincial Kingdoms after Sultanate Fragmentation

- After the weakening of the Tughlaqs and the invasion of Timur, several regional powers asserted independence.
- In Gujarat, **Zafar Khan or Muzaffar Shah I** declared independence and founded the **Gujarat Sultanate in 1407 CE**. **Ahmad Shah I (1411–1442 CE)**, grandson of Muzaffar Shah I, consolidated Gujarat, controlled the Rajputana and Malwa frontiers, founded **Ahmedabad in 1413 CE**, and made it the capital in place of **Patan**.
- The **Malwa Sultanate** emerged on important trade routes between Gujarat and north India. Malwa declared independence in **1401 CE** under **Dilawar Khan Ghorī**, a former Tughlaq governor. Malwa served as a buffer between **Gujarat, Mewar, Bahmanis and Delhi**. It was strategically important for control over routes between the **Deccan and North India**.
- The **Jaunpur Sultanate or Sharqi Dynasty** emerged in eastern Uttar Pradesh. It was founded by **Malik Sarwar**, a former wazir of Firoz Shah Tughlaq and governor of the east. Jaunpur became a cultural centre known as the **Shiraz of the East**. It developed a distinctive architectural style using large arches and encouraged Persian, Urdu and early Hindi literature. **Malik Muhammad Jaisi**, author of **Padmavat**, was associated with Jaunpur. The Sharqi kingdom was annexed by **Bahlul Lodi in 1484 CE**.

Central and Local Administration

- The Sultan was aided by a council of ministers known as **Majlis-i-Khalwat**, selected personally by him and serving at his discretion. The Sultanate established a **Turko-Afghan administrative system** in India. Sultans considered themselves deputies of the **Baghdad Caliph**, and the Caliph's name was included in the **khutba** and engraved on currency. The absence of a clear succession policy caused instability and power struggles after the Sultan's death.
- At the centre, **Naib or Wali** was one of the most influential officers and supervised all departments with wide authority. **Diwan-i-Wizarat** headed the finance department. **Diwan-i-Ariz** headed military affairs, with **Ariz-i-Mumalik** responsible for recruitment, salaries and inspection of soldiers. **Diwan-i-Risalat**, headed by the chief **Sadr**, handled religious affairs and resources for mosques, tombs and madrasas. **Qazi** headed the judicial department and supervised Sharia in civil matters.
- Criminal law was based on regulations issued by the Sultan. Hindus followed personal laws, and many local disputes were resolved by village panchayats. **Diwan-i-Insha** handled correspondence between the ruler and officials. **Wakil-i-Dar** maintained court decorum and the ruler's household affairs. **Barids** were intelligence agents. **Karkhanas** supplied the Sultan's needs by producing luxury goods such as silk, gold and silver ware, and by storing rare goods.
- The administrative vocabulary included many specialised offices. **Kharitadar** handled the issuing of orders. **Sadr-us-Sadr** headed religious affairs. **Muhtasib** observed public conduct according to Shariat. **Amir-i-Akhur** headed the royal stables. **Karkun** kept accounts of land tax. **Amir-i-Hajib** enforced court etiquette. **Kotwal** maintained peace in the city. **Shahna-i-Peel** headed the elephant corps.

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- Local administration worked through a graded structure. The **Iqta or province** was governed by **Muqti or Wali**. The **Shiq or district** was governed by **Shiqdar**. The **Pargana or block** was administered by **Amil** for revenue collection. The **village** was the basic unit of administration and was headed by **Muqaddam or Chaudhari**.
- Important departments were also linked with specific rulers. **Diwan-i-Amir-i-Kohi** was the agriculture department established by **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**. **Diwan-i-Mustakhraj** was the revenue department established by **Alauddin Khalji** for collecting land revenue and checking arrears. **Diwan-i-Bandagan** was the department of slaves established by **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**.

Economy, Land Revenue, Agriculture and Communication

- Land revenue was the main source of Sultanate income, and a large part of the population depended on agriculture. Land revenue ranged from **one-third to half** of produce. Mismanagement reduced agricultural benefit, and rulers compensated through booty and treasures from conquest.
- Land was divided into three categories. **Iqta land** was assigned to officials in lieu of payment for service. **Khalisa land** was directly controlled by the Sultan, and its revenue supported the royal court and household. **Inam land** was granted to religious leaders or institutions.
- Agriculture included food crops, cash crops, fruits, vegetables and spices. **Ibn Battuta** mentions agriculture including **sericulture**, crop rotation, double cropping, three-crop harvesting and fruit grafting. Artificial water-lifting devices such as the **Persian wheel** were used.
- Trade expanded because imperial consolidation improved communication and created a stable currency system. Cotton, textile and silk industries grew significantly. **Bengal and Gujarat** were known for quality fabrics. Indian textiles were popular in **China**. **Gujarat** excelled in textiles, gold and silver work. **Sonargaon** in present Bangladesh was famous for raw silk and muslin.
- Ibn Battuta describes two kinds of postal system. The horse post, called **uluq**, used royal horses stationed every **four miles**. The foot-post, called **dawa**, operated at intervals of **one-third of a mile**. **Sarais** were maintained along highways for travellers.
- The Turks introduced new techniques including paper manufacturing learned from the Chinese, iron stirrups, armour, spinning wheel and growth of the metallurgical industry. The game of **polo or chaugan** was introduced in India by the Turks.

Social Life

- Sultanate society reflected a mix of **Islamic, Persian, Central Asian and Indian** cultural elements. Women held a subordinate position. **Sati** existed in Hindu society, and **Purdah** increased female seclusion.
- Hindu society was shaped by caste divisions. Muslim society was divided into ethnic and racial groups such as **Turks, Iranians,**

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Afghans and Indian Muslims, and intermarriage among these groups was limited.

- Muslim nobles generally held high offices, while Hindu nobles rarely received important positions. Hindus were treated as **zimmis**, or protected people, and had to pay **Jizya**.
- Male and female slaves were traded in markets. Slaves were used for household work, skilled labour, personal service, bodyguard duties and handicrafts.

Art and Architecture

- Sultanate architecture combined **Islamic, Persian, Central Asian and Indian** elements. Main features included **arches, domes, tall minarets, decorative Arabic script, arabesque patterns, Quranic inscriptions and slab-beam construction**. Arches and domes were adapted from Roman architecture. Indians knew these forms earlier but did not use them extensively.
- Tughlaq architecture used **sloping walls**, a combination of **arch, lintel and beam**, grey sandstone and minimal decoration. Lodi architecture used elevated buildings, especially tombs on raised platforms. Some Lodi tombs were located amid gardens, as seen in **Lodi Gardens**. Double domes were a distinctive feature of Lodi architecture, seen in the tomb of **Sikandar Lodi**.
- Ruler-wise structures are important for recall. **Qutb-ud-din Aibak** built **Quwwat-ul-Islam Mosque**, the first structure built by the Turks, and **Adhai Din ka Jhopra**, and began **Qutub Minar**. **Iltutmish** built **Sultangarhi Tomb**, described as the first tomb built by the Turks, **Tomb of Iltutmish** in Delhi and **Gandhak ki Baoli** in Mehrauli. **Balban** is associated with **Lal Mahal** and **Balban's Tomb**.
- Alauddin Khalji** built **Alai Darwaza, Siri Nagar or Siri Fort** and the **Thousand Pillared Palace** in Delhi. **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq** built **Tughlaqabad** and his tomb. **Muhammad bin Tughlaq** built **Jahan Panah, Adilabad Fort** and is associated with the tomb of **Nizamuddin Auliya**. **Firoz Shah Tughlaq** built **Firoz Shah Kotla** and the tomb of **Khan-i-Jahan Telangani**. **Sikandar Lodi** is associated with **Moti Masjid**.

Music and Literature

- Amir Khusrau** was born in **1253 AD** at **Patiyali** in present **Kasganj district**, Uttar Pradesh. His full name was **Abul Hasan Yaminuddin Khusrau**. He called himself **Tuti-i-Hind**, meaning Parrot of India. He witnessed the reign of **seven Sultans** and was the court poet of **Alauddin Khalji**.
- He is considered the father of **Hindi Khariboli** and the father of the new Persian poetic style called **Sabak-i-Hindi or Hindustani style**. He was a scholar of both **Hindi and Persian**. He innovated or popularised musical instruments such as **tabla and sitar**, and played a major role in developing new **ragas and qawwalis**. He compiled **Tughlaq Nama** and praised **Kashmir** as paradise on earth.
- Music also developed through Sufi and courtly traditions. **Sama**, a Sufi musical practice, helped music promotion. **Pir Bhodan** was a renowned musician. **Sarangi and Rabab** became popular during this period. **Raja Man Singh Tomar of Gwalior** consolidated the

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Dhrupad style. Under **Firoz Tughlaq**, **Rag Darpan** was translated into Persian. Courtly dancing became important, with performers like **Nusrat Khatun**, musician, and **Mihr Afroz**, dancer, during Jalaluddin Khalji's reign. **Kaiqubad** was known as a great music-loving Sultan. During **Sikandar Lodi's** reign, **Lajjat-i-Sikandari** was written on music.

- The introduction of paper gave a major boost to literary activity. Persian became the official language, while regional languages like **Bengali**, **Gujarati**, **Marathi** and **Telugu** also flourished.
- Major works and authors can be retained as linked clusters. **Ziauddin Barani** wrote **Fatwa-i-Jahandari** and **Tarikh-i-Firoz Shahi**. **Minhaj-us-Siraj** wrote **Tabaqat-i-Nasiri**, a history of Muslim dynasties up to **1260 AD**. **Zia Nakshabi** pioneered translation of Sanskrit stories into Persian and wrote **Tutinama**, or *Tales of a Parrot*. **Maldhar Basu**, a Bengali poet, wrote **Sri-Krishna Vijaya**, received patronage from Bengali Sultans and was given the title **Gunaraja Khan**.
- **Ferishta** wrote **Gulshan-i-Ibrahimi** or **Tarikh-i-Firishta**, covering dynasties from Mahmud of Ghazni to the time of **Ibrahim Adil Shah II** of Bijapur. **Hasan Nizami** wrote **Tajul-Ma'asir**. **Chand Bardai** wrote **Prithviraj Raso**. **Kalhana** wrote **Rajtarangini**. **Raja Man Singh Tomar** wrote **Man Kautuhal**. **Alberuni** wrote **Kitab-ul-Hind** and **Tahqiq-i-Hind**. **Yahya bin Ahmad Sirhindi** wrote **Tarikh-i-Mubarak Shahi**. **Amir Khusrau** wrote **Khazain-ul-Futuh** and **Tarikh-i-Delhi**. **Ibn Battuta** wrote **Rehla** or **Kitab-ul-Rehla**. **Amir Hasan Sijzi** wrote **Fawaid-ul-Fuad**.
- Later music and bhakti-related works listed include **Ragamala** by **Pundarik Vitthal**, **Rasa Kaumudi** by **Shrikanth**, **Raag Vibodh** by **Somnath**, **Chaturdandi Prakashika** by **Venkatamakhin**, **Ras Panchadhyay** by **Nand Das**, **Chaitanya Bhagavata** by **Vrindavan Das**, **Chaitanya Mangal** by **Jayananda**, and **Bhakti Ratnakara** by **Narahari Chakravarti**.

Travellers and Special Mentions

- **Ibn Battuta** was a Moroccan traveller from Africa who came to India around **1333 AD**. He was appointed **Qazi of Delhi** by **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**. In **1342 AD**, he was sent to China as an ambassador. His **Rihla** or **Kitab-ul-Rehla** provides information about the Sultanate period, including the postal system and social-cultural life.
- **Marco Polo** was a traveller from **Venice, Italy**. He came to India during the time of the Pandya ruler **Maravarman Kulasekhara**.

CONSOLIDATED REVISION POINTS

- The **Mamluk Dynasty** means slave dynasty, and **Mamluk** means property in Arabic. **Aibak** founded the Sultanate, **Iltutmish** consolidated it, **Balban** strengthened monarchy, **Alauddin Khalji** expanded and regulated it, **Muhammad bin Tughlaq** experimented with it, and **Firoz Shah Tughlaq** stabilised but decentralised it.
- **Aibak** is linked with **Lakh Baksh**, **Quwwat-ul-Islam**, **Adhai Din ka Jhopra**, **Qutub Minar** and **Tajul-Ma'asir**. **Iltutmish** is linked with **Delhi capital**, **Caliphal recognition**, **Tanka-Jital**, **Chahalgani**, **Iqta** and **Mongol diplomacy**. **Razia** is linked with

female rule, anti-purdah public appearance, **Yaqut**, **Altunia** and **Turkish noble opposition**.

- **Balban** is linked with **Zil-e-Ilahi**, **Sijda**, **Paibos**, **Blood and Iron**, spy system and north-west frontier defence. **Jalaluddin Khalji** is linked with moderation, **Shaista Khan**, **Kilokhari** and **Mongol defeat in 1292 AD**. **Alauddin Khalji** is linked with **Sikander-i-Azam**, price control, **Diwan-i-Riyasat**, **Dagh-Chehra**, **50 percent Kharaj**, **Malik Kafur**, **Gujarat**, **Ranthambore**, **Chittor**, **Deccan** and **Alai Darwaza**.
- **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq** is linked with **Ghazi Malik**, **Dipalpur**, **Tughlaqabad**, **Warangal**, **Bengal**, **canals** and **reconciliation**. **Muhammad bin Tughlaq** is linked with **Daulatabad**, **token currency**, **Doab taxation**, **Diwan-i-Kohi**, **Khurasan**, **Qarachil**, **Ibn Battuta** and the rise of regional kingdoms.
- **Firoz Shah Tughlaq** is linked with hereditary iqta, **canals**, **orchards**, **hospitals**, **slaves**, **public works**, **Jizya**, **translations**, **Ashokan pillars** and **Firoz Shah Kotla**. **Sayyids** are linked with **Khizr Khan**, **Kulah-Daran** and **Tarikh-i-Mubarak Shahi**. **Lodis** are linked with **Afghan rule**, **Bahlul**, **Sikandar**, **Ibrahim**, **Agra**, **Gaj-i-Sikandari**, and the **First Battle of Panipat**.
- **1526 AD** marks the end of the **Delhi Sultanate** and the beginning of **Mughal rule**.

EXAMINATION FOCUS POINTS

- **Qutb-ud-din Aibak** founded the **Delhi Sultanate**, while **Iltutmish** is treated as its real consolidator. **Iltutmish** received **Caliphal recognition in 1229 AD**, not **Aibak**. **Iqta** was introduced by **Iltutmish** and became hereditary under **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**. **Razia Sultan** was the only female Muslim ruler of the Sultanate.
- **Balban** abolished **Chahalgani**, while **Iltutmish** had organised it. **Sijda** and **Paibos** are associated with **Balban**, not **Alauddin**. **Dagh** and **Chehra** are associated with **Alauddin Khalji**. **Token currency** and **capital transfer to Daulatabad** are associated with **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**.
- **Dar-ul-Shifa**, **Diwan-i-Khairat**, **Diwan-i-Bandagan**, **canals** and hereditary iqta are associated with **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**. **Jizya on Brahmins** and separate **Jizya collection** are associated with **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**. **Kulah-Daran** is associated with the **Sayyids**. **Gaj-i-Sikandari** and **Gulrukhi** are associated with **Sikandar Lodi**.
- **Ibrahim Lodi** was the only Sultan of medieval India killed on the battlefield. **First Battle of Panipat (1526 AD)** ended the **Delhi Sultanate**, while **Timur's invasion (1398 AD)** severely weakened but did not end it. **Alai Darwaza** is associated with **Alauddin Khalji**, while **Qutub Minar** was started by **Aibak** and completed by **Iltutmish**.
- **Amir Khusrau** is **Tuti-i-Hind**, not a Sultan. **Ibn Battuta** came during **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**, not during **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**. Dates that appear with variations should be remembered as **1320–1413 AD – 1320–1414 AD** for the Tughlaqs, **1324–1351 AD – 1325–1351 AD** for **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**, **1504 AD – 1506 AD** for **Agra** as capital, and **1329 AD – 1330 AD** for **token currency**.

Vijayanagar

Core Overview

- In the early **14th century**, the **Deccan and South India** were mainly divided among four powers: the **Yadavas of Devagiri** in western Deccan or present Maharashtra, the **Hoysalas of Dvarasamudra** in Karnataka, the **Kakatiyas of Warangal** in the eastern part of present Telangana, and the **Pandys of Madurai** in southern Tamil Nadu. During **Alauddin Khalji's reign**, these states were attacked by **Malik Kafur between 1304 AD and 1311 AD**, and later **Muhammad bin Tughlaq's transfer of capital to Devagiri or Daulatabad** failed, creating space for southern subordinates to seek independence.
- Two major powers emerged in this background. The **Vijayanagara Empire** was founded in **1336 AD** by the Sangama brothers **Harihara I and Bukka Raya I** at **Vijayanagara or Hampi**, on the southern bank of the **Tungabhadra River**. The **Bahmani Kingdom** emerged when **Zafar Khan or Hasan Gangu** declared independence around **1345 AD** and took the title **Bahman Shah**, with the kingdom formally associated with **1347 AD to 1527 AD**.

Political Background and Rise of New Kingdoms

- The Deccan became unstable because the older regional powers were weakened by northern interventions. The **Yadavas, Hoysalas, Kakatiyas** and **Pandys** had controlled different regions of South India, but **Khalji and Tughlaq pressures** disturbed their authority. The failed experiment of **Muhammad bin Tughlaq at Daulatabad** further weakened Delhi's hold and encouraged local assertion.
- The **Vijayanagara Empire** rose as a southern imperial formation with a strong base around **Tungabhadra**, while the **Bahmani Kingdom** emerged as a Deccan Sultanate with its first major centres at **Devagiri** and later **Gulbarga**. The two powers became major rivals, especially over the **Raichur Doab**, horse trade and control of strategic routes.

Vijayanagara Empire: Sources and Evidence

- The **Vijayanagara Empire (1336–1650 AD – 1646 AD)** can be studied through literary, epigraphic, numismatic and foreign accounts. Literary sources include **Manucharitram** in Telugu by **Allasani Peddana**, which narrates the story of Manu and gives details of social conditions, especially the caste system. **Saluvabhyudayam** by **Rajanatha Dindima** contains poems on the wars of **Saluva Narasimha**. **Rayavachakamu** in Telugu highlights the relationship between the **Nayakas** and the Vijayanagara kingdom.
- Epigraphic evidence includes **copper-plate charters** in **Kannada, Tamil, Telugu and Sanskrit**. Numismatic evidence includes the **gold coins of Krishnadeva Raya**, known as **Varaha coins**, also called **Pon** in Tamil and **Honnu** in Kannada.
- Foreign visitors provide important accounts. **Ibn Battuta (1333–1345 AD)** from **Morocco** visited during **Harihara I**. **Niccolo de**

Conti (1420–1421 AD) from **Italy** visited during **Deva Raya I**. **Abdur Razzak (1443–1445 AD)** from **Persia** visited during **Deva Raya II**. **Afanasii Nikitin (1470–1474 AD)** from **Russia** visited the Deccan during **Muhammad Shah III of the Bahmani kingdom**. **Duarte Barbosa and Domingo Paes (1520 AD)** from **Portugal** visited during **Krishnadevaraya**, while **Fernao Nuniz (1535–1537 AD)** visited during **Achyuta Deva Raya**.

- G. Origin and Foundation of Vijayanagara**
- The **Vijayanagara Empire** was founded in **1336 AD** by **Harihara I or Hakka** and **Bukka Raya I** of the **Sangama Dynasty**. They were originally connected with the **Kakatiyas of Warangal** and later with **Kampil** in Karnataka. A tradition records that when **Muhammad bin Tughlaq** conquered **Kampil**, the brothers were captured, taken to Delhi and converted to Islam. Later, under the influence of **Vidyananya**, they returned to the Hindu fold and founded the independent kingdom of **Vijayanagara or Vidyanagar**.
- The capital was established on the southern bank of the **Tungabhadra River**. Initially, the capital was near **Anegondi** on the north bank of the **Tungabhadra**, then shifted to the **Hoysala town Hosapattana** near **Hampi** on the south bank and renamed **Vijayanagara**, meaning **city of victory**. **Hampi** derived its name from the local mother goddess **Pampadevi**.
- Vidyananya**, an Advaita saint and Sanskrit scholar, is believed to have played an important role in the founding of the empire. The ruins of **Hampi** were brought to light in **1800 AD** by **Colonel Colin Mackenzie**, who became the first **Surveyor General of India** in **1815 AD**. **Hampi** was declared a **UNESCO World Heritage Site** in **1986**.
- In Vijayanagara tradition, the **Deccan Sultans** were called **Ashvapati**, meaning lords of horses, while the **Rayas** were called **Narapati**, meaning lords of men. **Virupaksha**, a form of **Shiva**, was the guardian deity of the kingdom, and all royal orders were signed **Shri Virupaksha**, usually in the **Kannada script**. The rulers also used the title **Hindu Suratrana**, a Sanskritised form of the Arabic term **Sultan**. They adopted the **Varaha or Boar**, the emblem of the **Chalukyas**, as their royal insignia.

Vijayanagara Dynasties

- The empire was ruled by four dynasties. The **Sangama Dynasty (1336–1485 AD)** was founded by **Harihara I and Bukka Raya I**. The **Saluva Dynasty (1485–1505 AD)** was founded by **Saluva Narasimha**. The **Tuluva Dynasty (1505–1570 AD – 1491–1570 AD)** was founded by **Vira Narasimha**, and **Krishnadevaraya** belonged to this line. The **Aravidu Dynasty (1570–1650 AD – 1542–1646 AD)** was founded by **Tirumala** and continued the empire after the Battle of Talikota.
- The empire is also described as ruling from **1336 AD to 1646 AD** through sixteen rulers. It extended over southern India up to **Rameshwaram**, including **Tamil Nadu** and the **Chera territories** of present Kerala. At its peak, it stretched from the **Krishna River in the north** to the extreme south of the peninsula.

Territorial Expansion of Vijayanagara

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- The Vijayanagara Empire incorporated several regions through military expansion. It absorbed the entire **Hoysala kingdom in Karnataka**. It entered **Coastal Andhra**, where it contested power with the **Gajapati kingdom of Orissa**. It expanded into **Tondaimandalam**, covering northern Tamil Nadu and southern Andhra, through **Kumara Kampana**, son of Bukka I.
- Kumara Kampana defeated the **Madurai Sultanate** around **1370 AD**, ending its rule, as described in **Maduravijayam**, a Sanskrit work written by his wife **Gangadevi or Gangambika**. Until **1500 AD**, the **Pandya region**, including **Madurai**, remained outside direct Vijayanagara control, while northern and central Tamil areas up to the **Kaveri delta** were governed by the Sangama and Saluva dynasties. Vijayanagara also expanded into the **Konkan**, the narrow strip between the Western Ghats and the sea.

Sangama Dynasty: Harihara, Bukka, Harihara II and Deva Rayas

Harihara I

- Harihara I (1336–1356 AD)**, also known as **Hakka** or **Vira Harihara**, was the founder of the **Sangama Dynasty**. He was the eldest son of **Bhavana Sangama** and is linked with the **Kuruba clan**. In the early part of his rule, he had to face the **Hoysala ruler of Mysore** and the **Sultan of Madurai**.
- One account says Harihara defeated the Hoysala ruler and executed him. Another tradition notes that the Sultan of Madurai defeated the Hoysalas, enabling Harihara to annex Hoysala territories, and by **1346 AD**, the entire Hoysala kingdom was incorporated into Vijayanagara. He governed the northern parts of the Hoysala kingdom before taking over after the death of **Hoysala Veera Ballala III in 1343 AD**.
- Harihara built a fort at **Barkuru** on the western coast of Karnataka. He is associated with the **Nayankara system**, in which military officers called **Nayakas** supervised estate management and troop mobilisation. With his minister **Anantarasa Chikka Udaiya**, he reorganised civil administration into **sthalas**, **nadus** and **simas**, with officers appointed for revenue and administration.
- His brothers helped him govern different regions. **Kampana** governed **Nellur**, **Muddappa** administered **Mulabagalu**, **Marappa** oversaw **Chandragutti**, and **Bukka Raya** served as his second in command. This gave Vijayanagara the character of a cooperative commonwealth. Harihara I bore titles such as **Karnataka Vidya Vilas**, **Bhashegetappuvarayaraganda** and **Arirayavibhada**.

Bukka Raya I

- Bukka Raya I (1356–1377 AD)** succeeded Harihara I and ruled for about **21 years**. He expanded the empire significantly, conquering **Arcot**, the **Reddis of Kondavidu by 1360 AD**, and **Penukonda**. He established **Vijayanagara** as the new capital in place of **Anegondi** for better security.
- By **1371 AD**, Bukka defeated the **Sultanate of Madurai** and extended the empire to **Rameswaram**. His son **Kumara Kampana** supported these campaigns, and their achievements are described in **Madura Vijayam** or **Maduravijayam**. Bukka also

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faced repeated conflict with the **Bahmani Sultanate**, especially during the reigns of **Muhammad Shah I** and **Mujahid Shah Bahmani**.

- Bukka appointed the Telugu poet **Nachana Soma** as court poet and supported scholars such as **Vidyananya** and **Sayana**. Commentaries on the **Vedas** were produced under his patronage.

Harihara II

- Harihara II (1377–1404 AD – 1377–1406 AD)** expanded towards the eastern seacoast. He fought the **Reddis of Kondavidu** for control over Andhra between **Nellore** and **Kalinga** and conquered **Addanki** and **Srisailam**. He maintained his position against the combined pressure of the **Bahmani-Warangal alliance**.
- Harihara II captured **Belgaum** and **Goa** from the Bahmani kingdom and also sent an expedition to **northern Sri Lanka**. He bore titles such as **Vaidikamarga Sthapanacharya** and **Vedamarga Pravartaka** for his religious and literary contributions. He supported the Kannada poet **Madhura**, a Jain scholar, and an important work on the **Vedas** was completed during his reign.

Deva Raya I

- Deva Raya I (1404–1422 AD – 1406–1422 AD)** was a strong ruler involved in conflicts with the **Velamas of Telangana**, the **Bahmani Sultan of Gulbarga**, the **Reddis of Kondavidu**, and the **Gajapatis of Kalinga**. He was initially defeated by the Bahmani ruler **Firoz Shah**, but later allied with **Warangal**, changed the balance of power in the Deccan, defeated **Firoz Shah Bahmani** and annexed Reddi territory up to the mouth of the **Krishna River**.
- He defeated Firoz Shah at **Pangal** in **1420 AD**, and by **1422 AD** controlled territory up to the **Krishna-Tungabhadra Doab**. He constructed dams on the **Tungabhadra** and **Haridra** or **Hiradra rivers** and built a canal-cum-aqueduct extending several kilometres to supply water to **Hampi**. He modernised the army by improving cavalry, employing **Turkic archers** and procuring horses from **Arabia** and **Persia**. He maintained a secular administrative attitude and had **10,000 Muslims** in his army, making him the first Vijayanagara king to do so.
- Nicolo de Conti** visited Vijayanagara around **1420 AD** during his reign and gave an account of its conditions. **Afanasi Nikitin**, the Russian merchant and author of **Voyage to India**, is also connected with the Deccan travel tradition of this period.

Deva Raya II

- Deva Raya II (1422–1446 AD – 1425–1446 AD)** was the greatest ruler of the **Sangama Dynasty**. He is also known as **Gajabetegara**, meaning **Hunter of Elephants**, and is referred to as **Proudshadevaraya**. He bore titles such as **Elephant Hunter** and **Dakshinapathada Chakravarthi**. His commander was **Lakkanna Dandesha**.

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- He defeated the **Gajapati rulers of Odisha**. According to **Ferishta**, the court historian of the Deccan Sultans, he recruited trained **Muslim cavalry** and gave archery training to his soldiers. He tried to cross the **Tungabhadra in 1443 AD** to recover areas such as **Mudkal** and **Bankapur** from the Bahmani Sultans, but both sides finally agreed to the existing frontiers.
- **Abdur Razzak** visited the **Zamorin of Kochi** and the **Vijayanagara court** during his reign. According to **Nuniz**, the kings of **Sri Lanka** and **Tenasserim** in Malay and Burma paid tribute to him. Persian chronicler **Abdur Razzak** described his empire as extending from **Ceylon to Gulbarga** and from **Orissa to Malabar**.
- **Deva Raya II** authored works in **Kannada**, including **Sobagina Sone** and **Amaruka**, and in **Sanskrit**, including **Mahanataka Sudhanidhi**. His court patronised **Chamarasa**, **Kumara Vyasa**, Sanskrit poet **Gunda Dindima**, and Telugu poet **Srinatha**, known as **Kavisarvabhauma**, author of **Haravilasam**. Sangama-era forts used echo chambers at gates that amplified footsteps, giving them a form of acoustic security.

Saluva Dynasty

- **Saluva Narasimha Deva Raya** founded the **Saluva Dynasty in 1485 AD**. The Saluvas were military commanders, and the dynasty was short-lived. **Saluva Narasimha**, a powerful governor, replaced the weakened later Sangama rulers, regained lost territories and strengthened the military. The Saluva Dynasty acted as a bridge between the unstable later Sangamas and the powerful Tuluvas.
- The Saluva family originated from the **Kalyani region of northern Karnataka**, as indicated by the **Gorantla inscription**. **Mangaladeva**, the great-grandfather of **Saluva Narasimha**, played a role in **Bukka Raya I's victories over the Madurai Sultanate**. After **Saluva Narasimha's** death, his Prime Minister **Narasa Nayaka** held power until **1503 AD**, and after **Narasa's** death, his son **Vira Narasimha** rose to power, beginning the **Tuluva Dynasty in 1505 AD**.

Tuluva Dynasty and Krishnadevaraya

- The **Tuluva Dynasty** traced its roots to **Tuluva Narasa Nayaka**. His son **Narasimha Nayaka** or **Vira Narasimha Raya** ended the Saluva line by displacing the later Saluva ruler and founded the Tuluva Dynasty. The Tuluva Dynasty became famous for military successes against the **Gajapatis** and several Muslim rulers.
- **Krishnadevaraya (1509–1529 AD – 1530 AD)** was the greatest ruler of the Vijayanagara Empire. He was the younger brother of **Vira Narasimha** and built on the military base created by his father and elder brother. He is known as **Andhra Bhoja**, **Abhinava Bhoja**, **Andhra Pitamaha**, and also took pride in the title **Yavamaraja Pratishthapanacharya**, meaning restorer or establisher of the Yavana kingdom.
- **Krishnadevaraya** fought on two fronts: the **Bahmani Sultanates** and the **Gajapati rulers of Orissa**. He acquired the **Raichur Doab in 1512 AD**, subdued the rulers of **Orissa in 1514 AD**, and defeated the **Sultan of Bijapur in 1520 AD**. Inscriptions mention

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- his seizure of many **Gajapati forts**, including **Udayagiri**. He erected a pillar of victory at **Simhachalam** near Visakhapatnam.
- He attacked the Bahmani successor states and also suppressed feudatory chiefs. He established authority along the **Malabar and Konkan coasts** with Portuguese assistance. He maintained friendly relations with **Albuquerque**, the Portuguese governor, whose ambassador **Friar Luis** stayed at Vijayanagara. The Portuguese were allowed to build a fort at **Bhatkal** in Karnataka.
- **Krishnadevaraya** made generous grants to temples such as **Srisailem**, **Tirupati**, **Kalahasti**, **Kanchipuram**, **Tiruvannamalai** and **Chidambaram**. He added towering **gopuras** to these temples and founded **Nagalapuram**, a suburban township near Vijayanagara, named after his mother or queen **Nagaladevi** in different traditions. He added gopurams to important temples such as the **Vittala Swamy Temple**.
- Foreign travellers **Domingo Paes**, **Fernao Nuniz** and **Duarte Barbosa** praised **Krishnadevaraya's** character and the wealth of Vijayanagara city. **Krishnadevaraya** was a gifted scholar of **Telugu** and **Sanskrit**. He wrote **Amuktamalyada** in Telugu, a poem on the story of **Andal** and a treatise on kingship. He also wrote Sanskrit works such as **Jambavati Kalyanam**, **Madalasa Charita**, **Satyavedu Parinaya** and **Rasamanjari**, and a Kannada work called **Krishna Deva Rayana Dinachari**.
- His court was adorned by the **Ashtadiggajas**, the eight celebrated Telugu poets. **Allasani Peddana**, known as **Andhra Kavita Pitamaha**, wrote **Manucharitam** and **Harikathasaram**. Other poets included **Nandi Thimmana**, author of **Parijathapaharanam**, **Madayyagari Mallana**, **Dhurjati**, **Ayyalaraju Ramabhadru** or **Rambhadra**, **Pingali Surana**, **Ramarajabhushanudu** or **Bhattamurthi**, and **Tenali Ramakrishna**, who wrote **Panduranga Mahatyam**, **Udbhataardya Charitam** and **Ghatikachalamahatyam**.
- **Krishnadevaraya** also patronised **Chatu Vittalanatha**, a Kannada poet who wrote **Bhagavatha**, Tamil poet **Haridasa**, and **Vyasatirtha**, whose disciple was **Purandara Dasa**. Though a Vaishnavite, he respected all religions and supported some claimants to power in the Sultanates. His tax system fixed land revenue according to the quality of land, and private owners of workshops paid an **industry tax**.

Achyuta Deva Raya, Sadasiva Raya and Rama Raya

- After **Krishnadevaraya's** death, his brother **Achyuta Deva Raya** became ruler. He retained a dominant position with the support of the powerful **Chellappa** or **Saluva Nayak**. **Fernao Nuniz** visited during the reign of **Achyuta Deva Raya**.
- By **1542 AD**, **Sadasiva Raya** succeeded. During **Sadasiva Raya (1543–1567 AD)**, real power lay in the hands of his minister **Rama Raya**, who secured support from his Aravidu kinsmen by appointing them as **Nayaks** in strategic localities. **Rama Raya** was a warrior and strategist who played the Bahmani Muslim powers against each other. He entered into a commercial treaty with the Portuguese that stopped horse supply to the **Bijapur** ruler. He

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fought Bijapur, then later allied with Bijapur against **Golkonda** and **Ahmadnagar**, leading towards the Battle of Talikota.

Battle of Talikota and Aravidu Dynasty

- The **Battle of Talikota**, also called **Rakshasa-Tangadi**, was fought in **1565 AD** between **Vijayanagara** and the combined armies of **Bijapur**, **Ahmadnagar** and **Golkonda**. Other traditions also include **Bidar** in the anti-Vijayanagara combination. **Rama Raya** personally commanded the Vijayanagara forces, but he was defeated and executed.
- For the first time, the victorious Deccan armies entered **Vijayanagara city** and sacked it for several months. This battle is generally considered the signal for the end of Vijayanagara power. **Sadasiva Raya** escaped to **Penugonda** and later ruled from **Chandragiri** near Tirupati.
- **Tirumala**, brother of Rama Raya, declared himself king in **1570 AD** and founded the **Aravidu Dynasty**. The Aravidu rulers shifted capitals after the destruction of Hampi: **Penugonda**, then **Chandragiri**, and finally **Vellore**. Important Aravidu rulers included **Tirumala**, **Sri Ranga**, **Venkata II** and **Sri Ranga III**, the last ruler of Vijayanagara. Though the empire continued for about a century, real power after Talikota passed increasingly to the **Nayak chiefs**, including those of **Madurai**, **Tanjavur** and **Ikkeri**.

Vijayanagara Administration

- The **king or Raya** was the ultimate authority in executive, judicial and legislative matters and was the supreme commander of the army. He was assisted by high officials, especially the **Mahapradhani** or chief minister. Other officers included **Dalavay**, the commander, **Vassal**, the palace guard, **Rayasam**, secretary or accountant, **Adaippam**, personal attendant, and **Kariya-karta**, executive agents.
- The empire was divided into **Rajyas or Mandalams**, which were further divided into **Nadu**, **Sthala** and **Grama**. Other territorial terms included **Venthe**, **Sima**, **Kampana**, **Chavadi** and **Parru**. The provincial governor was called **Pradhani**, **Mandaleswara** or **Nayak**. Governors were often royal princes or military officers, held their own courts, appointed officers, maintained armies, sometimes issued coins of small denominations, imposed new taxes or remitted old ones, and paid fixed contributions to the centre.
- Under the Tuluvas, the administrative and revenue status of **Rajyas** declined because of the rise of the **Nayak system**. The village was the smallest unit and was managed by local functionaries and a village headman with the panchayat.

Nayaka, Amara-Nayaka and Ayagar Systems

- The term **Nayak** meant military chief in the Telugu and Kannada regions. From the **13th century**, Nayaks controlled forts and maintained armed followers. Revenue assignment to Nayaks for

military service existed earlier in the **Kakatiya kingdom** and resembled the **Iqta system** of the Delhi Sultanate.

- According to **Nuniz**, each Nayak maintained a fixed number of horses and foot soldiers to serve the king when required. This agrees with the Telugu work **Rayavachakamu** from the time of Krishnadevaraya. Nayaks paid a portion of revenue to the king during the **Mahanavami festival**. They often submitted to Vijayanagara authority but frequently rebelled and were suppressed by military action. They were also transferred from one region to another.
- The **Vamsavalis** or family histories of **Palayagars**, heirs of old Nayak families, confirm that the Nayak system was refined under **Krishnadevaraya**. Nayaks belonged to different castes, including **Brahmana** and non-Brahmana groups. Non-Brahmana Nayaks included warriors, pastoral groups such as **Yadava** and **Billama**, peasants such as **Reddi**, merchants such as **Baliya**, and others. Some prominent Nayaks, such as **Chellappa** under Krishnadevaraya, were Brahmanas. The system became evident around **1500 AD** and solidified under **Krishnadevaraya** and **Achyuta Deva Raya**. It appears in inscriptions as **Nayakkattanam** in Tamil, **Nayaktanam** in Kannada and **Nayankaramu** in Telugu.
- The **Amara-Nayaka system** was a major political innovation of Vijayanagara. **Amara-nayakas** were military commanders given territories to govern by the Raya. They collected taxes and dues from peasants, craftspersons and traders. They retained part of the revenue for personal use and maintained a fixed contingent of horses, elephants and troops for the king. Some revenue was used for temples and irrigation works. Many began as commanders, governors or accountants and served as royal agents.
- **Nayaktanam chiefs** managed production through commercial centres called **pettai**, tax incentives, settlers and irrigation. After the Battle of Talikota, many Nayak chiefs became almost independent. Some, such as the Nayaks of **Madurai**, **Tanjavur** and **Ikkeri**, established powerful states controlling smaller chiefs.
- The **Ayagar system** involved a group of **12 village officials** appointed or recognised to maintain village-level administration. These **Ayagars** were hereditary village functionaries and constituted families. They received tax-free portions of land or plots for their service. Sale or purchase of land could not occur without their permission.

Vijayanagara Society

- Foreign visitors described the luxury of rulers, officials and elites in cities such as **Vijayanagara** and **Bijapur**, while also noting widespread poverty and slavery. The gap between the ruling class and ordinary people widened. Continuous warfare caused suffering, displacement and migration.
- Society was divided into groups such as nobles, middle classes and common people. Nobles lived in luxury, the middle classes included businessmen in towns, and common people lived ordinary lives under heavy taxation. **Allasani Peddana's Manucharitam** mentions the four castes: **Brahmins**, **Kshatriyas**, **Vaishyas** and **Sudras**. Brahmins enjoyed high status because of their ritual role.

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- Women had a significant presence in some fields. **Nuniz** noted that women in the Vijayanagara Empire were skilled in **wrestling, astrology, accounting and soothsaying**. Women also participated in administration, trade and fine arts. **Gangadevi**, wife of Kumara Kampana, wrote **Maduravijayam**. **Hannamma** and **Thirumalamma** were other noted women poets. At the same time, practices such as **Sati, child marriage, polygamy among upper classes**, and the **Devadasi system** existed.

Vijayanagara Economy, Taxation and Trade

- The state derived revenue mainly through taxation. Land revenue was generally assessed according to the type of crop, soil quality, method of irrigation and productivity. One tradition gives land revenue generally as **one-sixth** of produce, while another gives the range as **one-third to one-sixth** after assessing land quality.
- Apart from land tax, other taxes included **property tax**, taxes on sale of produce, profession taxes, military contribution in times of distress, marriage tax, customs duties, grazing tax, import and export duties, tributes and gifts from vassals and feudal chiefs. Most revenue was used for welfare measures and maintaining a large army of infantry, cavalry and elephants.
- The economy was initially agrarian but became more commercial from the **14th century**. Commercial and weaving centres developed in **northern Tamil Nadu, Rayalaseema and coastal Andhra**. Artisans such as weavers, smiths and masons became more prominent. Non-agrarian craft groups were called **Pattadaior**, meaning workshop people, and **Kasayavargam**, meaning groups paying taxes in cash. In the **16th century**, Nayakas promoted crafts such as weaving through occasional tax incentives.
- Inland, coastal and overseas trade brought prosperity. The horse trade was initially controlled by **Arab traders**, who imported horses from **Arabia and Central Asia**. Local horse merchants called **Kudirai Chettis** also participated. Vijayanagara markets dealt in **spices, textiles, precious stones** and diamonds. The chief exports included **cotton, silk clothes, spices, rice, iron, saltpetre, sandalwood, sugar** and other goods. Imports included **horses, pearls, copper, coral, mercury, ivory, China silk and velvet clothes**. Trade links extended to **Persia, Arabia, Burma, China, Sri Lanka** and South East Asia.
- Important ports included **Goa, Chaul, Dabhol, Honavar, Bhatkal, Bakanur and Mangalore**. The art of shipbuilding had developed. From **1498 AD**, the **Portuguese** became new participants and sought trade and military posts on the west coast. Textiles attracted Portuguese and other European traders in the early **16th century**. Their military technology, including **muskets**, gave them political importance.
- Coins became more common as the money economy expanded. The chief gold coin was the **Varaha or Pagoda**. **Perta** was half a Varaha, and **Fanam** was one-tenth of a Perta. **Tar** was a silver coin, and **Jittal** was a copper coin.

Religion and Cultural Orientation

- The early **Sangama rulers** were mainly **Shaivites**, and **Virupaksha** was their family deity. Later dynasties were increasingly influenced by **Vaishnavism**, especially the **Srivaishnavism of Ramanuja**, but Shaivism continued to remain important.
- Vijayanagara rulers were generally religiously tolerant. Muslims served in the administration, and they were allowed to build mosques and worship. Many temples were built, and festivals were celebrated widely. The **Epics and Puranas** were popular among the masses and especially among women as means of education. Vijayanagara also projected itself as a protector of Hindu traditions against northern invasions, but it did not completely exclude other religious communities.

Architecture of Hampi and Vijayanagara

- The accounts of **Nicolo de Conti, Abdur Razzak, Afanasii Nikitin, Duarte Barbosa, Domingo Paes** and **Fernao Nuniz** describe the grandeur of Vijayanagara city. **Domingo Paes** compared Vijayanagara with **Rome** and described the **Mahanavami Dibba** as the **House of Victory**.
- **Abdur Razzak** mentioned **seven lines of forts** at Hampi, enclosing not only the city but also agricultural hinterland and forests. No mortar or cementing agent was used in the fort construction. Large fortress walls enclosed agricultural tracts. The gateways used **arch and dome**, showing Indo-Islamic features.
- Vijayanagara architecture is often described as **Dravida**, but it had a distinct **Provida style**, marked by many pillars and piers. Tombs and mosques in the urban core had different functions but resembled temple **mandapas** in architecture. The city was dotted with shrines supported by different communities. Water resources included **Kamalapuram tank, Hiriya canal** and an elaborate canal system drawing water from the **Tungabhadra**.
- The city was divided into the **Sacred Centre** and the **Royal Centre**. The Royal Centre contained **Mahanavami Dibba, Lotus Mahal** and **Hazara Rama Temple**. The Mahanavami Dibba stood at one of the highest points of the city and probably supported a wooden structure connected with **Mahanavami**, the important day of the ten-day autumn festival known as **Dussehra** in North India. **Hazara Rama Temple** contains scenes from the **Ramayana** sculpted on the inner walls.
- The Sacred Centre contained **Raya Gopurams** or royal gateways, **mandapas** and major temples. **Raya Gopurams** often dwarfed the towers over central shrines. **Kalyana Mandapas**, used for divine weddings, became an important feature. Royal portrait sculptures were displayed in temples. **Virupaksha Temple**, dedicated to Shiva, honoured the guardian deity of the kingdom, and the hall in front of the main shrine was built by **Krishnadevaraya** to mark his accession.
- The **Vitthala Temple**, dedicated to **Vitthala**, a form of Vishnu worshipped in Maharashtra, contains several halls and a unique shrine designed as a chariot. Its chariot street extends from the temple gopuram in a straight line. It is famous for its **musical pillars**, represents the culmination of Vijayanagara temple architecture and was built in the **15th century** during the rule of **Deva Raya II**. **Jaina temples** of the pre-Vijayanagara period were

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also present, showing the coexistence of several sacred traditions.

- Other architectural examples include **Vittalaswamy Temple**, **Hazara Ramaswamy Temple**, **Varadharaja Temple**, **Ekamparanatha Temple** at Kanchipuram, and **Raya Gopurams** at **Thiruvannamalai** and **Chidambaram**. The temples displayed scenes from the **Ramayana** and **Mahabharata**, had large enclosures, **Garbhagriha**, **Amman shrines**, carved pillars and mandapas used during festivals. Horse sculptures were a common pillar motif. The **Lotus Mahal** and **Elephant Stables** show fusion of Hindu and Indo-Islamic styles.

Literature, Music and Knowledge Traditions

- The Vijayanagara rulers patronised **Kannada**, **Telugu**, **Sanskrit** and **Tamil** literature. Kannada was used in court and administration, while Telugu gained prominence especially under **Krishnadevaraya**.
- In Telugu literature, **Krishnadevaraya's Amuktamalyada** is a major work on polity and devotion. **Allasani Peddana's Manucharitam** is important for social details, while **Tenali Ramakrishna's Panduranga Mahatyam** is also important. Other Telugu literary figures include **Nandi Thimmana**, **Pingali Surana**, **Dhurjati** and other Ashtadiggajas.
- In Kannada literature, **Kumara Vyasa's Gadugina Bharata** translated the Mahabharata tradition, while **Chamarasa's Prabhulinga Leele** reflected Veerashaiva devotion. **Chatu Vittalanatha** wrote **Bhagavatha**, and **Krishna Deva Rayana Dinachari** is associated with Krishnadevaraya's literary tradition.
- In Sanskrit, **Vidyaranya** and **Sayanacharya** wrote commentaries on the **Vedas** and epics. Krishnadevaraya wrote **Jambavati Kalyanam** and other Sanskrit works. In Tamil, devotional literature was influenced by the **Bhakti movement**, with figures such as **Svarupananda Desikar** and **Tattuvarayar**. Texts such as **Divya Prabandham** and **Tevaram** remained culturally important.
- Carnatic music developed from devotional worship, Vedism and Bhakti philosophy. In the **16th century**, **Purandara Dasa**, a Haridasa saint and disciple of **Vyasatirtha**, is regarded as the **Father of Carnatic Music**. He systematised musical training through **sarali varisai**, **alankaras** and basic ragas such as **Mayamalavagowla**. His devotional songs in Kannada made complex music accessible to common people.

Decline of Vijayanagara

- The decline of Vijayanagara was caused by continuous warfare with rivals such as **Bahmani rulers**, **Madurai**, **Warangal** and later Deccan Sultanates. Constant wars drained resources and weakened the economy. The empire's reliance on provincial autonomy gave governors and Nayak chiefs excessive power, and they asserted independence when central authority weakened.
- Succession disputes and the absence of a firm rule of primogeniture created internal conflict after rulers' deaths. Weak successors after **Krishnadevaraya** could not hold such a large

empire together. The **Battle of Talikota in 1565 AD** became the decisive turning point. Although the kingdom survived for nearly a century under the **Aravidu Dynasty**, with capitals at **Penugonda**, **Chandragiri** and later **Vellore**, it finally ended by **1646 AD**.

Political Timeline

- The period **1300–1400 AD** saw the establishment of the **Vijayanagara Empire in 1336 AD**, the **Bahmani Kingdom in 1347 AD**, and Sultanates in **Jaunpur**, **Kashmir** and **Madura**.
- The period **1400–1500 AD** saw the rise of the **Gajapati Kingdom of Orissa in 1435 AD**, the establishment of **Gujarat** and **Malwa Sultanates**, and the emergence of **Ahmadnagar**, **Bijapur** and **Berar in 1490 AD**.
- The period **1500–1600 AD** saw the **Portuguese conquest of Goa in 1510 AD**, the collapse of the Bahmani Kingdom, the emergence of **Golkonda in 1518 AD**, and the establishment of the **Mughal Empire by Babur in 1526 AD**.

Consolidated Revision Points

- Deccan before new kingdoms** means **Yadavas**, **Hoysalas**, **Kakatiyas** and **Pandys**. **Malik Kafur** weakened them during **1304 AD to 1311 AD**, and **Muhammad bin Tughlaq's Daulatabad experiment** encouraged southern independence.
- Bahmani recall chain** is **Bahman Shah** or **Hasan Gangu**, **Gulbarga**, **Tarafs**, **Muhammad I**, **Golkonda**, **Turquoise Throne**, **Ahmad Wali Shah**, **Bidar**, **Mahmud Gawan**, **eight Tarafs**, **Deccani-Pardesi conflict**, and break-up into **Bijapur**, **Ahmadnagar**, **Berar**, **Golkonda** and **Bidar**.
- Vijayanagara recall chain** is **Harihara-Bukka, 1336 AD**, **Tungabhadra**, **Hampi**, **Vidyaranya**, **Virupaksha**, **Varaha**, **Sangama**, **Saluva**, **Tuluva**, **Aravidu**, **Krishnadevaraya**, **Raichur Doab**, **Talikota**, and **Aravidu decline**.
- Krishnadevaraya recall chain** is **1509–1529 AD – 1530 AD**, **Andhra Bhoja**, **Abhinava Bhoja**, **Raichur 1512 AD**, **Orissa 1514 AD**, **Bijapur 1520 AD**, **Bhatkal**, **Portuguese**, **Nagalapuram**, **Amuktamalyada**, **Jambavati Kalyanam**, **Ashtadiggajas**, and temple gopuras.
- Administration recall chain** is **Raya**, **Mahapradhani**, **Dalavay**, **Rayasam**, **Rajya-Mandalam**, **Nadu**, **Sthala**, **Grama**, **Nayaka**, **Amara-Nayaka**, **Ayagar**, **12 village officials**, and **tax-free service land**.
- Economy recall chain** is **land tax by crop-soil-irrigation**, **Varaha**, **Perta**, **Fanam**, **Tar**, **Jittal**, **Kudirai Chettis**, **horse trade**, **Arab traders**, **Portuguese after 1498 AD**, **Bhatkal**, **Goa**, **spices**, **textiles**, **precious stones**, and **shipbuilding**.
- Architecture recall chain** is **seven fort lines**, **no mortar**, **Sacred Centre**, **Royal Centre**, **Mahanavami Dibba**, **Lotus Mahal**, **Hazara Rama**, **Virupaksha**, **Vittala Temple**, **musical pillars**, **Raya Gopurams**, **Kalyana Mandapas**, **Kamalapuram tank**, and **Hiriya canal**.

Examination Focus Points

- **Bahmani Kingdom** began with **Zafar Khan** or **Hasan Gangu**, who took the title **Bahman Shah**, while **Vijayanagara** began with **Harihara I** and **Bukka Raya I** in **1336 AD**.
- **Bahmani date** appears as **1345 AD – 1347 AD** because independence was declared around **1345 AD**, while the formal Bahmani Kingdom is generally associated with **1347 AD**.
- **Vijayanagara chronology** appears as **1336–1650 AD – 1336–1646 AD**, and both should be retained as date variations.
- **Tuluva chronology** appears as **1505–1570 AD – 1491–1570 AD**, while **Aravidu chronology** appears as **1570–1650 AD – 1542–1646 AD**.
- **Raichur Doab** was the main conflict zone between **Vijayanagara** and **Bahmani** powers, and it should not be confused with the **Tungabhadra Doab** or the wider **Krishna-Godavari delta**.
- **Mahmud Gawan** belongs to the **Bahmani Kingdom**, not **Vijayanagara**, and is linked with **eight Tarafs**, land assignments, accountability and Deccani-Pardesi conflict.
- **Golkonda Fort** was first a **Kakatiya mud fort**, later reconstructed by **Kali Kutub Khan** and developed under the **Qutb Shahis**.
- **Ibrahim Adil Shah II** belongs to **Bijapur**, wrote **Kitab-i-Nauras**, issued **Nun-i-Nauras**, and was called **Jagadguru**.
- **Harihara I** and **Bukka** were linked with **Kakatiya-Kampili traditions**, conversion-reconversion under **Vidyaranya**, and foundation of **Vijayanagara** on the **Tungabhadra**.
- **Deva Raya I** is linked with irrigation works on **Tungabhadra-Haridra**, canal-cum-aqueduct to **Hampi**, Muslim soldiers and **Nicolo de Conti**.
- **Deva Raya II** is the greatest ruler of the **Sangama Dynasty** and is linked with **Gajabetegara**, Muslim cavalry, **Abdur Razzak**, tribute from **Sri Lanka** and **Tenasserim**, and the **Vitthala Temple** tradition.
- **Krishnadevaraya** belongs to the **Tuluva Dynasty**, not **Sangama**, and is linked with **Amuktamalyada**, **Ashtadiggajas**, **Portuguese relations**, **Raichur Doab**, and **Andhra Bhoja**.
- **Battle of Talikota or Rakshasa-Tangadi in 1565 AD** was fought against the combined **Deccan Sultanates** and led to the sack of **Vijayanagara**, but the empire survived under the **Aravidu Dynasty** for about another century.
- **Amara-Nayaka system** was a military-administrative land assignment system, while the **Ayagar system** was a village-level arrangement of **12 hereditary officials**.
- **Varaha** was the chief gold coin of **Vijayanagara**. **Perta** was half a **Varaha**, **Fanam** was one-tenth of a **Perta**, **Tar** was silver, and **Jittal** was copper.

*Bahmani Kingdom***Core Overview**

- The **Bahmani Kingdom (1347–1527 AD)** was the first independent Islamic state in **South India** and a major power of the **Deccan**. It was founded by **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah**, also known as **Hasan Gangu** or **Zafar Khan**, after he revolted against the Delhi Sultanate under **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**.
- The kingdom arose in the same wider Deccan setting in which the **Vijayanagara Empire** emerged. It acted as a cultural bridge between **North India and South India**, combined **Persian, Indian and Deccan** elements, and later fragmented into the five **Deccan Sultanates**.

A. Foundation and Political Background

- The Bahmani Kingdom was founded in **1347 AD** by **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah**. He was earlier associated with the Delhi Sultanate and declared independence during the political instability of **Muhammad bin Tughlaq's** reign. A tradition states that he had served a Brahmana named **Gangu**, and therefore came to be known as **Hasan Gangu**.
- Hasan Gangu took the title **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah** and traced his lineage to the mythical Iranian hero **Bahman Shah**, from whom the kingdom derived its name. The capital was initially **Gulbarga**, also identified with present **Kalaburagi in Karnataka**, and later shifted to **Bidar**.
- The Bahmani Kingdom stretched from the **Wainganga River in the north** to the **Krishna River in the south**, and from **Bhongir to Daulatabad** in the east-west direction. It remained in constant conflict with the **Vijayanagara Empire** for control over the Deccan.

B. Important Rulers and Their Contributions**Bahman Shah**

- Bahman Shah (1347–1358 AD)** was the founder of the Bahmani Sultanate. He is described as an **Afghan adventurer** and also known as **Zafar Khan** or **Hasan Gangu**.
- He frequently clashed with the **Vijayanagara Empire, Warangal, and Orissa or Jajnagar**. After successful campaigns, he styled himself as the **Second Alexander** on his coins.
- Administratively, he adopted the structure of the **Delhi Sultanate** and divided the kingdom into four **Tarafs: Gulbarga, Daulatabad, Bidar, and Berar**. Each **Taraf** was governed by a governor responsible for administration, revenue collection, and military command.

Muhammad Shah I

- Muhammad Shah I (1358–1375 AD)** succeeded **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah**. He was a capable administrator and general.
- He attacked **Warangal in 1363 AD**, captured the fortress of **Golkonda**, and acquired the **Turquoise Throne**, which later became the royal seat of Bahmani kings. He defeated **Bukka I of Vijayanagara** and the **Kapila Nayaks of Warangal**.
- He established a system of government that influenced later successor Sultanates and even the **Marathas**. He appointed a

council of **eight ministers of state**, suppressed highway robbery, and built **two mosques at Gulbarga**.

- The council of eight ministers included **Vakil-us-Saltana**, the lieutenant and immediate subordinate of the sovereign; **Wazir-i-Kul**, supervisor of all other ministers; **Amir-i-Jumla**, finance minister; **Wazir Ashraf**, minister of foreign affairs and master of ceremonies; **Nazir**, assistant finance minister; **Peshwa**, associated with the lieutenant of the kingdom; **Kotwal**, chief of police and city magistrate of the capital; and **Sadr-i-Jahan**, chief justice and minister of religious affairs and endowments.

Taj ud-Din Firuz Shah

- Taj ud-Din Firuz Shah (1397–1422 AD)** is considered one of the most remarkable rulers of the Bahmani Sultanate. He expanded the kingdom towards **Berar** by defeating the **Gond Raja Narsing Rai of Kherla**.
- He invaded **Vijayanagara** and secured victories in **1398 AD** and **1408 AD**, but was defeated in **1420 AD** by **Deva Raya I**. After this defeat, his power declined, and he was forced to vacate the throne in favour of his brother **Ahmad Shah I**.
- Firuz Shah Bahmani patronised art and science, especially religious and natural sciences. He was well versed in **Persian, Arabic, Turkish, Telugu, Kannada, and Marathi**. He knew religious sciences such as Quranic commentary and jurisprudence, and natural sciences such as **botany, geometry, and logic**.
- He encouraged the study of **astronomy** and built an observatory near **Daulatabad**. He inducted Hindus into administration on a large scale, and **Deccan Brahmins** gained prominence during his reign. He also set up an **Indo-Persian bureau** that recorded birds, animals, and trees across the Deccan.

Ahmad Shah Wali

- Ahmad Shah Al Wali (1422–1435 AD)** continued the struggle for control over the southeastern seaboard. He attacked **Warangal**, defeated and killed its ruler, and annexed most of its territory.
- He was called **Wali**, meaning saint, due to his association with the Sufi saint **Gesu Daraz**. He shifted the capital from **Gulbarga to Bidar in 1429 AD** to consolidate rule over newly acquired territories.

Muhammad Shah III and Mahmud Gawan

- Muhammad Shah III (1463–1482 AD)** became Sultan at the age of **nine**, and **Mahmud Gawan** acted as regent and Prime Minister. Under Gawan's leadership, the Bahmani Kingdom reached its peak of power.
- Mahmud Gawan was an **Iranian trader** who rose in Bahmani service and received the title **Malik-ul-Tujjar**, meaning **Chief of Merchants**, from **Humayun Shah**. He dominated the affairs of the Bahmani Kingdom for nearly **twenty years**, from **1458 AD to 1481 AD**.

C. Mahmud Gawan's Role and Reforms

- Mahmud Gawan expanded the kingdom by annexing eastern territories, defeating the ruler of **Orissa**, and invading Vijayanagara territories up to **Kanchi**. He captured **Dabhol** and **Goa**, which strengthened overseas trade with **Iran and Iraq**.
- He fought **Mahmud Khalji of Malwa** over **Berar** and prevailed due to active help from the **Gujarat Kingdom**. He also introduced

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or used **gunpowder** in war against Vijayanagara and enlisted Persian chemists to train soldiers in its preparation and use.

- His administrative reforms reorganised the Bahmani Sultanate from four provinces into **eight Tarafs**. Each Taraf was governed by a **Tarafdar**. Royal officers were granted land assignments as payment and made accountable for their income and expenditure.
- He fixed noble salaries, paid either in cash or through **jagirs**. A tract of land called **Khalisa** was kept outside the Tarafdar's control and reserved for the expenses of the Sultan and royal household.
- Mahmud Gawan also opened several **madrasas** for Islamic learning in **Bidar**. His famous **Madrasa at Bidar** was built in **Persian architectural style**, was three-storeyed, and could accommodate about **one thousand students**. Students from **Iran** and **Iraq** also studied there.
- The Bahmani court had many nobles jealous of Gawan. The rivalry between **Deccanis**, who were old settlers, and **Afaqis or Pardesis**, who were newcomers from Central Asia, Iran, and Iraq, intensified during his time. His enemies conspired against him and convinced the Sultan of his disloyalty. He was executed in **1481 AD – 1482 AD**, after which Bahmani power declined rapidly.

D. Bahmani Administration

- The Bahmani administrative system was well organised. The kingdom was initially divided into four **Tarafs**, namely **Daulatabad, Bidar, Berar, and Gulbarga**. Later, under Mahmud Gawan, it was divided into **eight Tarafs**.
- Each province was headed by a **Tarafdar**, also called **Subedar**. The Tarafdar handled administration, revenue collection, and military command.
- The nobles received fixed salaries, paid either in cash or by assigning **jagirs**. The nobility was divided into **Deccanis**, or old settlers of native or long-established background, and **Afaqis or Pardesis**, who were foreigners or recent settlers from Central Asia, Iran, and Iraq. This division created serious internal conflict.
- Important administrative offices included **Wazir-i-Kul**, the Prime Minister; **Amir-i-Kul**, head of finance; **Wazir Ashraf**, in charge of foreign affairs and the royal court; **Sadr-i-Jahan**, head of judiciary and charities; and **Tarafdar**, head of province.

E. Bahmani Military System

- The Bahmanis were skilled in the use of firearms. They employed **Turkish** and **Portuguese** experts to train soldiers in advanced weaponry.
- Military support depended heavily on the **amirs**, who were also divided into **Deccanis** and **Afaqis or Pardesis**. The Deccanis were old Muslim settlers in the Deccan, while the Afaqis were new immigrants from **Central Asia, Iran, and Iraq**.
- The use of **gunpowder** against Vijayanagara and the involvement of Persian chemists under **Mahmud Gawan** became an important military development.

F. Bahmani Conflict with Vijayanagara

- The Bahmani Kingdom and the Vijayanagara Empire remained in continuous conflict because of overlapping territorial and economic interests. Their conflict was not purely religious; it was largely driven by control over fertile land, ports, horses, and trade routes.
- The **Raichur Doab**, located between the **Krishna** and **Tungabhadra** rivers, was the most important area of conflict. The Bahmanis temporarily gained control of it in **1504 AD**, but later lost it to the forces of **Krishnadevaraya**.
- The **Krishna-Godavari Basin** was also important because of its fertility and ports, which helped control foreign trade and exports from the Deccan. The conflict also involved control over the **horse trade** passing through **Goa** and other ports.
- Continuous warfare drained the resources of both Bahmani and Vijayanagara states and weakened their ability to face external threats, especially the **Portuguese**.

G. Break-up of the Bahmani Kingdom

- The Bahmani Kingdom declined after **Muhammad Shah III's death in 1482 AD**. Weak Sultans followed, and the last rulers became figureheads under powerful ministers, especially the **Barid Shahi ministers**.
- By **1518 AD**, **Krishnadevaraya** defeated the last Bahmani ruler, and by **1526 AD – 1527 AD**, the kingdom had fragmented into five successor states called the **Deccan Sultanates**.
- The five successor states were **Adil Shahi of Bijapur, Nizam Shahi of Ahmadnagar, Imad Shahi of Berar, Qutb Shahi of Golconda, and Barid Shahi of Bidar**.
- **Bijapur** was founded by **Yusuf Adil Shah** in **1489 AD – 1490 AD** and was annexed by **Aurangzeb** in **1686 AD – 1687 AD**. **Ibrahim Adil Shah I (1534–1558 AD)** replaced Persian with **Hindvi or Dakhini Urdu** as the official language. **Ibrahim Adil Shah II (1580–1627 AD)** was called **Jagadguru**.
- **Ahmadnagar** was founded by **Ahmad Nizam Shah or Malik Ahmad** in **1490 AD** and was conquered by **Shah Jahan** in **1633 AD – 1636 AD**.
- **Golconda** was founded by **Quli Qutb Shah or Muhammad Quli Qutb Shah** in **1518 AD**. **Muhammad Quli Qutb Shah** founded **Hyderabad**, originally known as **Bhagyanagar**, and built the **Charminar**. Golconda was annexed by **Aurangzeb** in **1687 AD**.
- **Berar** was founded by **Fatullah Imad-ul-Mulk or Imad Shah** in **1490 AD**. It had the shortest life span and was annexed by the **Nizam Shahis** in **1572 AD – 1574 AD**.
- **Bidar** was founded by **Ali Barid or Amir Ali Barid** in **1518 AD – 1528 AD**. It was later annexed by **Bijapur**, and **Bidar Fort** was taken by **Aurangzeb** in **1657 AD**.
- These successor states frequently fought one another, which enabled the Mughals to gradually absorb them. Still, **Golconda, Bijapur, and Ahmadnagar** remained influential in Deccan politics until their absorption into the Mughal Empire in the **17th century**.

H. Deccan Sultanates and Talikota Connection

- After Bahmani fragmentation, **Ahmadnagar, Golkonda, and Bijapur** sometimes acted independently and sometimes

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cooperated. They eventually united with other Deccan powers against **Vijayanagara**.

- The combined Deccan Sultanates defeated Vijayanagara in the **Battle of Talikota or Rakshasa-Tangadi in 1565 AD**. This battle was a major turning point in Deccan history and weakened Vijayanagara permanently.

I. Art and Architecture

- Bahmani art and architecture reflected a synthesis of **Persian, Indian, and Deccan** styles. Persian influence was strong because architects came from **Persia, Turkey, and Arabia**. The style contributed to the growth of **Persianate Indo-Islamic architecture**, later adopted by other Deccan Sultanates.
- The Bahmani Sultans built **mosques, tombs, madrasas, forts, and palaces**. Important sites included **Gulbarga, Bidar, Daulatabad, Golconda, and Raichur**.
- Important monuments include **Gulbarga Fort**, built by **Alauddin Bahman Shah**; **Jama Masjid at Gulbarga**; **Bidar Fort**; **Madrasa of Mahmud Gawan at Bidar**; **Chand Minar at Daulatabad**; **Golconda Fort**; **Ahmad Shah's tomb at Bidar**; and the **Bahmani Tombs**, many of which have coloured tile exteriors and inscriptions in **Arabic, Persian, and Urdu**.
- The architecture used arches, domes, minarets, geometric patterns, colourful tile work, and Persian decorative features. The Bahmani forts at **Bidar** reflected both defensive strength and aesthetic beauty.

J. Gol Gumbaz, Golkonda and Bidriware

- Gol Gumbaz** is located in **Bijapur district of Karnataka** and is the mausoleum of **Muhammad Adil Shah (1626–1656 AD)**, the seventh Sultan of the **Adil Shahi Dynasty of Bijapur**. It is famous for its large dome, described as one of the largest in the world and also recorded as **53.4 metres high**. It is also known for the **Whispering Gallery**.
- Golkonda Fort** was first built as a mud fort by the **Kakatiya rulers**, also linked with **Raja Krishna Dev** in one account. During **1495–1496 AD**, it was handed to **Sultan Kali Kutub Khan** as a **jagir**. He converted it into a granite fort and named the place **Muhammed Nagar**.
- The **Qutb Shahi dynasty** later made **Golkonda** its capital. **Muhammad Quli Qutb Shah** enhanced its grandeur, and the fort houses the tombs of the **Qutb Shahis**. By the **17th century**, Golkonda was famous for the **Kohinoor diamond**. Its highest point is **Bala Hissar**, and the main entrance is the **Fateh Darwaza or Victory Gate**. **Aurangzeb's siege in 1687 AD** lasted **eight months**, and treachery led to the fall of the fort.
- Bidriware** is a metal handicraft from **Bidar** in Karnataka. It originated in the **14th century** under the Bahmani Sultans. It is known for inlay work on copper and silver, using **white brass**, which is blackened and inlaid with silver. It received a **Geographical Indication tag in 2006**.

K. Literature, Language and Culture

- The Bahmani Kingdom patronised **Persian language**, culture, and literature. Several members of the dynasty became proficient in Persian and contributed to literary culture.

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- Mahmud Gawan** wrote poems in Persian and composed works such as **Riyaz-ul-Insha** and **Manazir-ul-Insha**. He also supported Islamic learning through madrasas.
- A new dialect called **Dakhini Urdu** gained prominence during this period. **Khwaja Bande Nawaz Gesu Daraz**, the famous Sufi saint of **Gulbarga**, wrote in this language.
- The Bahmani rulers supported art, architecture, language, literature, and music. Their patronage gave an impetus to **Urdu** and helped create a distinct Indo-Persian-Deccan cultural world.

L. Ibrahim Adil Shah II

- Ibrahim Adil Shah II (1580–1627 AD)** was a king of **Bijapur**. He was a capable administrator, artist, poet, and patron of arts.
- He wrote **Kitab-i-Nauras** in **Dakhani** and issued the coin **Nun-i-Nauras**. His Muslim subjects gave him the title **Jagadguru** because of his secular outlook.
- He understood the Indian aesthetic concept of **Rasa**. His reign represented the continued Indo-Persian-Deccan cultural synthesis after the Bahmani breakup.

M. Causes of Decline

- The Bahmani Kingdom declined due to internal factional conflict, especially between **Deccanis** and **Afaqis or Pardesis**. The execution of **Mahmud Gawan in 1481 AD – 1482 AD** weakened the state sharply.
- Weak successors after **Muhammad Shah III** could not maintain central authority. Provincial governors declared independence, and the last Sultans became figureheads under powerful ministers.
- Continuous wars with neighbouring states, especially **Vijayanagara**, exhausted resources. External pressures and frequent wars among successor states enabled the **Mughals** to gradually absorb the Deccan Sultanates.

N. Consolidated Revision Points

- Bahmani foundation chain** is **1347 AD**, **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah**, **Hasan Gangu**, **Zafar Khan**, revolt against **Muhammad bin Tughlaq**, capital at **Gulbarga**, later **Bidar**, and role as the first independent Islamic state in South India.
- Bahmani geography chain** is **Wainganga to Krishna, Bhongir to Daulatabad, Gulbarga, Bidar, Berar, Daulatabad, Golkonda, Dabhol, Goa**, and constant rivalry with **Vijayanagara**.
- Ruler chain** is **Bahman Shah, Muhammad Shah I, Firuz Shah Bahmani, Ahmad Shah Wali, Muhammad Shah III, and Mahmud Gawan**.
- Mahmud Gawan chain** is **Iranian trader, Malik-ul-Tujjar, Prime Minister, 1458–1481 AD, eight Tarafs, gunpowder, Dabhol and Goa, Orissa, Kanchi, Madrasa at Bidar, Deccani-Afaqi conflict, and execution in 1481 AD – 1482 AD**.
- Administration chain** is **Taraf, Tarafdar or Subedar, Khalisa, jagir, Deccani, Afaqi, Wazir-i-Kul, Amir-i-Kul, Sadr-i-Jahan, and council of eight ministers**.

- **Architecture chain** is **Gulbarga Fort, Jama Masjid Gulbarga, Bidar Fort, Mahmud Gawan Madrasa, Chand Minar, Bahmani Tombs, Gol Gumbaz, Golkonda Fort, Charminar, and Bidriware.**
- **Break-up chain** is **Bijapur, Ahmadnagar, Berar, Golkonda, Bidar,** followed by Deccan Sultanate politics and Mughal absorption.
- **Examination Focus Points**
- **Bahmani Kingdom** was the first independent Islamic state in **South India**, founded in **1347 AD** by **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah.**
- **Hasan Gangu, Zafar Khan, and Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah** refer to the same founder.
- **Bahmani Kingdom** must not be confused with **Vijayanagara Empire.** Both emerged in the **14th century**, but Bahmani was an Islamic Sultanate of the Deccan, while Vijayanagara was a southern Hindu imperial formation.
- **Capital shift** from **Gulbarga to Bidar** was done by **Ahmad Shah Wali in 1429 AD.**
- **Mahmud Gawan** was not a Sultan. He was Prime Minister or regent under **Muhammad Shah III.**
- **Mahmud Gawan** is linked with **eight Tarafs, Malik-ul-Tujjar, gunpowder, Dabhol, Goa, Madrasa at Bidar, and Deccani-Afaqi conflict.**
- **Raichur Doab** lies between the **Krishna and Tungabhadra** rivers and was the core conflict zone between **Bahmani** and **Vijayanagara.**
- **Deccanis** were old settlers, while **Afaqis or Pardesis** were foreign or new immigrant groups.
- **Gol Gumbaz** is associated with **Muhammad Adil Shah of Bijapur,** not directly with the early Bahmani Sultans.
- **Bidriware** originated in **Bidar** under Bahmani patronage and received a **GI tag in 2006.**
- **Bahmani decline** is closely linked with the execution of **Mahmud Gawan,** weak successors, Deccani-Afaqi conflict, and the rise of the five Deccan Sultanates.
- **Bahmani end-date** appears as **1526 AD – 1527 AD,** and the successor states emerged between **1489 AD and 1528 AD.**

*Mughal Empire***CORE OVERVIEW**

- The **Mughal Empire (1526 AD–1857 AD)** was founded by **Zahiruddin Muhammad Babur in 1526 AD** after defeating **Ibrahim Lodi in the First Battle of Panipat**, and it continued for nearly **three centuries**, shaping India's **political authority, administrative structure, agrarian system, economy, culture, architecture and society**, with the decline beginning after the death of **Aurangzeb in 1707 AD** and the formal end occurring in **1857 AD** with the deposition of **Bahadur Shah II**.

Babur

- Zahiruddin Muhammad Babur (1526 AD–1530 AD)** was a ruler of **Central Asian origin**, who traced his lineage to **Timur on the paternal side** and **Chengiz Khan on the maternal side**, due to which the Mughal rulers are also referred to as **Timurids**. He inherited the small principality of **Fergana in 1494 AD at the age of 12**, and he made repeated attempts to conquer **Samarkand**, which was a prestigious Timurid centre, but these attempts failed due to the rise and military strength of the **Uzbeks under Shaibani Khan**, which created continuous pressure and instability in Central Asia.
- He captured **Kabul in 1504 AD**, and this region became his stable base of operations. The combination of **financial limitations, lack of a secure territorial base in Central Asia**, and the attraction of the **wealth and political fragmentation of India** motivated his shift towards the Indian subcontinent. He also considered **Punjab** as a legitimate claim because it had earlier been conquered by **Timur**, thereby linking his invasion to a sense of inherited right.
- The political condition of India at that time was highly fragmented and unstable. **Ibrahim Lodi of the Lodi Dynasty (1451 AD–1526 AD)** faced serious internal opposition from Afghan nobles. **Daulat Khan Lodi**, who was the governor of Punjab, opposed Ibrahim Lodi and sought external support. The **Rajputs under Rana Sanga of Mewar** had organised a powerful confederacy and were aiming to establish dominance in North India. Afghan chiefs were active in regions such as **Agra and surrounding areas**. **Bengal was ruled by Nurat Shah**, and the Deccan region was divided between the **Vijayanagara Empire** and the **successor states of the Bahmani Kingdom**, creating a multi-centred political structure.
- Babur was encouraged by **Daulat Khan Lodi**, and he also received expectations of cooperation from **Rana Sanga**. Before establishing permanent control, he conducted multiple preliminary expeditions into India, testing military strength and political conditions.
- The **First Battle of Panipat (1526 AD)** was fought between **Babur and Ibrahim Lodi**, which resulted in the defeat and death of Ibrahim Lodi and the establishment of Mughal authority over **Delhi and Agra**. Babur used the **Rumi method**, which involved the use of **field artillery, carts tied together with ropes**, and

trenches arranged in a defensive formation, which neutralised the numerical advantage of the opposing army.

- The **Battle of Khanwa (1527 AD)** was fought against **Rana Sanga**, who was supported by **Mahmud Lodi and Hasan Khan Mewati**. Babur declared the conflict as **Jihad**, reorganised his army, defeated the Rajput confederacy, and assumed the title **Ghazi**, which indicated a victorious Islamic warrior.
- The **Battle of Chanderi (1528 AD)** was fought against **Medini Rai**, leading to Mughal consolidation in central India. The **Battle of Ghagra (1529 AD)** was fought against **Mahmud Lodi and Nurat Shah of Bengal**, which established Mughal authority in eastern India and removed remaining Afghan resistance in that region.
- Babur used **gunpowder and artillery effectively**, although these technologies were already known in India before his arrival. His military success depended on systematic organisation rather than mere technological novelty. He applied the **Tulughma system**, in which the army was divided into **centre, right wing, left wing and flanking divisions**, allowing flexible movement and encirclement strategies during battle. Control over the **Khyber Pass** ensured a steady and reliable supply of **high-quality Central Asian horses**, strengthening cavalry efficiency.
- He introduced the **Char Bagh garden style**, which reflected Persian influence, and constructed gardens such as **Ram Bagh and Zahra Bagh at Agra**. His autobiography **Tuzuk-i-Baburi or Baburnama**, written in the **Turkish language**, provides detailed insights into his **military campaigns, geographical observations, flora, fauna and personal reflections**. He was proficient in **Persian and Arabic**, and followed **Sunni Islam**, while maintaining intellectual openness in cultural matters.

Humayun

- Nasiruddin Humayun (1530 AD–1540 AD and 1555 AD–1556 AD)** succeeded Babur and inherited an empire that was structurally weak and politically unstable. The empire faced **financial instability, Afghan resistance**, and **internal conflict**, especially due to rivalry with his brothers. His brother **Kamran** controlled **Kabul, Qandahar and Punjab**, which significantly weakened central authority and reduced the emperor's direct control over strategic regions.
- Humayun faced the rising power of the Afghan leader **Sher Shah Suri**, who gradually consolidated his position in North India. Humayun was defeated in the **Battle of Chausa (1539 AD)** and again in the **Battle of Kannauj (1540 AD)**, which led to the collapse of Mughal rule in India and forced him into exile.
- During his exile, Humayun stayed at **Amarkot**, where **Akbar was born in 1542 AD**, marking an important dynastic event. He later took refuge in **Persia**, where he received military and political support from the **Safavid ruler**. With Persian assistance and under the leadership of **Bairam Khan**, he returned to India and successfully regained **Delhi in 1555 AD**.
- Humayun died in **1556 AD** after falling from the staircase of his library building, an accidental death that led to another transition of power.
- He founded the city of **Dinapanah in Delhi**, patronised **Persian culture**, and laid the foundation of **Mughal painting** by bringing

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artists such as **Mir Sayyid Ali and Abdus Samad** to India. His sister **Gulbadan Begum** wrote **Humayun Nama**, which serves as an important primary historical account of his life and reign.

Sher Shah Suri

- **Sher Shah Suri (1540 AD–1555 AD)**, originally named **Farid**, defeated Humayun and established the **Sur Empire**, which introduced administrative, revenue and infrastructural reforms that later influenced Mughal governance.
- He established a **highly centralised administrative system**, dividing authority into specialised departments such as **Diwan-i-Wizarat (finance)**, **Diwan-i-Ariz (military affairs)**, **Diwan-i-Rasalat (foreign affairs)** and **Diwan-i-Insha (communication and official correspondence)**.
- The empire was divided into **Sarkars**, which were further subdivided into **Parganas**, and then villages, forming a structured and hierarchical administrative framework.
- His land revenue system fixed revenue at approximately **one-third of the produce**, based on **systematic measurement and classification of land**. Cultivators were given a written document called **Patta**, specifying the land and revenue demand, and they signed a **Qabuliyat**, agreeing to the payment. A **famine cess of 2.5 seers per bigha** was imposed to manage crisis situations.
- He revived the **Dagh system**, which involved branding of horses, and the **Chehra system**, which involved maintaining descriptive rolls of soldiers, thereby ensuring discipline and preventing corruption in the army.
- He standardised coinage by issuing the **silver Rupiya of 178 grains**, which became the foundation of later Indian currency systems.
- He improved communication and trade by reconstructing the **Grand Trunk Road from Tamralipti to Peshawar**, building **Sarais at regular intervals for travellers and officials**, and establishing an organised **postal system**, which enhanced administrative efficiency and economic exchange.
- He died in **1545 AD** due to a **gunpowder explosion at Kalinjar fort**, which abruptly ended his rule.

Akbar

- **Jalaluddin Muhammad Akbar (1556 AD–1605 AD)** ascended the throne in **1556 AD at the age of 13**, and the early phase of his reign was conducted under the regency of **Bairam Khan**, who defeated **Hemu (Hemchandra Vikramaditya)** in the **Second Battle of Panipat (1556 AD)** and restored Mughal authority in North India after the temporary revival of Afghan power.
- After consolidating his position, Akbar undertook systematic expansion. He annexed **Malwa in 1561 AD** by defeating **Baz Bahadur**, bringing central India under Mughal control. He annexed **Gondwana in 1564 AD** after defeating **Rani Durgavati**, extending Mughal authority into tribal and forested regions. He captured **Chittor in 1568 AD**, a major stronghold of **Mewar**, after a prolonged siege, and followed it with the capture of **Ranthambore in 1569 AD**, strengthening Mughal position in Rajputana.

- He conquered **Gujarat in 1573 AD**, which was economically significant because of its access to **maritime trade routes and ports such as Surat**. He annexed **Bengal and Bihar in 1576 AD** after defeating **Daud Khan Karrani** in the **Battle of Tukaroi (1575 AD)** and the **Battle of Rajmahal (1576 AD)**. He incorporated **Kashmir in 1586 AD**, **Sindh in 1591 AD**, and extended Mughal authority into the **Deccan between 1596 AD and 1600 AD**, bringing regions such as **Berar, Khandesh and parts of Ahmadnagar** under control.
- The **Battle of Haldighati (1576 AD)** was fought between Mughal forces led by **Raja Man Singh of Amber** and the forces of **Maharana Pratap of Mewar**. Although the Mughal forces gained military advantage, **Maharana Pratap continued resistance**, and Mewar was not completely subdued during Akbar's reign.
- Akbar established a **highly centralised administrative system**. At the centre, authority was organised through key officials. The **Wazir or Diwan** supervised revenue and finance. The **Mir Bakshi** was responsible for military organisation, recruitment and maintenance of mansabdars. The **Sadr-us-Sudur** managed religious endowments, charity and judicial matters. The empire was divided into **Subas**, further into **Sarkars**, and then **Parganas**, forming a structured administrative hierarchy.
- The revenue system was organised through the **Dahsala system introduced in 1580 AD by Raja Todar Mal**, which was based on the **average produce and prices of the previous ten years**. Land was classified into **Polaj (regularly cultivated)**, **Parati (temporarily fallow)**, **Chachar (left fallow for three to four years)**, and **Banjar (uncultivated for long periods)**.
- The **Mansabdari system** formed the backbone of Mughal administration and military organisation. Each noble was assigned a rank called **Mansab**, which determined his salary, status and obligations. The rank had two components: **Zat**, which denoted personal rank and status, and **Sawar**, which denoted the number of cavalry to be maintained.
- Akbar followed the policy of **Sulh-i-Kul**, which emphasised universal tolerance. He abolished the **pilgrimage tax in 1563 AD** and the **Jizya tax in 1564 AD**, reducing religious discrimination. He established the **Ibadat Khana at Fatehpur Sikri in 1575 AD**, where scholars from different religions participated in discussions.
- He introduced **Din-i-Ilahi in 1582 AD**, which was not a formal religion but an ethical order with very limited membership, consisting mainly of close associates of the emperor.
- Akbar constructed the city of **Fatehpur Sikri**, where important structures such as the **Buland Darwaza, Jama Masjid, Diwan-i-Khas, Diwan-i-Aam**, and **Panch Mahal** were built. His court included the **Navratnas**, such as **Abul Fazl**, author of **Akbarnama** and **Ain-i-Akbari**, **Birbal**, **Tansen**, and **Raja Todar Mal**.

Jahangir

- **Nur-ud-din Muhammad Jahangir (1605 AD–1627 AD)** succeeded Akbar and continued Mughal administration while showing a strong inclination towards **art, painting and natural studies**.

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- He faced a rebellion from his son **Prince Khusrav**, which he suppressed, and he ordered the execution of **Guru Arjun Dev**, marking a significant development in Mughal-Sikh relations.
- He permitted **Sir Thomas Roe in 1615 AD**, the ambassador of **King James I of England**, to establish an English trading factory at **Surat**, marking the beginning of formal English commercial presence in India.
- He introduced the **duh-aspah-sih-aspah system** within the Mansabdari system, under which selected nobles were required to maintain additional cavalry beyond their original quota and were compensated accordingly.
- Mughal painting reached a high level of **naturalism and realism** during his reign. Artists such as **Ustad Mansoor** specialised in detailed depictions of **birds, animals and plants**, reflecting Jahangir's interest in nature.
- He wrote his memoir **Tuzuk-i-Jahangiri**, which provides insights into administration, court life and personal interests.

Shah Jahan

- **Shah Jahan (1628 AD–1658 AD)** ruled during the period described as the **zenith of Mughal architecture**.
- He constructed monumental buildings such as the **Taj Mahal (1631 AD–1648 AD)** at Agra in memory of **Mumtaz Mahal**, the **Red Fort at Delhi**, the **Jama Masjid at Delhi**, and established the capital city **Shahjahanabad**.
- During his reign, the number of **mansabdars increased significantly**, which created pressure on the imperial treasury and strain on the revenue system.
- He followed a relatively more **orthodox religious policy** compared to Akbar, while maintaining administrative continuity.

Aurangzeb

- **Aurangzeb (1658 AD–1707 AD)** ruled for nearly **50 years**, and under him the Mughal Empire reached its **maximum territorial extent**.
- He expanded the empire in the Deccan by conquering **Bijapur in 1686 AD** and **Golconda in 1687 AD**, bringing the Deccan Sultanates under Mughal control. However, he faced prolonged resistance from the **Marathas**, especially under **Shivaji**, which led to continuous warfare in the Deccan.
- Aurangzeb reimposed the **Jizya tax**, restricted music at the court, and followed stricter **Islamic policies**, marking a departure from Akbar's policy of tolerance.
- He ordered the execution of **Guru Tegh Bahadur in 1675 AD**, which intensified tensions with the Sikh community.
- The number of **mansabdars increased considerably**, including a significant proportion of **Marathas and Indian Muslims**, which increased administrative complexity and financial pressure.

Bahadur Shah I

- **Bahadur Shah I (1707 AD–1712 AD)**, also known as **Prince Muazzam**, ascended the Mughal throne after the death of

Aurangzeb in 1707 AD at an advanced age of around **60 years**, marking the transition from expansion to decline.

- He adopted a **policy of conciliation towards nobles**, granting them **preferred jagirs and territorial assignments**, which not only strengthened noble factions but also **shifted effective power from the centre to provincial elites**, thereby weakening imperial authority in practice. This policy created **immediate political stability but long-term fiscal stress**, as revenue assignments became less controllable by the centre.
- Administrative authority weakened further as influential nobles such as **Zulfiqar Khan** exercised increasing control over governance, reducing the emperor's functional role. Mughal chroniclers described him as **Shah-i-Bekhabar**, indicating **disconnect between nominal sovereignty and actual administrative control**.
- His religious policy showed **relative tolerance towards Hindus**, yet he **did not abolish Jizya**, reflecting continuity rather than reform. His policy towards the **Marathas remained indecisive**, as he hesitated to grant **chauth and sardeshmukhi**, which meant **failure to integrate a rising power into the imperial framework**, resulting in continued conflict instead of negotiated incorporation.
- He initiated reconciliation with **Guru Gobind Singh**, but after the Guru's death, **Sikh resistance under Banda Bahadur** escalated, forcing military campaigns. This reflected the **inability of the centre to convert regional movements into stable alliances**.
- He recognised the autonomy of **Marwar and Mewar**, but this recognition remained **symbolic rather than integrative**, as these states functioned independently. He died in **1712 AD during a campaign against Banda Bahadur**, leaving behind a politically fragmented structure where **authority existed in name but not in control**.

Jahandar Shah

- **Jahandar Shah (1712 AD–1713 AD)** became the **first clear example of a puppet ruler**, with real authority exercised by his Wazir **Zulfiqar Khan**, marking the **institutional shift from imperial monarchy to noble-dominated governance**.
- His policy of conciliation towards **Rajputs, Marathas and Hindu chiefs** aimed at stabilising alliances, granting titles such as **Maharaja to Ajit Singh of Marwar** and **Mirza Raja Sawai to Jai Singh of Amber**, which strengthened regional elites but **further diluted central supremacy by legitimising autonomous power centres**.
- He continued suppression of **Banda Bahadur**, showing that **military coercion replaced earlier integrative strategies**. He **abolished Jizya**, indicating an attempt to reduce socio-religious friction.
- He attempted to **regulate jagir distribution** and ensured that nobles maintained their **prescribed troop quotas**, which reflected an effort to **restore administrative discipline and military accountability**, but these measures remained ineffective due to weak central enforcement.
- The introduction of the **Ijara system** allowed revenue collection through **auction to the highest bidder**, which ensured

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immediate cash inflow to the state, but shifted focus from **state-controlled assessment to profit-driven extraction**, leading to **peasant exploitation, unstable agrarian relations, and weakening of long-term revenue sustainability**.

- His defeat at **Agra in 1713 AD by Farrukh Siyar** reflected continued instability, where **succession depended more on factional backing than imperial legitimacy**.

Farrukh Siyar

- **Farrukh Siyar (1713 AD–1719 AD)** ascended the throne with the support of the **Sayyid Brothers, Abdullah Khan (Wazir) and Husain Ali Khan Baraha (Mir Bakshi)**, marking the **peak of noble dominance over the Mughal throne**, where the emperor's authority became structurally dependent.
- He **abolished Jizya and pilgrimage tax**, continuing conciliatory fiscal policies. In **1717 AD**, he issued a decisive **farman granting extensive privileges to the British East India Company**, including **duty-free trade in Bengal**, which allowed the Company to **bypass local taxation mechanisms**, thereby **weakening state revenue control and enabling economic autonomy that later translated into political intervention**.
- His inability to assert authority against the Sayyid Brothers led to conflict, and his **deposition and execution in 1719 AD** demonstrated that **control over the empire had shifted from the emperor to competing noble factions**, institutionalising instability.

Muhammad Shah

- **Muhammad Shah (1719 AD–1748 AD)**, known as **Muhammad Shah Rangeela**, came to power after the removal of the Sayyid Brothers around **1720 AD** with the support of nobles such as **Nizam-ul-Mulk (Chin Qilich Khan)** and **Muhammad Amir Khan**, briefly restoring central authority.
- However, this recovery was temporary. Provincial governors asserted autonomy, leading to structural fragmentation. **Nizam-ul-Mulk in the Deccan, Saadat Khan in Awadh, and Murshid Quli Khan in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa** transformed their provinces into **practically independent states**, showing that **administrative decentralisation had become irreversible**.
- His reign combined **courtly cultural expansion with administrative neglect**, where increased focus on court life reduced effective governance, weakening supervision over distant regions.
- The invasion of **Nadir Shah in 1739 AD** exposed the **complete collapse of Mughal military coordination, financial preparedness and administrative cohesion**, demonstrating that the empire had become **structurally vulnerable to external shocks**.

Nadir Shah

- **Nadir Shah**, the ruler of **Iran**, consolidated power by expelling **Afghans from Iran**, then invaded India and defeated the Mughal army in the **Battle of Karnal (1739 AD)**, forcing **Muhammad Shah to surrender**, indicating **collapse of organised imperial defence**.

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- His sack of **Delhi** and plunder of wealth, including the **Kohinoor diamond** and **Peacock Throne**, resulted in **massive depletion of the Mughal treasury**, which directly weakened the empire's ability to **finance administration, army and nobility**, creating a long-term fiscal crisis.
- The invasion also caused a **psychological collapse of imperial prestige**, encouraging both **internal rebellions and further foreign incursions**, showing how economic loss translated into political vulnerability.

Ahmad Shah Abdali

- **Ahmad Shah Abdali (Ahmad Shah Durrani)**, successor of Nadir Shah, repeatedly invaded India and became a decisive actor in North Indian politics. He captured **Delhi**, acknowledged **Alamgir II**, and governed indirectly through **Najib-ud-Daula**, thereby **replacing Mughal authority with Afghan-backed intermediaries**.
- In **1758 AD**, **Raghunath Rao** expelled **Najib-ud-Daula** and captured **Punjab**, showing **Maratha expansion into the Mughal power vacuum**. Abdali's return in **1759 AD** led to the **Third Battle of Panipat (1761 AD)**, where Marathas were defeated.
- This defeat weakened the Marathas, but the absence of Mughal recovery meant that **power shifted to competing regional and external forces rather than returning to the empire**, deepening fragmentation. His **final invasion in 1767 AD** marked the end of sustained Afghan intervention.

Alamgir II

- **Alamgir II (1754 AD–1759 AD)** ruled during a phase of extreme instability where imperial authority was largely symbolic. The **Battle of Plassey (1757 AD)** during his reign enabled the **British East India Company to gain control over Bengal**, marking a transition where **economic control began converting into territorial sovereignty**.

Shah Alam II

- **Shah Alam II (1759 AD–1806 AD)** attempted restoration but remained dependent. His defeat in the **Battle of Buxar (1764 AD)**, alongside **Mir Qasim and Shuja-ud-Daula**, resulted in his transformation into a **British pensioner**, showing **direct subordination of the Mughal emperor to colonial power**.
- His residence in **Allahabad until 1772 AD**, followed by return to **Delhi under Maratha protection**, reflected that **imperial authority survived only through external patronage, not internal strength**.

Akbar II

- **Akbar II (1806 AD–1837 AD)** ruled under **British protection** after the **capture of Delhi in 1803 AD**, and his authority was purely ceremonial.
- His conferring of the title **Raja on Ram Mohan Roy** and promotion of **Phool Walon Ki Sair** reflected **symbolic cultural leadership rather than political power**.

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- The **British East India Company** stopped issuing coins in the **Mughal emperor's name** and ceased acknowledging Mughal supremacy, indicating that **sovereignty had shifted entirely away from the Mughal institution**.

Bahadur Shah II

- Bahadur Shah II (1837 AD–1857 AD)**, also known as **Bahadur Shah Zafar**, was the last Mughal emperor and a noted **Urdu poet**, representing the final symbolic phase of the empire.
- During the **Revolt of 1857**, he was declared **Emperor of India**, but this was symbolic mobilisation rather than real authority. After suppression, his exile to **Rangoon in 1857 AD** and death in **1862 AD** marked the **formal termination of Mughal sovereignty**.

Causes of Decline

- The decline of the Mughal Empire resulted from interconnected structural failures. The absence of a **clear law of succession** led to repeated conflicts, weakening continuity of governance.
- The prolonged **Deccan campaigns under Aurangzeb** drained financial and military resources, while his **religious policies reduced political integration**, limiting loyalty of diverse groups.
- The **Mansabdari system expanded beyond revenue capacity**, creating imbalance between obligations and resources. The **Jagirdari crisis**, including conflict between **assigned jagirs and paibaqi revenue**, led to corruption, competition among nobles, and weakening of administrative efficiency.
- Heavy taxation created **agrarian distress**, reducing productivity and increasing instability. Administrative corruption reduced state capacity.
- The rise of **Marathas, Sikhs, Rajputs and Jats**, along with autonomy of **Hyderabad, Awadh and Bengal**, showed that **regionalisation replaced centralisation**.
- Foreign invasions by **Nadir Shah (1739 AD)** and **Ahmad Shah Abdali (1761 AD)** caused economic and political destabilisation.
- The rise of **European trading companies such as the British and French** introduced new power structures, where **economic penetration gradually converted into political domination**.
- The decline was therefore a **multi-causal structural process intensifying after 1707 AD**, rather than a single event.

*Marathas***Core Overview**

- The **Marathas emerged as a powerful political and military force in the Deccan in the 17th century**, and under **Shivaji (1630–1680 AD)** they established the idea of **Hindavi Swarajya**, which gradually transformed into a wide-ranging power that, by the **mid-18th century**, had effectively replaced Mughal authority in **central India** and extended influence from **Cuttack to Attock**, while also establishing a significant presence in **Thanjavur (1674 AD–1832 AD)**, indicating both territorial expansion and administrative consolidation across regions.

- The Marathas were not a single homogeneous group but a **broad aggregation of agrarian and warrior castes**, whose social cohesion was shaped by **military service traditions**, often compensated through **land grants**, and whose early political experience developed through service in the armies of the **Bahamani state and its successor kingdoms such as Bijapur**, where rulers like **Ibrahim Adil Shah** utilised them as a counterbalance against entrenched Deccani and Afaqi factions, thereby enabling the gradual militarisation and political rise of Maratha elements within Deccan politics.

Causes for the Rise of Marathas

- The rise of the Marathas was the result of a combination of **geographical advantage, socio-religious cohesion, military capability and political opportunity**, which together created the conditions for regional assertion.
- The **Konkan region**, characterised by **rugged mountains, narrow passes and secluded valleys**, provided a natural defensive environment that favoured **mobility, concealment and surprise attacks**, thereby shaping the Maratha preference for **guerrilla warfare**, which later became systematised as **Ganimi Kava**.
- This geographical advantage was reinforced by a tradition of **military valour and adaptability**, where Maratha forces specialised in **swift movement, surprise assaults and strategic withdrawals**, allowing them to counter larger and more resource-rich armies such as those of the **Mughals and Deccan Sultanates**.
- The **Bhakti movement** contributed significantly to social cohesion, as saints such as **Tukaram, Ramdas and Eknath** promoted **devotional equality and cultural unity through the Marathi language**, thereby fostering a shared socio-cultural identity that transcended caste divisions and supported collective mobilisation.
- Simultaneously, the **decline of the Deccan Sultanates of Bijapur and Golconda**, along with the exhaustion caused by prolonged Mughal-Deccan conflicts, created a **political vacuum**, which enabled leaders like **Shivaji to unify dispersed Maratha groups into a coordinated political force**, converting regional discontent into organised resistance.

Shivaji (1630–1680 AD)**Early Life and Formation**

- Shivaji was born in 1630 at Shivneri Fort near Junnar**, to **Shahji Bhonsle and Jijabai**, and his upbringing combined **military exposure from his father's career in Deccan politics with strong cultural and religious influence from his mother**, while saints such as **Tukaram and Ramdas** shaped his ideological outlook, with **Ramdas often regarded as his spiritual guide**, thereby integrating political ambition with cultural legitimacy.

Initial Expansion and Fort Strategy

- Shivaji began his political career by capturing the **Torna Fort in 1646 from the Bijapur Sultanate**, marking the initiation of territorial expansion, and subsequently **rebuilt the Raigad Fort**, transforming it into a fortified capital that symbolised emerging sovereignty.
- He gradually expanded control over forts such as **Baramati, Indapura, Purandhar and Kondana**, creating a **network of strategically located forts**, which functioned not merely as

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military outposts but as **centres of administration, supply and regional control**, ensuring both defence and governance.

- In **1656**, the capture of **Javali in the Satara region** enabled control over the **Maval area**, and the construction of **Pratapgarh Fort** further strengthened his defensive architecture, demonstrating a clear understanding of terrain-based military strategy.

Military Organisation and Naval Policy

- Shivaji's military success rested on the systematic application of **Ganimi Kava**, which combined **mobility, surprise, local intelligence and terrain advantage**, allowing him to neutralise the numerical superiority of adversaries.
- Recognising the strategic importance of maritime control, he developed a **naval force** to counter the influence of the **Sidis of Janjira**, although he could not decisively defeat them due to **limitations in artillery strength**, indicating both strategic foresight and technological constraints.

Conflict with Bijapur

- The weakening of Bijapur under **Adil Shah II**, combined with Aurangzeb's temporary absence from the Deccan, created an opportunity for Shivaji to expand. He attacked **Bijapur territories in northern Konkan**, which provoked a response from **Ali Adil Shah II**, who dispatched **Afzal Khan in 1659**.
- Afzal Khan's campaign included the desecration of important religious sites such as **Pandharpur**, after which Shivaji engaged him at **Pratapgarh**, where he **killed Afzal Khan**, a turning point that allowed Shivaji to capture **Panhala Fort** and extend control over **southern Konkan and Kolhapur**, demonstrating both tactical skill and psychological warfare.

Conflict with Mughals

- After **Aurangzeb became emperor in 1658**, he appointed **Shaista Khan** to curb Shivaji's expansion. Shaista Khan captured **Pune and Chakan**, but Shivaji's **surprise attack in Poona in 1663** forced his withdrawal, illustrating the effectiveness of guerrilla tactics against conventional armies.
- In **1664**, Shivaji plundered **Surat**, a major Mughal commercial centre, indicating his capacity to disrupt imperial economic networks.
- The Mughal response under **Raja Jai Singh** led to the **Treaty of Purandar (1665)**, under which Shivaji: He surrendered **23 forts**, accepted the position of a **Mughal Mansabdar**, agreed to assist Mughal campaigns against **Bijapur**, retained certain territories, and secured a **mansab of 5000 zat for his son Sambhaji**, reflecting a temporary accommodation within the Mughal framework.
- In **1666**, Shivaji visited **Agra**, where he was **humiliated and placed under house arrest**, but he later escaped, marking a decisive break in Mughal-Maratha relations.
- By **1670**, after Mughal encroachment on his **Berar jagir**, Shivaji resumed hostilities, **recaptured lost forts**, and **raided Surat again**, while by **1672**, the imposition of **Chauth (one-fourth revenue)** over Surat reflected expansion of fiscal authority beyond territorial control.
- The **Battle of Salher (1672)** marked a major Maratha victory over Mughal forces, demonstrating their ability to defeat imperial armies in open conflict.

Coronation and Southern Campaign

- In **1674**, Shivaji was crowned at **Raigad**, assuming the title **Chhatrapati** and formally inaugurating sovereign rule through the **Rajyabhisheka ceremony**, which provided ritual legitimacy to political authority.
- He adopted titles such as **Gobrahmance Pratipalak** and **Dharma Parayena**, linking kingship with religious protection.
- In **1677**, he allied with **Golconda** and launched campaigns in **Berar, Khandesh, Baglan and Kanara**, consolidating territorial control while also capturing **Panhala and Satara**.
- His southern campaign extended into **Senji and Vellore**, and he allowed his half-brother **Venkoji (Ekoji)** to rule **Thanjavur**, thereby creating a **secondary power base in the south**, which later played a crucial role in Maratha survival.
- He replaced **Persian with Marathi as the administrative language**, and ordered compilation of **Raj Vyavahar Kosh**, reflecting a conscious effort to develop a distinct administrative identity.

Death

- **Shivaji died in 1680 AD**, leaving behind a **well-structured state with fortified defence, administrative base and ideological legitimacy**, capable of sustaining resistance against larger imperial powers.

Post-Shivaji Phase and Rise of the Peshwas**Succession after Shivaji**

- After the death of **Shivaji in 1680 AD**, the Maratha state did not collapse but entered a **phase of contested succession combined with continuous Mughal pressure**, reflecting the resilience of the institutional and military framework created earlier. His elder son **Sambhaji (1680 AD–1689 AD)** succeeded him and continued the struggle against the **Mughals under Aurangzeb**, who had personally shifted focus to the Deccan to suppress the Marathas. Sambhaji's reign remained dominated by warfare, and he was eventually **captured by the Mughals and executed in 1689 AD**, which created a temporary leadership vacuum but did not eliminate Maratha resistance, indicating that authority had already become decentralised.
- Following Sambhaji's execution, his brother **Rajaram (1689 AD–1700 AD)** assumed leadership and strategically shifted the base of operations to **Gingee (Senji) in Tamil Nadu**, utilising the southern stronghold earlier secured during Shivaji's campaigns. This relocation allowed the Marathas to **continue resistance despite Mughal occupation of core regions in Maharashtra**, demonstrating the importance of multi-regional bases in sustaining long-term warfare.
- After Rajaram's death in **1700 AD**, his widow **Tarabai** assumed leadership on behalf of her minor son **Shivaji II**, and she successfully organised resistance against Mughal forces. Her leadership illustrates the **flexible and decentralised nature of Maratha authority**, where continuity of struggle did not depend solely on a single ruler but on a broader network of commanders and local support structures.

Emergence of Shahu and Division of Power

- A major turning point occurred when **Shahu (son of Sambhaji)**, who had been held captive by the Mughals, was released by the

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Mughal authorities after Aurangzeb's death, as part of a strategy to **divide Maratha leadership**. His return led to a **succession conflict with Tarabai**, resulting in a split within the Maratha polity.

- Shahu established control over the main Maratha territories, while **Tarabai continued to rule from Kolhapur**, creating **dual centres of authority**, which marked the transition from a unified kingdom under Shivaji to a **confederated political structure with parallel lines of legitimacy**.
- This division also contributed to the rise of intermediary offices, particularly the **Peshwa**, as the need for coordination across factions increased.

Rise of the Peshwa Institution

- Under **Shahu**, real administrative and political authority gradually shifted from the Chhatrapati to the office of the **Peshwa (prime minister)**, marking a structural transformation in Maratha governance where **executive power became centralised in the ministerial office rather than the monarchy**.
- Balaji Vishwanath (Peshwa, 1713 AD–1720 AD)** played a decisive role in consolidating Shahu's authority by **defeating rival claimants, integrating Maratha chiefs and stabilising internal divisions**. He also negotiated with the weakened Mughal state and secured formal recognition for Maratha rights to collect **Chauth (25%) and Sardeshmukhi (10%)** from the **Deccan provinces**, thereby converting military dominance into **institutionalised fiscal claims over Mughal territories**.
- This development marked a fundamental shift, as the Marathas extended influence not only through territorial control but also through **systematic revenue extraction across regions still nominally under Mughal authority**.

Expansion under Baji Rao I

- Baji Rao I (1720 AD–1740 AD)** transformed the Maratha state into an aggressive expansionist power. He articulated a clear policy that the **declining Mughal Empire could be replaced by Maratha supremacy**, and pursued campaigns accordingly.
- He extended Maratha influence into **Malwa, Bundelkhand and Gujarat**, thereby establishing a presence deep into northern and central India. His campaigns demonstrated the effectiveness of **highly mobile cavalry forces**, rapid strikes and flexible alliances, which allowed the Marathas to expand without maintaining heavy administrative structures in newly acquired regions.
- His strategy avoided prolonged sieges and instead relied on **speed, negotiation and pressure tactics**, enabling rapid territorial and fiscal expansion.

Consolidation under Balaji Baji Rao

- Balaji Baji Rao (1740 AD–1761 AD)**, also known as **Nana Saheb**, further expanded Maratha influence across the subcontinent. During this phase, the Maratha polity evolved into a **confederacy**, in which major chiefs such as the **Holkars, Scindias, Gaekwads and Bhonsles** controlled different regions while acknowledging the authority of the Peshwa.
- This system allowed rapid territorial expansion from **Cuttack in the east to Attock in the northwest**, demonstrating the peak of Maratha political reach.
- However, this confederate structure also meant that **regional chiefs exercised substantial autonomy**, which limited central

control and introduced internal competition, laying the foundation for future fragmentation.

Third Battle of Panipat and Structural Impact

- The expansion of Maratha influence into northern India brought them into conflict with **Ahmad Shah Abdali**, leading to the **Third Battle of Panipat in 1761 AD**, where the Marathas suffered a major defeat.
- This defeat resulted in the **loss of experienced leadership, temporary collapse of northern expansion and disruption of military organisation**, but it did not destroy the Maratha state due to its decentralised and resilient structure.

Maratha Recovery and Reassertion

- Following Panipat, the Marathas rapidly reorganised under **Madhav Rao (1761 AD–1772 AD)**, who restored administrative efficiency and military strength.
- Within a decade, they regained control over significant parts of northern India by defeating regional powers such as the **Rohillas, Jats and Rajputs**, thereby re-establishing Maratha dominance in the region.
- In **1771 AD**, they facilitated the **restoration of Shah Alam II to the throne of Delhi**, effectively placing the Mughal emperor under Maratha protection and demonstrating that **real power had shifted from the Mughal centre to the Maratha confederacy**, while the Mughal institution survived only symbolically.
- This phase represents a clear transition from **Mughal decline to Maratha political ascendancy**, where control over the emperor became a tool of legitimacy.

Structural Features of Maratha Power

- The Maratha system operated as a **confederacy**, combining decentralised authority with coordinated expansion, which allowed flexibility but reduced centralised administrative control.
- Their fiscal system relied heavily on **Chauth and Sardeshmukhi**, enabling extraction of revenue beyond directly administered territories and extending influence into Mughal provinces.
- Their military strength lay in **mobility, cavalry dominance and adaptive warfare strategies**, allowing them to sustain campaigns across diverse regions.
- At the same time, **internal divisions among chiefs, decentralised authority and absence of a strong central bureaucracy** created long-term structural weaknesses, which later affected their ability to respond to emerging powers such as the British.

Later Peshwas, Anglo-Maratha Conflict and Decline**Post-Madhav Rao Transition**

- After the stabilising phase under **Madhav Rao (1761 AD–1772 AD)**, who had restored administrative balance, military efficiency and political authority following the setback of **Panipat (1761 AD)**, the Maratha confederacy again entered a phase of **instability after his death in 1772 AD**, as the absence of strong central leadership reopened factional competition within the Peshwa establishment.
- His successor **Narayan Rao (1772 AD–1773 AD)** ascended the Peshwaship but ruled only briefly before being **assassinated in**

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1773 AD, an event that triggered a succession crisis and revealed the fragility of political authority at the centre.

- Following his death, his uncle **Raghunath Rao (Raghoba)** attempted to assume control of the Peshwaship, but his claim was opposed by a group of influential Maratha chiefs, leading to the formation of the **Barbhai Council**, which governed in the name of the posthumous son **Madhav Rao II (Sawai Madhavrao)**. This arrangement reflected a shift from individual authority to **collective oligarchic control**, where power was exercised through a council rather than a single ruler, thereby weakening central cohesion.

First Anglo–Maratha War (1775 AD–1782 AD)

- The internal conflict between **Raghunath Rao** and the **Barbhai Council** provided an entry point for the **British East India Company**, which supported Raghunath Rao in order to expand its political influence. This intervention led to the **First Anglo–Maratha War (1775 AD–1782 AD)**, marking the beginning of sustained military engagement between the Marathas and the British.
- The war concluded with the **Treaty of Salbai (1782 AD)**, under which the British recognised **Madhav Rao II as the Peshwa**, while **Raghunath Rao was pensioned off**, and the British retained control over **Salsette**. The treaty established a phase of relative peace, but more importantly, it demonstrated that **British intervention in Maratha internal politics had become institutionalised**, even though Maratha sovereignty was formally maintained.

Confederacy Structure and Internal Dynamics

- During this period, the Maratha polity functioned as a **confederacy**, in which major chiefs exercised effective control over their respective regions, while acknowledging the nominal authority of the Peshwa at **Poona**.

The principal houses included:

- Scindias in Gwalior and North India**
 - Holkars in Indore and Malwa**
 - Gaekwads in Baroda**
 - Bhonsles in Nagpur**
- This structure enabled expansion and regional consolidation, but also meant that **decision-making required coordination among semi-autonomous chiefs**, reducing the capacity for unified action, especially in the face of external threats.

Second Anglo–Maratha War (1803 AD–1805 AD)

- Internal rivalry among Maratha chiefs, particularly conflicts involving the **Peshwa, Scindias and Holkars**, created conditions for further British intervention. The **Second Anglo–Maratha War (1803 AD–1805 AD)** emerged from these disputes, with the British aligning with certain factions to expand their influence.
- The outcome of the war resulted in **major territorial losses for the Marathas**, as well as the imposition of **subsidiary alliances**, under which Maratha rulers accepted British troops within their territories and ceded control over external relations. This marked a decisive shift where **political autonomy was increasingly subordinated to British strategic control**, even though internal authority remained partially intact.

Third Anglo–Maratha War (1817 AD–1818 AD) and Final Collapse

- The final phase of Maratha decline occurred during the **Third Anglo–Maratha War (1817 AD–1818 AD)**, when the British decisively moved to eliminate Maratha power as a competing force.
- The Peshwa **Baji Rao II** attempted resistance but was defeated, leading to the **abolition of the Peshwaship**. He was **pensioned off and sent to Bithoor**, while Maratha territories were either annexed or brought under British control through subordinate arrangements.
- This marked the transformation of the Marathas from a dominant subcontinental power to **subordinate political entities within the British colonial framework**, and established British supremacy over India.

Structural Causes of Maratha Decline

- The decline of the Marathas was not sudden but resulted from structural limitations within their political and military system.
- The **confederate structure**, while effective for expansion, led to **fragmentation**, as regional chiefs prioritised their own interests, reducing coordinated response capability.
- The weakening of central authority after **Madhav Rao** resulted in **succession disputes and factionalism**, which were exploited by external powers.
- Their military system, based on **mobility and cavalry**, proved less effective against the **disciplined infantry, artillery and modern warfare techniques employed by the British**, indicating a technological and organisational gap.
- The increasing acceptance of **subsidiary alliances** reduced sovereignty and allowed the British to control strategic decisions.
- The Maratha system relied heavily on **revenue extraction such as Chauth and Sardeshmukhi**, which supported expansion but did not create a stable administrative base, limiting long-term consolidation.

Administrative and Institutional Structure under Shivaji

Nature of the State

- The Maratha state under **Shivaji** evolved as a **structured, centralised polity supported by local administrative continuity**, where sovereignty was expressed through the idea of **Hindavi Swarajya**, implying protection of **local society, religion and agrarian interests**, while simultaneously building a functional state apparatus capable of sustaining expansion and resistance.
- Authority remained concentrated in the office of the **Chhatrapati**, yet governance was not arbitrary; it was supported by a defined institutional framework that integrated **military organisation, revenue extraction and local administration**, ensuring that control extended beyond forts into rural society.

Central Administration

- At the centre, Shivaji was assisted by the **Ashtapradhan**, a council of eight ministers, each assigned specific administrative responsibilities, but functioning collectively under the authority of the ruler, ensuring coordination without diluting central control.
- The **Peshwa** functioned as the chief executive coordinating overall administration, while the **Amatya** supervised **finance and state accounts**, ensuring systematic revenue recording and expenditure control. The **Sachiv** handled **official correspondence**.

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and documentation, maintaining the bureaucratic record of governance, whereas the **Mantri** oversaw **intelligence and internal reporting**, ensuring awareness of political developments.

- The **Senapati** commanded the **military organisation**, directing campaigns and defence, while the **Sumant (Dabir)** managed **foreign relations**, negotiating with neighbouring powers. The **Nyayadhish** administered **justice**, reflecting the institutionalisation of legal authority, and the **Panditrao** supervised **religious grants and charities**, linking state authority with socio-religious legitimacy.
- Although responsibilities were distributed, **decision-making remained centralised**, as ministers operated as functionaries rather than autonomous power centres, ensuring that policy direction was coherent and controlled.

Provincial and Local Administration

- The Maratha territory was organised into **provinces**, further divided into **parganas and villages**, creating a hierarchical administrative structure that enabled supervision and revenue collection across regions.
- At the local level, traditional functionaries such as the **Patil** and **Kulkarni** continued to operate, which ensured administrative continuity and reduced disruption in rural governance. This integration of existing institutions with central authority allowed the state to **exercise control without dismantling local structures**, thereby maintaining stability and efficiency.

Revenue Administration

- The revenue system under Shivaji was designed to **balance state demand with agrarian sustainability**, where land was measured and revenue demand was generally fixed at around **one-third of the produce**, ensuring predictability in taxation.
- The system aimed to **reduce the role of intermediaries**, thereby establishing a more direct relationship between the state and cultivators, which limited exploitation and improved revenue realisation.
- In addition to land revenue, the Maratha state collected **Chauth (25%) and Sardeshmukhi (10%)** from neighbouring territories, which represented **fiscal claims beyond directly administered areas**, allowing expansion of influence without proportional administrative integration.
- This combination of **territorial revenue and external exactions** created a flexible fiscal base that supported military activity and expansion.

Military Organisation

- The Maratha military system was structured around **mobility, decentralised command and rapid response**, rather than large standing armies. The core strength lay in **cavalry forces**, which were capable of swift movement across difficult terrain.
- The systematic use of **Ganimi Kava (guerrilla warfare)** allowed the Marathas to exploit terrain, conduct surprise attacks and avoid direct confrontation with larger forces, thereby offsetting numerical disadvantages.
- A network of **forts** functioned as strategic nodes for defence, storage and administration, ensuring that territorial control was anchored in secure bases.

- The army was maintained through a mix of **state-paid troops and locally mobilised forces**, which provided both flexibility and cost efficiency while sustaining prolonged campaigns.

Naval Policy

- Shivaji recognised the strategic importance of maritime security and developed a **naval force along the western coast** to counter the influence of the **Sidis of Janjira** and protect coastal trade routes.
- Although limitations in artillery and resources prevented complete naval dominance, the initiative reflected an understanding that **control of sea routes was essential for economic and strategic security**.

Administrative Language and Cultural Policy

- Shivaji replaced **Persian with Marathi as the language of administration**, which enhanced accessibility and aligned governance with local linguistic practices.
- He also ordered the compilation of **Raj Vyavahar Kosh**, which standardised administrative terminology and reduced dependence on Persian bureaucratic conventions, thereby creating a distinct administrative identity.
- This shift linked governance with cultural assertion while improving administrative clarity.

Structural Features

- The Maratha administrative system combined **centralised authority with decentralised execution**, enabling both control and adaptability. The integration of **local institutions, direct revenue mechanisms and mobile military organisation** created a system capable of expansion and resistance.
- At the same time, the reliance on strong leadership and the later evolution into a **confederate structure** introduced limitations in long-term centralisation, which became evident in subsequent phases.

*Bhakti Movement***Meaning and Core Idea**

- The **Bhakti movement** was a major **religious reform movement of medieval India** that emphasised **single-minded devotion, love and surrender to God** as the path to salvation. **Bhakti** means **devotional surrender to a personally conceived God**, where the relationship between the devotee and God is based on **love and worship**, rather than on ritual performance, priestly control or formal religious ceremonies.
- The movement sought to make religion more **personal, emotional, ethical and accessible**, by stressing that salvation could be attained through **devotion, singing, chanting, hymns, inner purity and direct spiritual experience**. It challenged the dominance of rigid rituals and promoted the idea that God could be approached by all, irrespective of **caste, gender, social status or formal learning**.

Origin and Spread

- The origin of the **Bhakti movement** is traced to the **Vedas**, but its real historical development took place after the **7th century**. It began in **South India**, especially in **Kerala and Tamil Nadu**, around the **7th–8th century**, and later spread to **North India, East India and other regions of the subcontinent**.
- The movement reached its major phase between the **15th and 17th centuries**, when devotional expression through **singing, chanting, kirtana, bhajans and vernacular compositions** became a powerful medium of religious communication. During this period, Bhakti became not only a spiritual path but also a social and cultural force that influenced **language, literature, music, social reform and religious thought**.
- The early development of Bhakti in South India was associated with the **Shaiva Nayanars** and **Vaishnavite Alvars**, while its later spread in North India was linked with figures such as **Ramananda, Kabir, Ravidas, Guru Nanak, Vallabhacharya, Surdas, Mirabai, Chaitanya Mahaprabhu and Tulsidas**.

Causes for the Emergence of Bhakti Movement

- The rise of the **Bhakti movement** was shaped by several **political, socio-economic and religious factors**. One major background was the **oppression felt by common people**, especially under rigid social and religious systems, where religious movements became expressions of popular discontent against hierarchy and exclusion.
- The **Varna system** and caste hierarchy created deep social inequality, while the low status of **Vaishyas, Sudras, urban artisans, lower castes and marginal groups** made egalitarian religious ideas attractive. These groups were dissatisfied with the traditional Brahmanical order and found in Bhakti a more accessible path to spiritual dignity.
- The **Brahmanical rituals** had become rigid and complex, and many people, including some from upper castes, favoured **simple religious practices** over elaborate ceremonies. The Bhakti saints rejected blind ritualism, empty formalism and excessive dependence on priestly mediation.
- The **feudal order** also contributed to the growth of religious movements, because Bhakti saints voiced the frustrations of

ordinary people against **feudal oppression**, even though they did not directly challenge feudalism as a political system. Their teachings offered emotional relief, moral strength and a sense of equality to the common people.

- The **Turkish conquest of North India** weakened the earlier **Rajput-Brahman alliance**, especially by reducing temple wealth and state patronage enjoyed by Brahmins. This decline in Brahmanical influence created space for **non-conformist movements like the Nathpanthis**, and later for the wider growth of the **Bhakti movement**.
- The **coming of Islam** also influenced the religious environment. Islam brought ideas such as **faith in one God, rejection of incarnation, critique of idolatry, attack on caste distinctions and emphasis on nirguna devotion**, which interacted with Indian devotional traditions and encouraged new forms of religious expression.
- The **influence of Sufi sects** also helped the spread of Bhakti ideas, because both traditions stressed **love, devotion, inner experience and equality**, and both challenged rigid external formalism.
- The expansion of **settled peasant communities from the sixth century onwards**, especially in river valleys, provided a social base for new state systems and religious movements. The transformation of tribal groups into settled peasants created new social formations that were receptive to devotional and egalitarian teachings.
- The **simplicity of language** also helped the movement. Since many followers were not literate in Sanskrit, Bhakti teachers used **simple regional languages** rather than elite scriptural language, making religious teachings accessible to the masses.
- Other listed causes included the **influence of Vaishnavism, evil practices within Hindu society, fear of the spread of Islam, influence of Sufi traditions**, and the **emergence of great reformers**, all of which contributed to the growth of Bhakti as a reform-oriented religious movement.

Features of the Bhakti Movement

- The **Bhakti movement** emphasised the **unity of God**, even though God could be known by different names and worshipped in different forms. It promoted the idea that devotion, not ritual status, was the real basis of spiritual progress.
- It condemned **rituals, ceremonies, blind faith and religious formalism**, and it rejected excessive dependence on priestly authority. Many Bhakti saints criticised **idol worship**, while some Saguna traditions accepted worship of a personal deity with form and attributes.
- The movement promoted **surrender of oneself to God**, and regarded **Bhakti as the path to salvation**. It accepted both **Nirguna Bhakti**, which worshipped a formless God, and **Saguna Bhakti**, which worshipped God with form and attributes.
- It encouraged **open-mindedness in religious matters**, rejected caste distinctions, and upheld the **equality of all human beings**. It opposed upper-caste domination and the exclusive use of **Sanskrit**, while promoting **local and regional languages** for preaching and literary creation.
- The Bhakti saints encouraged **simple and ethical living**, challenged social evils such as **untouchability**, and urged

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individuals to live justly. Their teachings fostered **critical thinking** by questioning entrenched religious and social institutions.

Saguna and Nirguna Traditions

- The Bhakti saints were broadly divided into two streams based on their conception of God. **Nirguna Bhakti** believed in an **invisible, formless God without attributes**, and Nirguna poetry was **Jnana-shrayi**, or rooted in knowledge. Important Nirguna saints included **Guru Nanak, Ravidas and Kabir**.
- **Saguna Bhakti** believed in **God with form and attributes**, and Saguna poetry was **Prema-shrayi**, or rooted in love. Important Saguna saints included **Tulsidas, Surdas and Meerabai**.
- Within the broader Bhakti traditions, **Saguna Bhakti** generally involved worship of deities such as **Shiva and Vishnu**, while **Nirguna Bhakti** focused on the worship of a formless Supreme Being. Both traditions differed in theology but shared the wider emphasis on **devotion, spiritual access and personal religious experience**.

Early South Indian Bhakti Traditions

- The early South Indian Bhakti tradition was shaped by the **Nayanars** and **Alvars**, who made devotional religion accessible through **Tamil hymns**, local worship and emotional devotion. They used **Tamil rather than Sanskrit**, which helped bring religious expression closer to common people and marked shrines that later became major temples.
- The **Alvars** were devotees of **Vishnu**. Their devotional hymns were compiled in the **Nalayira Divyaprabandham** or **Divya Prabandha**, and the emotional side of Vaishnavism was represented by their collective songs known as **Prabandham**. Important Alwar saints included **Andal**, the only female Alwar saint and referred to as the **Meera of the South**, along with **Thirumazhisai Alvar, Thiruppaan Alvar, Nammalwar and Kulasekara**.
- The **Nayanars** were devotees of **Shiva**. Their hymns were compiled in **Thirumarai** by **Nambiandar Nambi**, the highest priest of **Raja Raja Chola I**, and the details of the lives of these saints are described in **Tevaram**, which is also called the **Dravida Veda**. Important Nayanar saints included **Tiru Neelakanta, Meiporul, Viral Minda, Amaraneedi and Karaikkal Ammaiyar**, who was a woman saint.
- The **Alvar and Nayanar traditions** gained support from the **Chola rulers between the 9th and 13th centuries**, who built temples, institutionalised the singing of **Tamil Shaiva hymns**, and made land grants to Bhakti temples. This helped integrate Bhakti traditions with **Brahmanical practices** and gave them institutional strength.

Lingayatism, Virashaivism and Sharana Movement

- The **Bhakti movement in Karnataka** was strongly associated with **Basavanna**, who led a major religious and social reform movement in South India. **Lingayatism** emerged as a **Shaivite tradition founded by Basavanna in the 12th century**, and it challenged the **rigid caste system, Brahmanical dominance and ritualism**, while emphasising equality and devotion to Shiva in the form of the **Ishtalinga**.
- The **Vachana literature** emerged as the voice of this movement. It was a unique form of **devotional poetry in Kannada**, authored by saints such as **Basavanna, Allama Prabhu and Akka**

Mahadevi, and it became a medium for spreading social and religious awareness.

- The **Virashaiva or Sharana movement** began in **Karnataka in the mid-12th century** and was a significant expression of the Bhakti movement. It was initiated by **Basavanna** and other Virashaivas such as **Allama Prabhu and Akkamahadevi**, who fought for the **equality of all human beings** and opposed Brahmanical ideas of caste and the poor treatment of women.
- The Virashaivas opposed **religious rituals and idol worship**, challenged the caste system, questioned the theory of rebirth, and encouraged **post-puberty marriage and widow remarriage**. Basavanna spread social awareness through his poetry known as **Vachanas**, and established the **Anubhava Mantapa**, an academy of mystics, saints and philosophers of the **Lingayat faith** within the wider Bhakti context.
- The file also distinguishes **Lingayatism** from the **Veerashaiva sect in Karnataka**, noting that the Veerashaiva sect adhered to **Vedic traditions and caste distinctions**, while Lingayatism promoted **social equality and rejected Brahmanical notions**.

South Indian Acharyas and Vedanta Traditions

- The intellectual side of Vaishnavism was represented by the **Acharyas**, who gave philosophical depth to Bhakti traditions. These Acharyas helped connect devotional practice with systematic Vedantic thought.
- **Shankaracharya (788–820 AD)** was born in **Kerala** and died in **Uttarakhand at Kedarnath**. His guru was **Govinda Bhagavath Pada**. He integrated the essence of **Buddhism** into Hindu thought, interpreted ancient Vedic religion, consolidated the doctrine of **Advaita Vedanta or Non-Dualism**, according to which **God and the created world are one and the individual soul is not different from Brahman**, organised the **Dashanami monastic order**, and unified the **Shanmata tradition of worship**. The **Brhat-Sankara-Vijaya by Citsukha** is mentioned as the oldest biography of Adi Shankara.
- **Ramanuja**, placed in the file as **11th century** and also as **1017–1137 AD**, was the first among the South Indian scholars to defend the Bhakti movement philosophically. He balanced **orthodox Brahmanism with popular bhakti**, making devotion open to all, including **Sudras and outcastes**, though he did not support lower-caste access to the **Vedas**.
- Ramanuja was born in **Tamil Nadu**, his guru was **Yadav Preksha**, and he was the chief proponent of **Vishishtadvaita Vedanta or qualified monism**, according to which there exists plurality and distinction between **Atman and Brahman**. He was also an exponent of the **Sri Vaishnavism tradition** within Hinduism, and his literary works included **Vedartha Sangraham, Sri Bhashyam and Gita Bhashyam**.
- **Nimbarka** was a **Telugu Brahmin** and a younger contemporary of **Ramanuja**. He focused on devotion to **Krishna and Radha**, emphasised Bhakti, and propounded the philosophy of **Bheda-Bheda**, according to which **God, the soul and the world were identical yet distinct**.
- **Madhava or Madhvacharya**, placed in the file as **13th century** and also as **1238–1319 AD**, did not dispute orthodox Brahmanical restrictions on Vedic study by the Sudras, but believed that **Bhakti provided an alternate avenue of worship for the Sudras**.

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His philosophical system was based on the **Bhagavata Purana**, and he is believed to have toured North India. He criticised **Adi Shankara's Advaita Vedanta** and **Ramanuja's Vishishtadvaita Vedanta**, preached **Dvaita or dualism**, according to which divinity was separate from the human conscience or soul, and held that liberation was possible only through the **grace of God**. His book was **Anuvyakhyana**.

- The file also identifies the last two prominent Vaishnava Acharyas as **Ramananda**, belonging to the **late 14th and early 15th century**, and **Vallabha**, belonging to the **late 15th and early 16th century**, both of whom emphasised Bhakti and later became central to North Indian devotional traditions.

Nathpanthis, Siddhas and Yogis

- The **Nathpanthis, Siddhas and Yogis** criticised the ritual and other aspects of conventional religion and the social order through **simple and logical arguments**. They advocated **renunciation of the world**, and for them the path to salvation lay in **meditation on the formless God**.
- To achieve this, they prescribed intense training of the **mind and body** through practices such as **yoga asanas, breathing exercises and meditation**. These groups became especially popular among **low castes**, and their non-conformist ideas helped create space for later devotional movements.

North Indian Bhakti: Broad Character

- The **Bhakti movement in North India** flourished mainly between the **13th and 15th centuries**, when socio-religious movements spread across **North and East India** with an emphasis on **Bhakti, religious equality and access to God beyond rigid ritual structures**. The movement was diverse in nature, as some saints emphasised **monotheism and Nirguna Bhakti**, while Vaishnava saints and poet-devotees popularised **Saguna devotion to Rama or Krishna**.
- The North Indian Bhakti tradition was influenced by earlier **South Indian Acharyas**, especially **Ramananda and Madhava**, and many scholars argue that figures such as **Kabir, Chaitanya and other North Indian Bhakti leaders** were shaped by this broader devotional inheritance. However, the North Indian movements were not uniform. While they promoted **religious equality**, many Vaishnava currents generally did not completely reject the **caste system, Brahmanical scriptures or social privileges**, whereas monotheistic saints such as **Kabir, Ravidas and Guru Nanak** attacked ritualism, caste hierarchy and religious orthodoxy more sharply.
- The major North Indian Bhakti currents included **Vaishnava Bhakti**, represented by saints such as **Ramananda, Vallabhacharya, Surdas, Mirabai, Tulsidas and Chaitanya Mahaprabhu**, and **monotheistic or Nirguna Bhakti**, represented by **Kabir, Guru Ravidas and Guru Nanak**, whose teachings emphasised a **formless, non-incarnate, eternal and ineffable God**.

Ramananda

- Ramananda (1486–1533 AD)** was one of the most prominent scholar-saints of **Vaishnava Bhakti in North India**. He lived in **South India** in the early part of his life and later settled in **Banaras**, becoming a major link between the **South Indian Bhakti tradition and North Indian Vaishnava Bhakti**.

- He belonged to the broad devotional current influenced by **Ramanuja**, but he deviated from earlier South Indian Acharya traditions in three major ways. First, he made **Rama**, rather than **Vishnu**, the central object of devotion, and regarded **Rama as the supreme God to be adored with Sita**, due to which he came to be regarded as the **founder of the Ram cult in North India within the Vaishnava Bhakti framework**.
- Second, Ramananda preached in the **language of the common people rather than Sanskrit**, which made devotional teaching accessible to a wider audience. Third, he made **Bhakti accessible to all irrespective of caste**, significantly relaxing caste rules. Although he was a **Brahman**, he took food with his **low-caste Vaishnava followers**, thereby challenging social restrictions around commensality.
- Ramananda's teachings were similar to those of **Ramanuja**, but he removed the restrictions on **inter-caste dining** and the strict rule that all teachings and texts had to be in **Sanskrit**. His original **twelve disciples**, also referred to as **Avadhutas**, are said to have included at least one **woman**, members of the **lower castes**, including the leatherworker **Ravidas**, and a **Muslim mystic, Kabir**, showing the inclusive character of his devotional tradition.
- He is also described as the **founder of the Sant-parampara**, or the tradition of Bhakti saints in North India. His disciples included **Kabir, Ravidas, Bhagat Pipa, Sukhanand, Sena and Sadhana**. His literary works included **Gyan-lila** and **Yog-cintamani** in **Hindi**, and **Vaisnava Mata Bhajan Bhaskara** and **Ramarcnapaddhati** in **Sanskrit**. His verse is also mentioned in the **Guru Granth Sahib**.

Vallabhacharya

- Vallabhacharya (1479–1531 AD)** was a **Telugu Brahman born in Banaras**, and he became one of the major figures in the spread of **Krishna Bhakti**, especially in the **Mathura region**, which developed as an important centre of Krishna devotion.
- He gave the philosophy of **Shuddha-Dvaita**, also called **pure non-dualism** or complete duality in the file's wording, and his philosophical tradition became known as **Pushtimarga**, meaning the **way of grace**, or the **Vallabha Sampradaya**. According to his teaching, the **entire universe is real and delicately Brahman**, the **individual souls are in quintessence with Brahman**, and **Jiva, Kala or time, and Prakriti are eternal existences**, though they have no separate existence apart from **Brahman**.
- He advocated **Krishna Bhakti**, worshipped Krishna under the title **Srinathji**, and his sect later became especially popular in **Gujarat**. The main temple of the sect is at **Nathdwara in Rajasthan**, where there is a distinctive image of Krishna called **Shri-Nathaji**.
- The file also connects Vallabhacharya with the **Ashtachhap**, noting that the famous Krishna Bhakti saint-poet **Surdas** and seven other Krishna Bhakti poets belonging to this group were believed to have been his disciples. Thus, Vallabhacharya's significance lies not only in philosophy but also in the devotional literary culture associated with Krishna worship.

Surdas

- Surdas (1483–1563 AD)** was a **disciple of Vallabhacharya** and one of the most important poet-saints of the Krishna Bhakti tradition. He was a **blind poet** whose songs centred around **Krishna**, especially the childhood and youth of Krishna, expressed with tenderness, affection and devotional delight.

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- His major work **Sursagar** recounts the exploits of Krishna during childhood and youth. The file also mentions **Sursurvali** among his works. Surdas showed intense devotion to **Radha and Krishna**, and he is regarded as an outstanding devotional poet in **Brajbhasha**, making him central to the growth of North Indian Krishna devotional literature.

Monotheistic Movements of North India

- The **monotheistic movements of North India** were represented mainly by **Kabir, Guru Ravidas and Guru Nanak**. Most of the monotheistic Bhakti saints belonged to **low castes**, were aware of a unity in their ideas, and were also aware of each other's teachings and influence.
- These saints were influenced by **Vaishnavism, the Nathpanthi movement and Sufism**, and their ideas appear as a synthesis of these three traditions. They gave great importance to the **personal experience of God**, and although they used different names and titles for God, their God was **non-incarnate, formless, eternal and ineffable**.
- They refused formal association with the dominant organised religions of the time, namely **Hinduism and Islam**, rejected the authority of the **Brahmans**, attacked the **caste system**, opposed **idolatry**, and composed their poems in **popular languages and dialects across North India**, which enabled them to communicate their ideas to the masses.

Kabir

- Kabir** was the earliest and one of the most powerful figures of the **monotheistic movements that began in the 15th century**. He belonged to a family of **weavers**, known as **Julaha**, who were indigenous converts to Islam, and he spent the greater part of his life in **Banaras**. He is regarded as one of the greatest **mystic saints**, and his followers are called **Kabirpanthis**.
- Kabir is also presented as a major proponent of **Nirguna Bhakti**, which worships the **Supreme Being without form and properties**. This idea had philosophical roots in the **Advaita school**, and it deeply influenced Kabir as well as **Tulsidas**. Kabir's strong opposition to **idolatry** arose from this Nirguna understanding of God.
- Kabir's objective was to **reconcile Hindus and Muslims** and establish harmony between the two communities. He openly criticised orthodox ideas in both **Hinduism and Islam**, denounced **idol worship, fasts, pilgrimages, religious superstitions, bathing in holy rivers and formal worship**, and expressed the idea that **Ram and Rahim are the same**.
- Kabir's poems were called **Banis** or **Dohe**, and his best-known compilation is the **Bijak**. His verses are also found in the **Adi Granth**, the Sikh scripture. **Guru Nanak** mentions Kabir in **Janam Sakhi**, meaning evidence on the story of birth, and describes him as a **Bhagat**, or devotee, equal in merit to Nanak himself.
- Kabir is also described in the file as a disciple of **Ramananda**, and as the first to reconcile **Hinduism and Islam** within the Bhakti tradition. His position as a **Nirguna saint** and critic of religious orthodoxy made him central to the Sant tradition of North India.

Guru Ravidas

- Guru Ravidas** was an Indian **mystic poet-saint** of the Bhakti movement during the **15th to 16th century AD**. He was venerated as a **guru** in regions such as **Punjab, Uttar Pradesh,**

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Rajasthan, Maharashtra and Madhya Pradesh, and his devotional songs had a lasting impact on the Bhakti movement.

- He was a **poet, saint, social reformer and spiritual figure**. According to tradition and medieval texts, Ravidas was one of the disciples of **Ramananda** and a contemporary of the Bhakti saint-poet **Kabir**. His devotional songs were included in the **Guru Granth Sahib**, and the **Panchvani** text of the **Dadupanthi tradition** within Hinduism also contains numerous poems of Ravidas.
- Ravidas taught the removal of **social divisions of caste and gender**, and promoted **unity in the pursuit of personal spiritual freedom**. His songs discuss **Nirguna-Saguna themes** and ideas that form part of the foundation of the **Nath yoga philosophy of Hinduism**. He frequently used the term **Sahaj**, referring to a mystical state involving the union of the truths of the many and the one.

Guru Nanak

- Guru Nanak** was the **first Sikh Guru**, the creator of **Sikhism**, a **Nirguna Bhakti saint**, and a major **social reformer**. His teachings and philosophy form an important part of Indian philosophical thought.
- He was born at **Talwandi village** and died at **Kartarpur**, both located in present-day **Pakistan**. He initially worked as an **accountant**, and later travelled widely across **Asia**, including **Mecca and Baghdad**, spreading the message of **Ik Onkar**, meaning one God. He composed hymns and sang them with the support of the instrument **Rabab**, played by his attendant **Mardana**.
- Guru Nanak preached his ideas in a manner similar to **Kabir and other monotheists**, but later developments transformed his teachings into a mass religion, **Sikhism**. Both **Sufism and Bhakti** contributed to the development of his religious philosophy, and his teachings are described as combining the noblest principles of **Hinduism and Islam**.
- His philosophy consisted of three basic elements: a leading charismatic personality, the **Guru**; ideology, the **Shabad**; and organisation, the **Sangat**. He repudiated **idol worship**, did not favour **pilgrimage**, rejected the theory of **incarnation**, and preached **Nirguna Bhakti**, centred on a Supreme Being without form and properties.
- He emphasised the need for a **true Guru** for revelation and advised people to follow the principles of conduct and worship: **Sach**, meaning truth; **Halal**, meaning lawful earning; **Khair**, meaning wishing well of others; **Niyat**, meaning right intention; and **service to the Lord**.
- Guru Nanak denounced the **caste system** and the inequality it produced. He argued that caste and honour should be judged by the **acts or deeds of individuals**, not by birth. He laid stress on **justice, righteousness and liberty**, and his verses mainly revolve around two key concepts: **Sach**, meaning truth, and **Nam**, meaning name.
- For Guru Nanak, the bases of divine expression were **Sabad**, meaning the word; **Guru**, meaning the divine precept; and **Hukam**, meaning the divine order. He introduced the institution of **Langar**, or community kitchen, and started **Guru-ka-Langar**, which later became a major egalitarian practice. He called God

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Waheguru, described as **shapeless, timeless, omnipresent and invisible**, and promoted **Tauhid-e-Wazidi**.

- The hymns composed by Guru Nanak were incorporated into the **Adi Granth** by the fifth Sikh Guru, **Guru Arjun**, in **1604**. His teachings therefore became both a major component of the Nirguna Bhakti current and the foundation of Sikh religious tradition.

Shared Teachings of Monotheistic Bhakti Saints

- The monotheistic Bhakti saints shared several common ideas. Most of them came from **low-caste backgrounds**, were conscious of the unity of their teachings, and were influenced by **Vaishnavism, Nathpanthi ideas and Sufism**, producing a synthesis of different religious traditions.
- They gave importance to the **personal experience of God**, and their God was understood as **formless, non-incarnate, eternal and ineffable**, even though they used different names and titles for the divine. They refused formal association with the dominant organised religions of the period and rejected the authority of **Brahmans**.
- They attacked the **caste system**, opposed **idolatry**, challenged religious hierarchy, and used **popular languages and dialects** to reach ordinary people. Their message therefore combined **spiritual interiority, social equality and linguistic accessibility**, making them central to North Indian religious reform.
- Regional Bhakti Traditions and Major Saints**
- The **regional Bhakti traditions** expanded the devotional movement beyond its early South Indian and North Indian foundations by giving it strong regional forms through **vernacular languages, poetry, music, kirtana, bhajans and local devotional communities**. These saints made devotion accessible to ordinary people and helped transform Bhakti into a wider social, literary and cultural movement.

Chaitanya Mahaprabhu

- Chaitanya Mahaprabhu (1486–1533 AD)** was a major **Saguna Bhakti saint** and the founder of **modern Vaishnavism in Bengal**. He popularised **Kirtans**, or religious songs, as a major form of worship and spread the chanting of **Hare Rama, Hare Krishna** as an expression of devotion.
- He made famous the practice of worshipping **Radha and Krishna together**, and gave the philosophy of **Achintya Bheda-Abheda**, which became central to his devotional tradition. He did not reject **scriptures** or **idol worship**, and he referred to God as **Hari**.
- Chaitanya Mahaprabhu wrote **Siksastakam**, a Sanskrit text in which he elaborated his philosophy. He also became the inspiration behind **ISKCON**, the **International Society for Krishna Consciousness**, which was founded in the **20th century**.

Shankaradeva

- Shankaradeva (1499–1569 AD)** spread the **Bhakti cult in Assam** and started the **Neo-Vaishnavite movement**. He believed in the worship of **Ekasarana**, meaning **One God**, in the form of **Krishna**, who was also called by names such as **Hari, Narayan and Rama**.
- He translated the **Ramayana** and **Mahabharata** into **Assamese**, thereby making sacred literature available in a regional language. His most famous work was **Kirtana Ghosha**, written in a simple language understood by the masses.

- Shankaradeva wrote in **Assamese** and **Brajavali**, which was a mixture of **Maithili and Assamese**. Through his language, religious vision and literary work, he gave the Bhakti movement a powerful regional expression in Assam.

Mirabai

- Mirabai (1498–1546 AD)** was a staunch devotee of **Lord Krishna** and one of the most important women saints of the Bhakti movement. She composed numerous **songs and poems in honour of Krishna**, expressing intense personal devotion.
- Her **bhajans**, or short religious songs, continue to be sung even today, showing the lasting devotional and cultural impact of her poetry. She belongs to the **Saguna Bhakti** tradition, where devotion centred on a personal God with form and attributes.

Tulsidas

- Tulsidas (1532–1623 AD)** depicted **Rama as an incarnation** and became one of the most influential figures in the devotional worship of Rama. His major work was **Ramcharitmanas**, which brought the story of Rama into a devotional and accessible form.
- The file also mentions Tulsidas in relation to **Saguna Bhakti**, where saints such as **Tulsidas, Surdas and Meerabai** believed in God with form and attributes, and where devotional poetry was **Prema-shrayi**, or rooted in love.

Namdeva

- Namdeva (1270–1350 AD)** belonged to the **Varkari tradition** and was a devotee of **Vittoba**, identified with **Vishnu**. He was the disciple of **Visoba Khechar** and opposed the **caste system**.
- The file describes him as the **only Nirguna saint in Maharashtra**, while also linking him with the devotional worship of Vittoba. This makes him important for understanding the overlap between regional devotional traditions and broader Nirguna tendencies.

Dnyaneshwar

- Dnyaneshwar (1275–1296 AD)** was the founder of the **Bhakti movement in Maharashtra in the 13th century**. He wrote **Dnyaneshwari**, a commentary on the **Bhagavad Gita**, which became one of the most important works of Marathi devotional literature.
- His other work was **Amrutanubhav**, which dealt with **Yoga and philosophy**. He was a worshipper of **Vithoba or Vitthala**, considered a manifestation of **Vishnu**, and he followed the **Nath Yogi tradition**, while also drawing inspiration from the **Upanishads** and the **Bhagavad Gita**.

Eknath

- Eknath (1533–1599 AD)** was a devotee of **Vithoba** and wrote a commentary on verses of the **Bhagavad Gita**. He criticised **caste distinctions**, making him an important figure in the social reform dimension of the Bhakti movement in Maharashtra.

Tukaram

- Tukaram (1598–1650 AD)** was a contemporary of the Maratha king **Shivaji** and a devotee of **Vithal**. He founded the **Varkari sect**, and his teachings are contained in **Abhangas**, which became a major vehicle of devotional expression in Maharashtra.
- The file also identifies **Tukaram** as a prominent Bhakti saint in **Central India**, who worshipped **Krishna as Vithoba**, showing how

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Krishna devotion took regional form through the Varkari tradition.

Ram Das

- **Ram Das (1608–1681 AD)** was the author of **Dasbodh**, and his teachings inspired **Shivaji** to establish an independent kingdom in **Maharashtra**. He is also mentioned in the file as one of the saints who influenced Shivaji, along with **Tukaram**, and as a major figure in the devotional environment that shaped Maratha political imagination.

Purandar Das

- **Purandar Das (1483–1564 AD)** was one of the chief founding proponents of **South Indian classical music**, especially **Carnatic music**. He is often called **Karnataka Sangeeta Pitamaha**, showing the connection between Bhakti devotion and the development of Indian music.

Dadu Dayal

- **Dadu Dayal (1544–1603 AD)** was a disciple of **Kabir** and a supporter of **Hindu-Muslim unity**. His followers were called **Dadu Panthis**, and his tradition continued the monotheistic and syncretic tendencies associated with Kabir.

Guru Ghasidas

- **Guru Ghasidas (1756–1836 AD)** was a famous saint from **Chhattisgarh** and established the **Satnami Community** there. He strongly believed in **equality**, criticised the **oppressive caste system**, was a **monotheist**, and opposed **idol worship**.

Haridas

- **Haridas (1478–1573 AD)** was a great **musician saint** who sang the glories of **Lord Vishnu**. His mention reflects the close relationship between Bhakti devotion and musical expression.

Importance and Impact of the Bhakti Movement

- The Bhakti movement had a deep impact on **Indian society, culture, religion, literature and music**. It encouraged **simple and ethical living** as a path to salvation and challenged immoral social norms and social evils such as **untouchability**, encouraging individuals to live justly.
- The movement fostered **critical thinking** by questioning entrenched religious and social institutions. It made salvation accessible to **women and lower castes**, thereby weakening rigid caste barriers and creating a more inclusive religious society.
- Bhakti saints popularised religious teachings in **vernacular languages**, which increased social awareness and made spiritual knowledge accessible to ordinary people. The movement vocally opposed social evils such as **infanticide, sati, adultery and substance abuse**, contributing to the gradual erosion of these practices.
- It also stimulated the development of **regional languages**, as saints composed poetry, songs and teachings in local languages instead of Sanskrit. Their literary compositions, rendered into forms such as **geet, qawwali and devotional songs**, united people and carried religious ideas across social groups.
- The movement enriched India's cultural heritage through **music and dance**, especially devotional practices such as **kirtana** and dance traditions such as **Sattriya**. By integrating music and poetry into religious worship, Bhakti created a lasting legacy in Indian performing arts.

- The famous songs and verses of Bhakti saints became forerunners of a **musical renaissance**, with group singing at **kirtans** and continued recitation of **Mira's bhajans** and **Tulsidas's chaupais** in prayer gatherings.
- The Bhakti movement did not discriminate on the basis of **caste or gender**, and it gave importance to the **guru or spiritual teacher**, whose role was to provide people with **hope, strength and inner courage**. Saints such as **Kabir and Nanak** stressed the reordering of society along **egalitarian lines**, awakening a new sense of confidence and redefining social and religious values.
- The movement had a lasting influence on **Indian arts, literature, music, dance and theatre**, as devotional songs and poetry inspired classical and popular cultural forms. It democratised art and literature by making them accessible to a wider audience.
- The Bhakti movement also narrowed the divide between **upper and lower castes**, challenged the authority of **Brahmin priests**, promoted **personal devotion to God**, and encouraged the growth of **regional literature and music**. Its influence continues to be visible in modern Indian spirituality and culture.

Bhakti and Cultural Harmony

- The Bhakti movement also contributed to a wider environment of **tolerance, amity and coexistence**, especially through its convergence with **Sufi ideals**. This interaction promoted a shared atmosphere of religious harmony and helped strengthen India's syncretic traditions.

Sufi Movement**Meaning and Core Idea**

- The **Sufi Movement** refers to the rise and spread of **Sufism**, or **Islamic mysticism**, which emphasised **personal experience, direct communion with God, inner purification, love, compassion and spiritual discipline**. It emerged as a response to the **formalism, rigidity and legalistic orientation of institutionalised religion**, and focused on the **inner journey of the soul towards divine truth**, rather than only external rituals and social laws.
- **Sufism** sought to establish a direct spiritual relationship between **man and God**, though the methods of communion were open to interpretation within the broad framework of Islam. The Sufi path stressed that true spirituality comes through **love, surrender, devotion, humility, purification of the heart and experience of divine presence in everyday life**.
- The Sufi order was also known as a **Silsila**, both in India and outside India. Sufis organised themselves into communities centred around **khanqahs**, or hospices, led by a spiritual master known as a **shaikh** or **pir**. These communities formed spiritual lineages that connected disciples to the **Prophet Muhammad**, giving the movement both spiritual authority and institutional continuity.

Origin and Early Growth

- Sufism originated in the early period of Islam, with its origin traced to the **7th century Arabian Peninsula** and its development around the **8th century in the Middle East**. It emerged as a response to increasing **wealth, materialism and rigid external formalism**, encouraging believers to seek a deeper spiritual life through personal experience of God.

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- Early Sufism was marked by **esoteric interpretations of the Quran**, and it emphasised virtues such as **repentance, abstinence and trust in God**. Major early centres included **Mecca, Medina, Basra and Kufa**, where early mystics prioritised internal spiritual practices over rigid religious dogma.
- The first Sufis were mystics who searched for a deeper understanding of the divine. They gave importance to **inner spiritual practices**, meditation, prayer and self-discipline, rather than only the outward performance of religious rituals. For them, **experiencing God directly** was more important than following rigid external formalism.
- The file mentions **Mansur al-Hallaj**, a prominent early Sufi poet and teacher, who gave the mystical formula **"I am God"**, which became important in the evolution of Sufi ideas in **Iran and India**.

Organised Development of Sufism

- Sufism became an organised movement with the establishment of **Turkish rule under the Ghaznavids**, and it flourished under the **Seljuqs** in different parts of **Central Asia, India and Iran** during the later **10th and 11th centuries**. The Sufi movement gained prominence in **Central Asia and Iran between the 8th and 12th centuries AD**, but its full growth in India occurred after the **13th century**, especially with great Sufis such as **Muinuddin Chishti**.
- Although no active Sufi **Silsilas** are said to have functioned in India from the early **8th to 10th centuries**, the file notes that some influence of Sufi culture could still be seen in India during this period. The organised expansion of Sufism in India became clearer with the arrival of Sufi saints from **Central Asia and Persia** from the **12th century onward**, and with the establishment of the **Delhi Sultanate in the early 13th century**.
- These Sufi saints came along with **traders, soldiers and Islamic rulers**, but unlike many orthodox scholars, they emphasised **love, peace and universal brotherhood**, which made their teachings appealing to India's diverse population.

Sufism in India

- The growth of **Sufism in India** was closely connected with the establishment of the **Delhi Sultanate in the early 13th century**, which brought new Sufi orders and practices into the region. The **13th and 14th centuries** marked the major growth of Sufism in India, as Sufi saints spread messages of **compassion and love for all**, also expressed through the idea of **Sulh-i-Kul**.
- **Al-Hujwiri** was the earliest prominent Sufi in India. He settled in **Lahore** and authored **Kashf-ul Mahjub**, which became an important early Sufi work.
- By the **14th century**, Sufi orders had established a strong presence across India from **Multan to Bengal**. The file states that by the **12th century**, Sufis were organised into **12 orders or Silsilas**, showing the institutional development of Sufi organisation.

Philosophy of Sufism

- The philosophy of Sufism centred on **personal devotion to God and spiritual closeness**, where the ultimate aim was to experience God's presence through **inner purity, love and surrender**. Sufis believed that true religious life required an inward transformation, not merely external conformity.

- One of the central ideas of Sufi philosophy was **Fana**, or self-annihilation, in which the individual ego and worldly desires dissolve in the presence of God, leading to complete selflessness. After attaining Fana, the Sufi moves towards **Baqa**, meaning eternal existence in God, where the seeker exists harmoniously with the divine. This journey from separation to union forms the spiritual path of the Sufi.
- The Sufi path involved **Zikr**, meaning remembrance of God, where divine names or phrases were repeated to focus the mind and heart on God. Along with **meditation and asceticism**, Zikr helped purify the soul and cultivate inner awareness. Many Sufis renounced material pleasures, lived simple lives and used self-discipline to remove distractions from the spiritual path.
- Sufism also taught **universal love and the oneness of all creation**. It held that the entire creation reflects God's presence, and therefore love becomes the most powerful force connecting all beings with God and with one another. This philosophy transcended barriers of **religion, race and caste**, and promoted **compassion, tolerance and inclusivity**.

Practices and Institutions

- Sufi practice was organised around the relationship between the **Pir or Shaikh** and the **Murid**, or disciple. The **Murshid**, meaning teacher, guided the disciple through spiritual exercises and stages of inner growth. The Pir offered **wisdom, teaching and guidance**, helping the disciple move towards divine realisation.
- Sufis practised **self-mortification, Zikr, Sama and Fana-o-Baqa** to induce mystical states of spiritual ecstasy. **Sama**, or musical recital, became an important devotional practice among several Sufi traditions. The file also notes that the path of communion with God could be achieved by **reciting musical poems praising God**.
- **Dargahs**, the shrines built over the graves of Sufi saints, became important centres of pilgrimage known as **Ziyarat**, where people sought **spiritual blessings**. These dargahs became both **spiritual centres and hubs of social and cultural interaction**, attracting followers from different faiths and social backgrounds for prayer, meditation, music and charity.
- Dargahs also functioned as spaces of **community support**, where the poor and needy could seek help. Their inclusive atmosphere made them significant institutions of both spiritual devotion and social unity in India.

Types of Sufi Orders

- Sufi orders in India were broadly classified into two categories. **Ba-shara** orders followed **Islamic law or Sharia**, while **Be-shara** orders were not bound by Islamic law in the same way. This distinction reflected different approaches within the Sufi world toward the relationship between mysticism and formal religious law.
- The major Sufi orders in India included the **Chishti, Suhrawardi, Qadiri, Naqshbandi and Rishi** orders. These Silsilas differed in their relationship with the state, attitude towards music and ritual, approach to Sharia, and level of interaction with society.

Chishti Order

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- The **Chishti Order** was the most influential Sufi order in India. It was introduced or founded in India by **Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti** at **Ajmer** during the reign of **Muhammad Ghori**. He was also known as **Gharib Nawaz**, meaning protector or benefactor of the poor, and his message of **love, harmony, compassion, generosity, hospitality and service to humanity** attracted people from all backgrounds.
- The **Ajmer Sharif Dargah** of Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti became one of India's most important pilgrimage sites, attracting both **Muslim and non-Muslim devotees** seeking blessings and spiritual solace. His teachings focused on **compassion for the underprivileged** and the unity of people irrespective of religion or social status.
- The Chishti order emphasised **love as the bond between God and individuals**, tolerance of different faiths, simplicity, and service to humanity. The Chishtis generally avoided close contact with the ruling class, unlike some other Sufi orders.
- Important Chishti saints included **Hamiduddin Nagori, Qutbuddin Bakhtiyar Kaki, Baba Farid and Nizamuddin Auliya**. Chishti devotionalism included **Ziyarat** to the tombs of saints and **Qawwali**, or mystical music, which helped promote religious pluralism.
- **Nizamuddin Auliya** of Delhi was one of the most famous Chishti saints. He emphasised **tolerance, charity and social welfare**, teaching that love for God is expressed through love for all humanity. The **Nizamuddin Dargah in Delhi** remains a major cultural and spiritual centre and continues to be a hub of **qawwali performances**, attracting devotees from different backgrounds.
- **Baba Farid**, also called **Fariduddin Ganjshakar**, played an important role in spreading the Chishti order in **Northern India**, especially in the **Punjab region**. His teachings stressed **humility, devotion to God, simplicity and spiritual surrender**. Some of his poetry and hymns were included in the **Guru Granth Sahib**, helping bridge devotional traditions across **Hinduism, Sikhism and Islam**.
- **Sheikh Salim Chishti** of **Fatehpur Sikri** was a revered Chishti saint of the Mughal period and had spiritual influence on **Emperor Akbar**. Akbar is said to have sought his blessings for a male heir, and after the birth of his son, he named him **Salim**, later **Emperor Jahangir**, in honour of the saint. The tomb of Sheikh Salim Chishti at **Fatehpur Sikri near Agra** became an important pilgrimage site and an architectural monument.

Suhrawardi Order

- The **Suhrawardi Order** was introduced in India by **Bahauddin Zakaria in Multan**. This order followed a relatively more **orthodox approach** than the Chishtis and combined **mysticism with Islamic jurisprudence**, maintaining a balance between spiritual life and Islamic law.
- Unlike the Chishtis, the Suhrawardis accepted **state assistance, gifts and posts from the government**, and interacted with political authorities. **Bahauddin Zakaria** served in the court of **Iltutmish** and was appointed **Shaikh-ul-Islam**.
- The order was known for living in relative **luxury**, accepting official support, and advocating the combination of **religious**

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knowledge with mysticism. Suhrawardi leaders often advised or mediated with political figures, which made them important actors in the socio-political landscape of medieval India.

Qadiri Order

- The **Qadiri Order** was founded by **Sheikh Abdul Qadir Jilani in Baghdad** and spread to India in the **16th century**. It emphasised **personal piety, self-discipline and devotion to God**.
- Although it was not as politically prominent as the **Chishti** or **Suhrawardi** orders, it gained a dedicated following, especially in the **Deccan and Punjab**. Its followers stressed living a **pure spiritual life** in accordance with Islamic teachings, and they engaged in **Zikr, charity and community service**.
- **Naqshbandi Order**
- The **Naqshbandi Order** emphasised the primacy of **Shariat** and opposed innovations or **Biddat**. It rejected several Sufi practices such as **musical assemblies or Sama** and **pilgrimages to saints' tombs**.
- This order was known for **silent Zikr**, unlike other Sufi orders that used vocal forms of remembrance. It was introduced in India by **Khwaja Bahauddin Naqshband** and became influential during the **Mughal period**, especially under **Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi**.
- **Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi** promoted the doctrine of **Wahdat-ul-Shuhud**, or apparentism, and tried to revive **orthodox Sunni Islam**, especially against what he saw as excessive syncretism in the Mughal court during **Akbar's reign**.

Rishi Order

- The **Rishi Order** of Sufism flourished in **Kashmir during the 15th and 16th centuries**. It was established by **Shaikh Nuruddin Wali** and prospered in the rural environment of Kashmir.
- The order drew inspiration from the **popular Shaivite Bhakti tradition**, the teachings of the Bhakti saint **Lal Ded**, and the socio-cultural environment of Kashmir. The Rishis adopted aspects of **Kashmiri Shaivism** and incorporated local devotional practices into their Sufi philosophy, making it deeply rooted in the religious life of the region.

Hazrat Amir Khusro

- **Hazrat Amir Khusro**, a disciple of **Nizamuddin Auliya**, was a poet, musician and scholar whose contribution became central to Sufi culture in India. He is credited with developing the **Qawwali** form of devotional music and is often regarded as the **father of Qawwali**.
- Khusro significantly influenced the evolution of **classical Hindustani music**, and his literary work used **Persian, Urdu and Hindi**, blending Indian and Persian musical and literary traditions. His contribution made him a cultural bridge between different communities, and his devotion to **Nizamuddin Auliya** became legendary in Sufi memory.

Medieval History Dynasty Chronology

North and North-West India

Pratiharas

- The **Pratiharas** flourished between the **8th and 11th century CE** and emerged as an important power in **North India**. Their key rulers were **Nagabhata I**, **Mihira Bhoja** and **Mahendrapala**. They defended **North India against Arab invasions**, patronised **art and literature**, and strengthened regional power in northern India.
- Chandelas of Bundelkhand**
- The **Chandelas of Bundelkhand** ruled between the **9th and 13th century CE**. Their key rulers included **Yashovarman**, **Dhanga** and **Vidyadhara**. They achieved regional dominance in **Central India** and constructed the famous **Khajuraho temples**, which remain their most important cultural contribution.

Paramaras

- The **Paramaras** ruled between the **9th and 14th century CE** and were prominent in **Malwa**. Their key rulers were **Vakpati Munja** and **Bhoja**. They contributed to architecture, especially through works such as the **Bhojeshwar Temple**.

Tomaras of Dhillika

- The **Tomaras of Dhillika**, associated with **Delhi**, ruled between the **9th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers included **Anangpal I** and **Anangpal II**. They founded the city of **Dhillika**, identified with **Delhi**, and laid the political groundwork for the later rise of the **Delhi Sultanate**.

Chahamanas or Chauhans of Sakambhari

- The **Chahamanas**, also called the **Chauhans of Sakambhari**, ruled between the **10th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers included **Vigraharaja IV** and **Prithviraj Chauhan**. They played a major role in resisting invasions in North India. **Prithviraj Chauhan** fought against **Muhammad Ghori** in the **Battles of Tarain**, making the dynasty important in the political transition before Turkish rule.

Kalachuris of Tripuri

- The **Kalachuris of Tripuri** ruled between the **10th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Kokalla I** and **Gangeyadeva**. They controlled parts of **Central India** and contributed to the development of **Kalachuri-style temple architecture**.

Chalukyas or Solankis of Gujarat

- The **Chalukyas**, also known as the **Solankis of Gujarat**, ruled from **950 to 1300 CE**. Their important rulers were **Mularaja**, **Bhima I** and **Siddharaja Jayasimha**. They promoted architecture such as the **Modhera Sun Temple**, resisted **Mahmud of Ghazni**, and supported **Jainism**.

Karkota Dynasty

- The **Karkota Dynasty** ruled **Kashmir** between the **7th and 9th century CE**. Its most important ruler was **Lalitaditya Muktapida**. The dynasty expanded into **Central Asia**, built the **Martand Sun Temple**, and promoted **Sanskrit culture**.

Gahadavalas

- The **Gahadavalas** ruled between the **11th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Govindachandra** and **Jayachandra**. They played a key role in the politics of **Kanauj** before their defeat by **Muhammad Ghori** in the **Battle of Chandawar in 1194**.

Slave Dynasty

- The **Slave Dynasty** ruled from **1206 to 1290 CE** and established the **Delhi Sultanate**. Its important rulers were **Qutubuddin Aibak**, **Iltutmish**, **Razia Sultana** and **Balban**. The dynasty initiated **Indo-Islamic architecture**, including the **Qutub Minar**, implemented administrative reforms, and strengthened the military.

Khilji Dynasty

- The **Khilji Dynasty** ruled from **1290 to 1320 CE**. Its key rulers were **Jalaluddin Khalji** and **Alauddin Khalji**. The dynasty expanded the Sultanate's boundaries, resisted **Mongol invasions**, established **market control policies**, and promoted architectural innovations.

Tughlaq Dynasty

- The **Tughlaq Dynasty** ruled from **1320 to 1414 CE**. Its key rulers included **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq**, **Muhammad bin Tughlaq** and **Firoz Shah Tughlaq**. The dynasty introduced controversial reforms, such as **Muhammad bin Tughlaq's shifting of the capital**, developed infrastructure like **canals**, and emphasised administrative reforms. **Nasir-ud-Din Mahmud Shah Tughluq** was the last Sultan of the Tughlaq dynasty, and **Timur invaded India in 1398 AD** during his reign.

Sayyid Dynasty

- The **Sayyid Dynasty** ruled from **1414 to 1451 CE**. Its important rulers were **Khizr Khan** and **Mubarak Shah**. It was a relatively weak dynasty, served as a vassal of the **Timurid Empire**, faced frequent revolts, and struggled to maintain central authority.

Lodi Dynasty

- The **Lodi Dynasty** ruled from **1451 to 1526 CE** and was the last dynasty of the **Delhi Sultanate**. Its important rulers were **Bahlol Lodi**, **Sikandar Lodi** and **Ibrahim Lodi**. The dynasty attempted administrative and military consolidation but ended after **Ibrahim Lodi's defeat by Babur in the Battle of Panipat in 1526**, leading to the establishment of the **Mughal Empire**.

Mughal Empire

- The **Mughal Empire** is placed in the chronology from **1526 to 1707 CE**. Its key rulers were **Babur**, **Akbar**, **Shah Jahan** and **Aurangzeb**. It expanded a **centralised empire**, promoted **cultural**

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synthesis, and left architectural legacies such as the **Taj Mahal** and **Red Fort**.

East and North-East India**Shailodbhava Dynasty**

- The **Shailodbhava Dynasty** ruled parts of **Odisha** between the **6th and 8th century CE**. Its important ruler was **Sainyabhita Madhavavarman**, also called **Srinivasa**. The dynasty promoted **Shaivism** and contributed to early **Odisha temple architecture**, including the temples of **Bhubaneswar**.

Kamarupa Kingdom or Varman Dynasty

- The **Kamarupa Kingdom**, associated with the **Varman Dynasty**, existed from the **4th to 12th century CE** and was centred in **Assam**. Its important ruler was **Bhaskaravarman**. It resisted **Huna invasions** and maintained relations with **Harshavardhana** and **Chinese travellers**.

Palas

- The **Palas** ruled between the **8th and 12th century CE** in **Bengal and Bihar**. Their important rulers were **Gopala**, **Dharmapala** and **Devapala**. They had strong **Buddhist influence**, founded **Vikramshila University** under **Dharmapala**, and revived **Nalanda University**.

Senas of East Bengal

- The **Senas of East Bengal** ruled between the **11th and 13th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Vijayasena**, **Ballalasena** and **Lakshmanasena**. They replaced the **Palas in Bengal**, promoted **Hinduism**, contributed to **Bengali culture and literature**, and built the **Dhakeshwari Temple**. **Ikhtiar uddin Muhammad bin Bakhtiyar Khilji** of the **Delhi Sultanate** defeated **Lakshman Sen** at **Nabadwip** in **1203-1204** and conquered most of **Bengal**.

Somavamsis of Odisha

- The **Somavamsis of Odisha** ruled between the **9th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Yayati I** and **Udyotakesari**. They built temples such as the **Lingaraja Temple** in **Bhubaneswar** and promoted **Shaivism**.
- Chalukyas of Vengi or Eastern Chalukyas**
- The **Chalukyas of Vengi**, also called the **Eastern Chalukyas**, ruled between the **7th and 12th century CE**. Their important ruler was **Kubja Vishnuvardhana**. They played a key role in **Andhra's history**, patronised **Telugu literature**, and developed **temple architecture**.

Kambojas of Bengal

- The **Kambojas of Bengal** ruled during the **10th century CE**. Their important ruler was **Rajendra Kamboja**. They briefly controlled **Bengal** and strengthened regional powers.

Eastern Gangas

- The **Eastern Gangas** ruled between the **11th and 15th century CE**. Their important ruler was **Anantavarman Chodaganga**. They built the **Sun Temple at Konark** and patronised **Jagannath worship** in **Odisha**.

Ahom Dynasty

- The **Ahom Dynasty** ruled from the **13th to 19th century CE**. Its important figures were **Sukapha**, **Rudra Singha** and **Lachit Borphukan**. It unified **Assam**, resisted **Mughal invasions**, and developed a unique administrative system and **Tai-Ahom culture**.

Gajapati Dynasty

- The **Gajapati Dynasty** ruled **Odisha** between the **15th and 16th century CE**. Its important rulers were **Kapilendra Deva** and **Purushottama Deva**. It promoted **Jagannath worship** and expanded into **Andhra and Bengal**.

Central and South India**Western Gangas**

- The **Western Gangas** ruled **Karnataka** between the **4th and 10th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Durvinita** and **Shivamara II**. They supported **Jainism** and built the **Gomateshwara statue at Shravanabelagola**.

Rashtrakutas

- The **Rashtrakutas** ruled between the **8th and 10th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Dantidurga**, **Dhurva III**, **Govinda III** and **Amoghavarsha I**. They dominated the **Deccan and parts of North India**, promoted **Kannada literature**, and built architectural marvels such as the **Kailasa Temple at Ellora**, associated with **Krishna I**.

Yadavas of Devagiri

- The **Yadavas of Devagiri** ruled between the **12th and 14th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Bhillama V** and **Ramachandra**. They established rule in **Devagiri**, resisted invasions by **Alauddin Khalji**, but eventually fell to the **Delhi Sultanate in 1307 CE**.

Later Chalukyas of Kalyani

- The **Later Chalukyas of Kalyani** ruled between the **10th and 12th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Vikramaditya VI** and **Someshvara I**. They continued the **Chalukyan legacy**, contributed to **temple architecture**, and resisted **Chola advances**.

Imperial Cholas

- The **Imperial Cholas** ruled between the **9th and 13th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Vijayalaya**, **Rajaraja I** and **Rajendra I**. They reached maritime and territorial zenith, built the **Brihadeshwara Temple** under **Raja Raja I**, and conducted **naval expeditions to Southeast Asia**.

Pandyas

- The **Pandyas** ruled between the **6th and 14th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Maravarman Sundara Pandyan** and **Jatavarman Sundara Pandyan**. They were known for temple construction, including the **Meenakshi Temple**, **Tamil literature**, and trade links with **Southeast Asia**.

Hoysalas

- The **Hoysalas** ruled between the **10th and 14th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Vishnuvardhana** and **Ballala II**. They built architectural wonders such as the **Hoysaleswara Temple at Halebidu** and promoted **Kannada literature**.

Kakatiyas

- The **Kakatiyas** ruled **Andhra Pradesh** between the **12th and 14th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Rudrama Devi** and **Ganapati Deva**. They built the **Warangal Fort** and resisted **Delhi Sultanate invasions**.

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Vijayanagara Empire

- The **Vijayanagara Empire** ruled between the **14th and 17th century CE**. Its important rulers were **Harihara I and Bukka, Devraya II and Krishnadevaraya**. It promoted a golden age of **art, literature and architecture**, built the **Hampi monuments**, and resisted the **Bahmani Sultanate**.

Bahmani Sultanate

- The **Bahmani Sultanate** ruled between the **14th and 16th century CE**. Its important figures were **Alauddin Hasan Bahman Shah and Muhammad Gawan**. It established **Indo-Islamic culture in the Deccan** and laid the foundation for later **Deccan Sultanates**.

Deccan Sultanates

- The **Deccan Sultanates** flourished between the **16th and 17th century CE** as successors of the **Bahmani Sultanate**. They were known for **Indo-Islamic art and architecture**.

Bijapur Sultanate

- The **Bijapur Sultanate** ruled from **1490 to 1686 CE**. Its important rulers were **Ibrahim Adil Shah II and Muhammad Adil Shah**. It is known for architectural achievements such as the **Gol Gumbaz** and cultural patronage, including **Dakhini literature**.

Golconda Sultanate

- The **Golconda Sultanate** ruled from **1518 to 1687 CE**. Its important rulers were **Quli Qutb-ul-Mulk and Abdullah Qutb Shah**. It was famous for the **Golconda Fort**, patronage of **Deccan miniature painting**, and the **diamond trade**.

Ahmadnagar Sultanate

- The **Ahmadnagar Sultanate** ruled from **1490 to 1636 CE**. Its important figures were **Malik Ahmad Nizam Shah and Chand Bibi**. It played a key role in resisting **Mughal advances** and promoted **Indo-Islamic architecture**.

Bidar Sultanate

- The **Bidar Sultanate** ruled from **1492 to 1619 CE**. Its important rulers were **Qasim Barid I and Amir Barid II**. It contributed to **Indo-Islamic architecture**, and **Bidar Fort** is a notable structure.

Berar Sultanate

- The **Berar Sultanate** ruled from **1490 to 1574 CE**. Its important rulers were **Fathullah Imad-ul-Mulk and Ala-ud-Din Imad Shah**. It briefly flourished before being absorbed into the **Ahmadnagar Sultanate**.

Marathas

- The **Marathas** ruled between the **17th and 19th century CE**. Their important rulers were **Sambhaji and Shivaji**. They established a strong **Hindu empire**, developed **guerrilla warfare tactics**, and resisted **Mughal rule**.

Peshwas

- The **Peshwas** administered the **Maratha Empire** in the **18th century CE**. Important Peshwas were **Balaji Vishwanath, Bajirao I and Madhavrao I**. They expanded Maratha territory and played a key role in the **Third Battle of Panipat in 1761**.

Important Scholars, Poets and Playwrights**Magha**

- Magha** belonged to the **Pratihara** period and was patronised by **Nagabhata I (c. 750–780 CE)**. His key work was **Shishupalavadha**,

an epic Sanskrit **kavya** regarded as a masterpiece of ornate poetry.

Rajasekhara

- Rajasekhara** belonged to the **Gurjara-Pratihara** period and was associated with **Mahendrapala I (c. 885–910 CE)** and **Mahipala I (913–944 AD)**. His key work was **Kavyamimamsa**, a treatise on poetics and a guide for poets and dramatists.

Amoghavarsha I

- Amoghavarsha I** belonged to the **Rashtrakuta** dynasty and ruled around **c. 814–878 CE**. His works were **Kavirajamarga** and **Ranamalika**. **Kavirajamarga** is the earliest work on Kannada poetics and established the foundation of **Kannada literature**.

Svayambhu

- Svayambhu** was associated with the **Rashtrakuta** period. He was a great **Apabhramsha poet**, and his son probably lived at the **Rashtrakuta court**.

Kavichakravarthi Ponna

- Kavichakravarthi Ponna** belonged to the **Rashtrakuta** period and was patronised by **Krishna III (c. 939–967 CE)**. His key work was **Shantipurana**. He was a renowned **Kannada poet** and one of the three **Ratnas of Kannada literature**.

Sandhyakar Nandi

- Sandhyakar Nandi** belonged to the **Pala** period and was patronised by **Ramapala (1077–1130 CE)**. His key work was **Ramacharitam**, a Sanskrit historical poem that blended history and legend and documented the **Pala dynasty**.

Raja Bhoja

- Raja Bhoja** belonged to the **Paramara** dynasty and ruled between **1010 and 1055 CE**. His important works were **Sarasvati-Kanthabharana** and **Rajamartanda**. He was a scholar-king known for contributions to **Sanskrit literature and philosophy**.

Somadeva

- Somadeva** belonged to **Kashmir** and was associated with **King Ananta (1028–1063 CE)**. His key work was **Kathasaritsagara**, a Sanskrit epic compiling Indian folktales, mythology and legends.

Kalhana

- Kalhana** belonged to **Kashmir** and was associated with **King Jayasimha (1128–1155 CE)**. His key work was **Rajatarangini**, the first historical chronicle of Kashmir, blending history and legend.

Adikavi Pampa

- Adikavi Pampa** belonged to the **Western Chalukya** period and was patronised by **Arikesari II in the 10th century CE**. His key works were **Adi Purana** and **Vikramarjuna Vijaya**. He was a pioneer of **Kannada literature** and is considered the **Adikavi or First Poet of Kannada**.

Kavichakravarti Ranna

- Kavichakravarti Ranna** belonged to the **Western Chalukya** period and was patronised by **Tailapa II in the 10th century CE**. His key work was **Gadayuddha**. He was a celebrated **Kannada poet**, known for vivid narrative style and **Jain influences**.

Bilhana

- Bilhana** belonged to the **Western Chalukya** period and was patronised by **Vikramaditya VI (1076–1126 CE)**. His key work was **Vikramankadevacharita**, a biographical **kavya** eulogising his patron and documenting contemporary history.

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Vijñaneshvara

- **Vijñaneshvara** belonged to the **Western Chalukya** period and was patronised by **Vikramaditya VI (1076–1126 CE)**. His key work was **Mitākshara**, a commentary on the **Yajñavalkya Smṛiti** and a foundational text for **Hindu jurisprudence**.

Nannayya

- **Nannayya** belonged to the **Chalukyas of Vengi** period and was patronised by **Rajaraja Narendra (1022–1061 CE)**. He began translating the **Mahabharata into Telugu**, marking the rise of classical **Telugu literature**.

Jayadeva

- **Jayadeva** belonged to the **Eastern Ganga** period and was patronised by **Narasimhadeva I (1238–1264 CE)**. His key work was **Gita Govinda**, celebrated devotional poetry in Sanskrit and central to **Vaishnavism** and the **Bhakti tradition**.

Tikkana

- **Tikkana** belonged to the **Kakatiya** period and was associated with **Rudrama Devi (1262–1289 CE)**. His key work was **Nirvachanottara Ramayanamu**. He translated the **Mahabharata into Telugu**, enriching Telugu literature.

Purandaradasa

- **Purandaradasa** is associated with **Devaranamas**, or devotional songs. He is remembered as the **father of Carnatic music** and composed thousands of devotional songs in **Kannada and Sanskrit**.

Kanaka Dasa

- **Kanaka Dasa** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** period. His works included **Nala Charitra**, **Nara Simhastava**, **Haribhaktisara** and **Ramadhanya Charitre**. He was a Bhakti poet-saint who wrote in **Kannada**, promoting equality and devotion to **Lord Krishna**.

Krishnadevaraya

- **Krishnadevaraya** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** empire and ruled between **1509 and 1529 CE**. His key work was **Amuktamalyada**, a Telugu epic on administration and devotion, portraying the story of **Andal** and **Lord Ranganatha**.

Mallanarya

- **Mallanarya** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** period and was patronised by **Saluva Narasimha (1485–1491 CE)**. His works were **Bhavachinta Ratna** and **Veera Saivamruta**, philosophical works on **Veerashaivism** reflecting the socio-religious fabric of the Vijayanagara Empire.

Allasani Peddana

- **Allasani Peddana** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** period and was patronised by **Krishnadevaraya (1509–1529 CE)**. His works included **Manucharitam** and **Harikathasaram**. He was considered the **Andhra Kavita Pitamaha**, or Father of Telugu Poetry, and his works focused on morals and devotion.

Tenali Ramakrishna

- **Tenali Ramakrishna** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** period and was patronised by **Krishnadevaraya (1509–1529 CE)**. His works included **Panduranga Mahatyam**, **Udbhataardya Charitam** and **Ghatikachala Mahatyam**. He blended humour with devotion and is known for his wit and contributions to Telugu literature.

Kaviraja Madhava Kavi

- **Kaviraja Madhava Kavi** belonged to the **Vijayanagara** period and was patronised by **Krishnadevaraya (1509–1529 CE)**. His works included **Madalasa Charita** and **Satyavedu Parinaya**. He was a celebrated poet whose works reflected classical **Sanskrit literary traditions**.

Kshetravaya

- **Kshetravaya** is associated with **Padams**, or devotional songs. He was a Bhakti poet known for devotional compositions in **Telugu** focusing on **Lord Krishna**.

Amir Khusrau

- **Amir Khusrau** belonged to the **Delhi Sultanate**, especially the **Khilji and Tughlaq** period, and was associated with **Alauddin Khilji** and **Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq**. His key works included **Tughlaqnama** and **Kiran-us-Sa'dain**. He is known as the **Parrot of India**, a Sufi poet who wrote in **Persian, Hindavi and Arabic**, and is associated with the introduction of **ghazals** and **qawwali**.

Ziauddin Barani

- **Ziauddin Barani** belonged to the **Delhi Sultanate**, particularly the **Tughlaq** period. His works included **Tarikh-i-Firoz Shahi** and **Fatwa-i-Jahandari**. He was a historian and political thinker who chronicled the history of the **Delhi Sultanate**.

Raja Man Singh Tomar

- **Raja Man Singh Tomar** belonged to the **Delhi Sultanate period in Malwa** and ruled between **1486 and 1516 CE**. His key work was **Mankutuhl**. He patronised **Dhrupad music**, and his court became a centre of music and arts.

Abul Fazl

- **Abul Fazl** belonged to the **Mughal Empire under Akbar** and is associated with **Akbar (1551–1602 CE)** in the chronology. His works were **Akbarnama** and **Ain-i-Akbari**. He was Akbar's court historian and chronicled **Mughal administration** and **Akbar's policies**.

Faizi

- **Faizi** belonged to the **Mughal Empire under Akbar** and is associated with **Akbar (1547–1595 CE)** in the chronology. His works included **Nal-Daman** and translations of **Sanskrit works**. He was Akbar's court poet, wrote in **Persian**, and translated Sanskrit texts into Persian.

Tansen

- **Tansen** belonged to the **Mughal Empire under Akbar** in the **16th century CE**. He is associated with **Hindustani classical compositions**. He was a legendary musician in Akbar's court and is credited with creating the **Dhrupad style of singing**.

Badauni

- **Badauni** belonged to the **Mughal Empire under Akbar** and is associated with **1540–1615 CE**. His work was **Muntakhab-ut-Tawarikh**. He was a historian critical of **Akbar's policies** and provided alternative perspectives to **Abul Fazl's works**.

Abdur Rahim Khan-i-Khanan

- **Abdur Rahim Khan-i-Khanan** belonged to the **Mughal Empire under Akbar** and is associated with **1556–1627 CE**. His work was **Rahim Satsai**, composed of Hindi couplets. He wrote **dohas** in **Hindi and Persian**, blending **Bhakti and Sufi traditions**.

Mirza Ghalib

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- **Mirza Ghalib** belonged to the **later Mughal period**. His key work was **Divan-e-Ghalib**. He was a renowned **Urdu and Persian poet** and exemplified **Mughal literary refinement in the later era**.

One Combined Trap Segment

- **Karkota Dynasty** belongs to **Kashmir**, while **Kamarupa or Varman Dynasty** belongs to **Assam**.
- **Tomaras of Dhilika** are linked with the early foundation of **Delhi**, while the **Slave Dynasty** established the **Delhi Sultanate**.
- **Prithviraj Chauhan** is linked with **Muhammad Ghori** and the **Battles of Tarain**, while **Jayachandra** is linked with the **Battle of Chandawar in 1194**.
- **Nasir-ud-Din Mahmud Shah Tughluq** was the last ruler of the **Tughlaq dynasty**, and **Timur invaded India in 1398 AD** during his reign.
- **Lodi Dynasty** was the last dynasty of the **Delhi Sultanate**, and its defeat in **1526** led to the rise of the **Mughal Empire**.
- **Palas** are linked with **Vikramshila, Nalanda** and Buddhist influence, while **Senas** replaced them in Bengal and promoted **Hinduism**.
- **Eastern Gangas** are linked with the **Konark Sun Temple**, while **Somavamsis** are linked with the **Lingaraja Temple**.
- **Western Gangas** are linked with the **Gomateshwara statue at Shravanabelagola**, while **Eastern Chalukyas of Vengi** are linked with **Telugu literature**.
- **Rashtrakutas** are linked with the **Kailasa Temple at Ellora**, while **Imperial Cholas** are linked with the **Brihadeshwara Temple** and naval expeditions to **Southeast Asia**.
- **Yadavas of Devagiri** fell to the **Delhi Sultanate in 1307 CE**, while **Kakatiyas** resisted Delhi Sultanate invasions and built the **Warangal Fort**.
- **Vijayanagara** resisted the **Bahmani Sultanate**, while the **Bahmani Sultanate** laid the foundation for the later **Deccan Sultanates**.
- **Bijapur** is linked with **Gol Gumbaz** and **Dakhini literature**, **Golconda** with **diamond trade**, **Ahmadnagar** with resistance to **Mughal advances**, **Bidar** with **Bidar Fort**, and **Berar** with absorption into **Ahmadnagar**.
- **Magha** is linked with **Shishupalavadha**, while **Rajasekhara** is linked with **Kavyamimamsa**.
- **Amoghavarsha I** is linked with **Kavirajamarga**, the earliest work on **Kannada poetics**, while **Ponna** is linked with **Shantipurana** and the **Ratnas of Kannada literature**.
- **Sandhyakar Nandi** wrote **Ramacharitam** under the **Palas**, while **Kalhana** wrote **Rajatarangini** in **Kashmir**.
- **Adikavi Pampa** is called the **First Poet of Kannada**, while **Allasani Peddana** is called **Andhra Kavita Pitamaha**.
- **Bilhana** wrote **Vikramankadevacharita**, while **Vijñaneshvara** wrote **Mitakshara**, a foundational text for **Hindu jurisprudence**.
- **Nannayya** began translating the **Mahabharata into Telugu**, while **Tikkana** also enriched Telugu literature through Mahabharata translation.
- **Jayadeva's Gita Govinda** is linked with **Vaishnavism and Bhakti tradition**, while **Purandaradasa** is remembered as the **father of Carnatic music**.
- **Krishnadevaraya** wrote **Amuktamalyada**, while **Tenali Ramakrishna** is linked with humour, devotion and Telugu literature.
- **Amir Khusrau** is the **Parrot of India** and is linked with **ghazals and qawwali**, while **Tansen** is linked with **Dhrupad** in Akbar's court.
- **Abul Fazl's Akbarnama and Ain-i-Akbari** present Mughal administration and Akbar's policies, while **Badauni's Muntakhab-ut-Tawarikh** provides a critical alternative perspective on Akbar.
- **Abdur Rahim Khan-i-Khanan** blended **Bhakti and Sufi traditions**, while **Mirza Ghalib** represents later Mughal literary refinement.